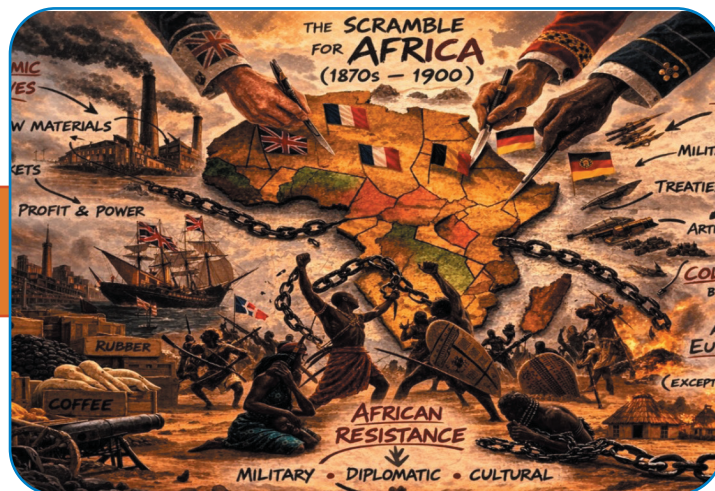


History

Senior Five



Student's Book

Languages Pathway

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FOREWORD

Dear Student,

Rwanda Basic Education Board is honoured to present to you this Senior 5 History Book which serves as a guide to competence-based teaching and learning to ensure consistency and coherence in the learning of History subject. The Rwandan educational philosophy is to ensure that you achieve full potential at every level of education which will prepare you to be well integrated in society and exploit employment opportunities.

The Government of Rwanda emphasizes the importance of aligning teaching and learning materials with the syllabus to facilitate your learning process. Many factors influence what you learn, how well you learn and the competences you acquire. Those factors include the instructional materials available among others. Special attention was paid to the activities that facilitate the learning process in which you can develop your ideas and make new discoveries during concrete activities carried out individually or with peers.

In competence-based curriculum, learning is considered as a process of active building and developing knowledge and meanings by the learner where concepts are mainly introduced by an activity, a situation or a scenario that helps the learner to construct knowledge, develop skills and acquire positive attitudes and values. For effective use of this textbook, your role is to:

Work on given activities which lead to the achievement of necessary competences development of skills

Share relevant information with other learners through presentations, discussions, group work and other active learning techniques such as role play, case studies, investigation and research in the library, from the internet or from your community;

Participate and take responsibility for your own learning;

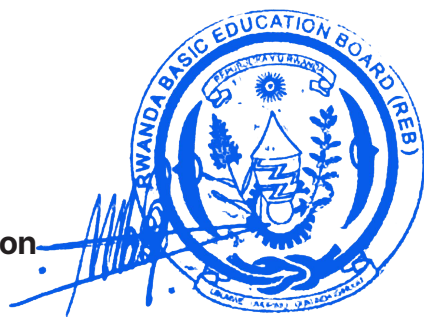
Draw conclusions based on the findings from the learning activities.

I wish to sincerely extend my appreciation to the people who contributed towards the development of this book, particularly REB staff who organized the whole process from its inception.

I wish to sincerely extend my appreciation to REB staff who organized the editing process of this textbook. Special gratitude also goes to lecturers, teachers, illustrators and designers who supported the exercise throughout. Any comment or contribution would be welcome to the Improvement of this textbook for the next edition.

Dr. MBARUSHIMANA Nelson

Director General / REB



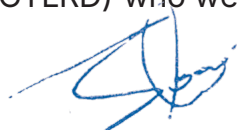
ACKNOWLEDGEMENTS

I wish to express my appreciation to all the people who played a major role in the editing process of this book. It would not have been successful without their active participation.

Special thanks go to those who gave their time to read and refine this book to meet the needs of competence-based curriculum. I owe gratitude to the Ministry of National Unity and Civic Engagement (MINUBUMWE), Never Again, AEGIS Trust who provided their expertise in research and recommendations which contributed to the edition of this book.

I wish to extend my sincere gratitude to National higher institutions of learning and secondary schools that allowed their lecturers and teachers who diligently worked with REB in-house textbooks production project to the successful completion of this book. I also thank illustrators, designers, and all other individuals whose efforts in one way or the other contributed to the success of this edition.

Finally, my word of gratitude goes to the Rwanda Basic Education Board staff particularly those from Curriculum, Teaching and Learning Resources Department (CTLRD) who were involved in the whole process of in-house textbook editorial work.



Joan Murungi

Head of Department/**CTLR**

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UNIT 1

MAJOR EUROPEAN EVENTS FROM 1789 TO 1848



Key Unit Competence:

Evaluate the causes, course and the effects of the major events that took place in Europe from 1789 to 1848 in favouring good governance.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the causes and effects of the 1848 European Revolutions and the reasons why these revolutions did not take place in some other countries.
- Identify the common characteristics as well as the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions.

Skills

2

- Analyse the causes and effects of the 1848 European Revolutions and evaluate the reasons why these revolutions did not take place in some European countries.
- Examine the common characteristics of the 1848 Revolutions and assess their successes and failures using relevant historical examples.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Acknowledge and appreciate the causes and common characteristics of the 1848 European Revolutions.
- Value the political and social effects of the 1848 European Revolutions in shaping modern Europe.
- Demonstrate critical judgment by evaluating the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions and recognising the reasons why they did not occur in some countries.

Introductory activity 1



Peter, a senior Six student, read that in 1848 many Europeans protested against their governments because of political oppression, economic hardships, and the desire for national unity. Revolutions spread to countries such as France, Germany, and Italy, but they did not occur everywhere. Peter wondered why these revolutions started, what they had in common, and why some failed while others succeeded. Why do you think people in Europe started revolutions in 1848? What common problems might have encouraged people in different countries to protest? Why do you think some countries experienced revolutions while others did not?

Introduction.

This unit helps you to connect historical experiences with contemporary society, encouraging them to value democracy, respect human rights, and actively contribute to the promotion of peace, good governance, and sustainable development in their communities. By learning this, you will appreciate the importance of dialogue, peaceful reform, and responsible civic participation in addressing social and political challenges.

The study of these revolutions also helps you understand that unity, cooperation, and well-organised leadership are essential for successful social change, while division among reformers can lead to failure. This will always remind you that a society with a strong idea develops most when people are brought together and work collaboratively.

1.1. Causes, course and the consequences of the French Revolution



Learning activity 1.1



1. Explain the main causes of the French Revolution, highlighting the political, social, and economic factors that led to its outbreak.
2. Describe the major events that took place during the course of the French Revolution from 1789 to 1799.
3. Analyse the short-term and long-term consequences of the French Revolution on France and Europe.
4. Assess how the causes of the French Revolution influenced its course and shaped its outcomes.

The 1789 French Revolution

The French revolution of 1789 refers to social, economic, political and religious changes that took place in France which was characterised by the removal of ancient regime and the establishment of new social order that was based on liberty, equality and fraternity.

1.1.1. Causes of 1789 French Revolution.

The unfair political system or the nature of ancient regime led to the 1789 French Revolution: By 1789, France was ruled by the Bourbon Monarchy whose administration was characterised by nepotism, abuse of human rights and dictatorship. The power was absolutely in the hands of the king. He was the law and the law was himself, and that is why he boasted that "The thing is legal because I wish it to be". Even king's ministers had unlimited powers through "lettres de cachet" (arrest warrant) which caused a lot of suffering to the French people, forcing them to join French Revolution.

The role of philosophers also led to French Revolution: philosophers were great thinkers who were highly educated in world affairs who put their ideas in writing condemning the social, political and economic situation in France, creating more awareness, sharpening minds of the French and creating in them a revolutionary spirit, hence the 1789 French revolution.

The social class divisions led to the French Revolution: The French society was divided into three classes, that is: Nobles and Clergy who were the two first classes and were favoured and enjoyed a lot of privileges while the 3rd class of Peasants and Middle class were not allowed to have any favour.

Nobles and clergy enjoyed-owning big land

- | | |
|---|--|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Dominating key posts in government• Exemption from taxation• Exemption from forced labour• Were entitled to free education | <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Exemption from conscription in the army• Could be promoted in the army• Couldn't be imprisoned |
|---|--|

Peasants and middle class: The third class composed of peasants and middle class. The peasants were 23 million out of 25, but were denied: all sorts of freedom

- | | |
|---|--|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Subjected to force labour• Subjected to unfair taxation system• Were imprisoned without trial | <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Were denied Education• Were subjected to forced conscription in the army. |
|---|--|

The middle class or bourgeoisies was composed of teachers, lawyers, doctors, scientists, industrialists and the problem they had was that despite their education, they were excluded from top posts in the government and were not sure of recovering their money that they borrowed the government. By 1789, they had read and interpreted the work of philosophers to the peasants and the city dwellers which forced them to fight against the ancient regime.

The unfair land ownership also led the 1789 French Revolution: Land was unfairly distributed amongst the nobles and the clergy at the expense of the majority peasants. Peasants survived as land tenants of their landlords' estate who exploited peasants and demanded for reforms in the revolution.

Unfair taxation system led to French revolution: By 1789, the taxation system of France was unfair where the poor peasants were forced to pay a lot of taxes like the salt tax, church tax, property tax, road tax, while the rich nobles and clergy were exempted from taxation which became a burden to the peasants forcing them to fight in French revolution.

The financial crisis also led to the 1789 French revolution: By 1789, France was in a financial crisis problem that were caused by corruption, embezzlement of government funds, expulsion of financial controllers, extravagancy of King and Queen and sponsoring of American revolution, forcing French to join a revolution to ask for financial reforms.

The dismissal of financial controllers also led to French Revolution: Financial ministers Necker and Turgot who were the hope of French in financial affairs criticised the financial situation of France and the queen advised the king to expel them causing a revolution in France.

The effects of natural disasters also led to French Revolution: This was among the immediate causes of the French revolution. There was severe winter that destroyed crops in 1788, leading to poor harvest and famines where government had no solution causing a revolution.

The influence of England also led to French Revolution: The England has been advocated as one of the factors responsible for the outbreak of the revolution in France. Britain had constitutional monarchy, a parliament and independent judiciary system that French demanded their rulers to follow by joining a revolution.

American war of independence led to French Revolution: Politically, the French soldiers who fought on side of America, came back with revolutionary ideas and they were shocked to find out that the very things which took them to America were in France, hence the revolution.

On another side, France also spent billions supporting America which caused financial crisis in France and this resulted into a revolution in France.

The characters of Louis XVI led to French revolution: King Louis XVI was a careless king;

- | | |
|---|--|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none">• He was an asleep king who remained only at royal palace.• He was not able to debate with people and he used to cry in hot debates. | <ul style="list-style-type: none">• He involved France in American war of independence leading to bankruptcy in France.• He failed to pay back money borrowed from middle class members |
|---|--|

The responsibility of Marie Antoinette led to French Revolution: She was not a French woman and she was hated in France for her extravagancy leading to French revolution. She was also arrogant and she was quoted saying that if peasants could not afford buying bread, they can buy cakes which were even expensive compared to bread which was compared like adding salt in injury hence a revolution.

The calling of third estates general meeting also led to French Revolution: This is a meeting called by the king which was to take place at tennis court of oath and in this meeting, Louis XVI failed to answer the problems of peasants which showed his weakness, hence a revolution.

The religious intolerance led to French Revolution: In France, Protestants and Muslims were not allowed freedom of worship and were always subjected to intimidation, torture, imprisonment and the need for freedom of worship made French to join a revolution.

1.1.2. Course of the 1789 French Revolution.

These are gradual steps of this revolution they started by the crisis in France and ended in the rise of Napoleon the great to power.

1. Financial Crisis and Social Inequality

Before 1789, France was deeply in debt because of wars and royal spending. The Third Estate (common people) paid most taxes, while nobles and clergy enjoyed privileges. Hunger and rising bread prices increased anger.

2. Meeting of the Estates-General (May 1789)

King Louis XVI called the Estates-General to solve the financial crisis. Representatives of the three estates met, but disputes began over voting.

3. Formation of the National Assembly (June 1789)

The Third Estate broke away and declared itself the National Assembly, claiming to represent the French nation. This challenged royal authority for the first time.

4. Tennis Court Oath (20 June 1789)

Locked out of their meeting hall, members of the National Assembly met in an indoor tennis court and swore not to separate until France had a constitution. This showed unity and determination.

5. Storming of the Bastille (14 July 1789)

Parisians attacked the Bastille prison, a symbol of royal oppression. This event marked the beginning of popular revolution and inspired uprisings across France.

6. Abolition of Feudalism and Declaration of Rights (August 1789)

The National Assembly ended feudal privileges and adopted the Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen. It promoted liberty, equality, and popular sovereignty.

7. Constitutional Monarchy (1791)

A new constitution limited the king's powers and made France a constitutional monarchy. However, distrust grew after the king tried to flee.

8. Fall of the Monarchy and Birth of the Republic (1792)

War with Austria and Prussia increased tension. Revolutionaries overthrew the monarchy, imprisoned the king, and declared France a republic.

9. Reign of Terror (1793–1794)

Led by Maximilien Robespierre, the revolutionary government executed suspected enemies, including King Louis XVI. Thousands died by guillotine.

10. Thermidorian Reaction and Rise of Napoleon (1794–1799)

Robespierre was overthrown, ending the Terror. A weaker government called the Directory followed. In 1799, Napoleon Bonaparte seized power, bringing the Revolution to an end.

11.3. Effects of the French revolution

French Revolution of the 1789 left many impacts among which include the following:

1. Abolition of feudalism

The French Revolution ended the feudal system, which had forced peasants to pay dues and give services to landlords. This gave peasants more freedom over their land and labour. It helped reduce exploitation in rural areas.

2. End of unfair taxation

Before the Revolution, poor people paid most taxes while nobles and clergy enjoyed exemptions. The Revolution introduced a fairer system where taxes were meant to be shared more equally. This reduced the burden on ordinary citizens.

3. France got a new constitution in 1791

In September 1791, France adopted its first written constitution. It limited the powers of the king and introduced constitutional monarchy. This was a major step toward democracy and rule of law.

4. Royal guards were replaced by national guards

After the storming of the Bastille, the king's royal guards lost their importance. A National Guard was formed to protect the Revolution and maintain order. This showed that power was shifting from the king to the people.

5. End of class divisions

The Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen stated that all men were equal before the law. This ended legal privileges enjoyed by nobles and clergy. It promoted equality and justice in French society.

6. End of imprisonment without trial

Under the old regime, people could be arrested and jailed without fair legal process. The Revolution introduced ideas of justice and legal rights for citizens. This protected people from arbitrary arrests.

7. Freedom of speech and press

By 1791, people had greater freedom to express their opinions and publish ideas. Newspapers and political discussions became more common. This encouraged public participation in politics.

8. Reduction of the pope's power in France

The Civil Constitution of the Clergy reduced the influence of the Pope over the French Church. The state gained more control over church affairs and clergy appointments. This weakened the traditional power of the Catholic Church in France.

9. Change of the French national flag

The Revolution introduced the tricolour flag blue, white, and red as a new national symbol. It represented liberty, equality, and the unity of the French people. The flag became a lasting symbol of national pride.

10. France became hostile with other European countries

Other monarchies in Europe feared the spread of revolutionary ideas. They were also angered by the treatment of King Louis XVI. This led to wars between France and neighbouring countries.

11. Rise of political parties and groups

The Revolution led to the emergence of political groups such as the Jacobins, Girondins, and Cordeliers. These groups debated how France should be governed. Their ideas shaped the direction of the Revolution.

Application activity 1.1



1. Construct a timeline showing at least five major events of the French Revolution and explain briefly what happened in each event.
2. Assume you are a member of the Third Estate in 1789. Describe your situation and explain why you would support the French Revolution.
3. Draw a diagram or chart to show how one major cause of the French Revolution led to a key event and then to a consequence. Explain your diagram.
4. "The execution of Louis XVI was a turning point in the revolution." Discuss this statement using relevant examples.

5. Write a short paragraph explaining one important change that occurred in France after the French Revolution and how it affected people's lives.

1.2. The rise of Napoleon to power

Learning activity 1.2



1. Explain the major factors that contributed to the rise of Napoleon Bonaparte to power in France.
2. Discuss the role of military campaigns, especially the invasion of Russia and the Peninsular War, in weakening Napoleon Bonaparte.
3. "Napoleon's success was due to his strengths, while his failure was due to his weaknesses." Discuss this statement with relevant examples.
4. Explain the main factors that led to the downfall of Napoleon Bonaparte

A. Who was Napoleon Bonaparte?

Napoleon Bonaparte was born on 15 August 1769 in Ajaccio, on the island of Corsica just one year after the island was annexed by France from Italy. Meaning that Napoleon was a Frenchman by birth and an Italian by descent. He was the son of Charles Bonaparte, a lawyer and local nobleman, and Laetitia Ramolino, a strong and disciplined mother who greatly influenced his character. He grew up in a modest but respected family.

Napoleon was the second surviving child in a family of eight children. His elder brother was Joseph, and his younger siblings were Lucien, Elisa, Louis, Pauline, Caroline, and Jérôme. Growing up in a large family taught him responsibility early in life, especially after his father died when Napoleon was still young.

For his education, Napoleon first attended a religious school in Autun in France to improve his French language. He later joined the military school at Brienne, where he studied for five years and became known for his intelligence, especially in mathematics and history.

After Brienne, he joined the prestigious École Militaire in Paris to train as an artillery officer. He worked hard, completed his studies quickly after his father's death, and graduated in 1785 as a second lieutenant. His military education laid the foundation for his future success as a general and emperor.

B. Factors for the rise of Napoleon I to power in France.

1. The French Revolution created opportunities.

The French Revolution removed the old class barriers that favoured nobles. This allowed talented people like Napoleon to rise through merit. Without the Revolution, his chances of leadership would have been limited.

2. Good military education.

Napoleon received strong military training in French military schools. This gave him knowledge of strategy, discipline, and leadership. His education prepared him for rapid advancement in the army.

3. His talent as a military commander.

Napoleon was naturally skilled in planning battles and inspiring soldiers. He was brave, intelligent, and quick in making decisions. These qualities made him stand out from other officers.

4. Success in the Italian campaign.

His victories in Italy made him famous across France. He defeated strong Austrian forces and brought glory to France. This made people see him as a national hero.

5. Fame from defending the Revolution

In 1795, Napoleon helped crush a royalist uprising in Paris. This action protected the revolutionary government. As a result, he gained trust and was promoted.

6. Weakness of the Directory government.

The Directory was corrupt, divided, and ineffective. It failed to solve economic problems or bring peace. Many French people lost confidence in it and wanted change.

7. Political instability in France

France had experienced years of violence, fear, and changing governments. People were tired of disorder and insecurity. Napoleon appeared as the strong leader who could restore stability.

8. Support from the army

Napoleon was loved by many soldiers because of his victories and leadership. The army trusted him more than politicians. This military support strengthened his political ambitions.

9. Support from influential politicians

Important leaders like Emmanuel-Joseph Sieyès supported Napoleon. They believed he could help remove the weak Directory. Their alliance made his rise easier.

10. His ambition and personal confidence

Napoleon was highly ambitious and determined to succeed. He believed in his own ability and took bold risks. His confidence helped him seize opportunities quickly.

11. The Coup of 18 Brumaire (1799)

Napoleon used the political crisis to overthrow the Directory in November 1799. This coup ended the weak government and made him First Consul. It marked the beginning of his rule in France.

12. Public desire for peace and order

After years of revolution and war, the French people wanted peace. Napoleon promised law, order, and national strength. This made many citizens support his leadership.

c. Factors for the downfall of napoleon in France

Introduction

Napoleon Bonaparte was one of the most powerful leaders in European history. After rising during the French Revolution, he became Emperor of France in 1804 and built a vast empire through military victories. However, despite his early successes, a combination of military mistakes, economic failures, resistance from other nations, and loss of support led to his downfall by 1815.

Continuous Warfare and Overexpansion

One of the major reasons for Napoleon's downfall was his involvement in continuous warfare across Europe. He aimed to expand French control over many territories, which led to the creation of a very large empire. However, this overexpansion made it difficult for him to effectively control and defend all the regions under his rule. His army had to fight on multiple fronts at the same time, which weakened its strength. In addition, constant wars exhausted France's resources, including money, weapons, and manpower, making it harder to sustain his empire in the long term.

Failure of the Continental System

Napoleon introduced the Continental System as an economic strategy to weaken United Kingdom by cutting off its trade with the rest of Europe. He ordered all European countries under his control to stop trading with Britain. However, this policy largely failed because it harmed European economies more than it hurt Britain. Many countries depended on British goods and trade, so they secretly continued trading through smuggling. As a result, the system was widely disobeyed, and resentment against Napoleon grew among both allies and conquered states. This weakened his influence and reduced cooperation from other nations.

The Peninsular War

The Peninsular War, fought in Spain and Portugal, was another important factor in Napoleon's downfall. When Napoleon tried to control Spain, the local population strongly resisted his rule. They used guerrilla warfare tactics, which involved small, sudden attacks that made it difficult for the French army to fight effectively. At the same time, British forces led by Arthur Wellesley supported the resistance. This war drained Napoleon's military strength, caused heavy losses, and became a long and costly conflict that he could not easily win.

The Invasion of Russia (1812)

Napoleon's invasion of Russia in 1812 is considered one of his greatest mistakes. He led a massive army into Russia, expecting a quick victory. However, the Russians avoided direct confrontation and instead used a scorched-earth policy, destroying crops, villages, and supplies as they retreated. This left Napoleon's army without food or shelter. When winter arrived, the harsh cold conditions caused immense suffering and death among his troops.

Out of the large army he had started with, only a small number survived the campaign. This disaster greatly weakened his military power and encouraged other European nations to rise against him.

Rise of European Coalitions

As Napoleon's power grew, other European nations became increasingly determined to stop him. Countries such as Britain, Prussia, Austria, and Russia formed alliances known as coalitions. These coalitions combined their military strength to fight against Napoleon. Unlike earlier wars, where Napoleon often faced enemies separately, he now had to confront united and coordinated forces. This made it much harder for him to win battles and maintain control over his empire.

Defeat at the Battle of Leipzig (1813)

In 1813, Napoleon suffered a major defeat at the Battle of Leipzig, also known as the Battle of Nations. This battle involved a large coalition of European forces fighting against him. The defeat marked a turning point because it led to the loss of French control over many territories in Germany. It showed that Napoleon's power was declining and that his enemies were becoming stronger and more united.

First Abdication and Exile to Elba (1814)

After a series of defeats, Napoleon was forced to abdicate, meaning he gave up his position as Emperor, in 1814. He was then exiled to the island of Elba. Although he was removed from power, he was not completely defeated, as he managed to escape from Elba and return to France. This period of his return is known as the Hundred Days, during which he attempted to regain control.

Final Defeat at the Battle of Waterloo (1815)

Napoleon's final defeat came at the **Battle of Waterloo**, fought in Waterloo. In this battle, he faced the combined forces of Britain and Prussia, led by Arthur Wellesley and Gebhard Leberecht von Blücher. Napoleon was decisively defeated, marking the end of his military career. This defeat represented a final rejection of his rule by European powers, who were determined to prevent him from regaining power.

Final Exile to Saint Helena

After his defeat at Waterloo, Napoleon was exiled once again, this time to the remote island of Saint Helena. Unlike Elba, Saint Helena was far away and heavily guarded, making escape impossible. Napoleon spent the rest of his life there until his death in 1821. This marked the complete end of his political and military influence.

Loss of Popular Support in France

Another important factor in Napoleon's downfall was the loss of support among the French people. His continuous wars led to heavy taxation and forced recruitment of soldiers, which caused suffering and dissatisfaction. Many families lost loved ones in wars, and the economy struggled under the pressure of constant conflict. Over time, people became tired of war and began to lose faith in his leadership.

Weakness of his Army

Napoleon's army, once strong and well-trained, became weaker over time. Many experienced soldiers were killed in battles such as the invasion of Russia and the Peninsular War. They were replaced by young and inexperienced recruits who were less effective in combat. This reduced the overall strength and efficiency of his military forces, making it more difficult for him to win battles.

Finally, the downfall of Napoleon Bonaparte was the result of multiple interconnected factors rather than a single event. His overambitious expansion, failed economic policies, costly wars, and the growing opposition from European coalitions all contributed to his decline. His final defeat at the Battle of Waterloo and his exile to Saint Helena brought an end to his rule and marked a significant turning point in European history. At his final scene Napoleon was quoted saying "what goes around comes around and death knows no hero. Soldiers died alongside me when at several battles but unfortunately there was no bullet for me."

Application activity 1.2



1. Examine the relationship between Napoleon's military success and his political rise in France.
2. What lessons can leaders today learn from the rise and fall of Napoleon Bonaparte?
3. Explain any four factors that contributed to the rise of Napoleon Bonaparte to power in France.
4. "Power without control can lead to failure." Discuss this statement in relation to Napoleon Bonaparte.
5. Reflect on Napoleon's statement at Saint Helena about fate and death. What values or message can you learn from it?

1.3. European Revolutions.

Learning activity 1.3



1. What activities or events can you observe in the picture? Describe what the people are doing.
2. What problems do you think might have pushed these people to protest against their government?
3. How might economic difficulties such as unemployment or food shortages have contributed to these protests?
4. What political demands do you think the protesters could have been making?
5. In your opinion, how could such situations lead to revolutions in different European countries in 1848?

The period between 1836 and 1848 was one of the most important moments in European history. During this time, many European societies experienced political tension, economic crises, and social unrest. People were increasingly demanding political freedoms, national unity, and better living conditions.

Several movements such as liberalism, nationalism, and socialism began to influence political thinking. These ideas challenged the absolute monarchies and conservative systems that had dominated Europe since the end of the Napoleonic Wars in 1815.

The events of this period finally led to the Revolutions of 1848, sometimes called the "Springtime of Nations," when revolutions spread across many European countries. The 1848 European Revolutions were a series of uprisings in Europe. The revolutions were started by the middle class and nobility who demanded constitutional and representative governments, and by workers and peasants who revolted against capitalist practices that were responsible for poverty.

The revolutions broke out in France, Austria, and the Italian and German states. People rose against conservative governments and demanded for political, social and economic reforms. Those revolutions were also against the negative consequences of the Vienna settlement and Metternich system.

1.3.1. Causes of the 1848 European Revolutions



The need to end the unfair decisions of the Vienna Settlement

The Vienna Settlement aimed at safeguarding against future French aggression and formed buffer states by bringing the Italian and German states under the control of Austria. This did not respect the principle of nationalism. For this reason, the Italians and Germans revolted in 1848.

The oppressive regime of Metternich.

Metternich the chancellor of Austria used a harsh-spy network that terrorized people. This forced, the Germans and Italians to rise up for independence.

The collapse of the Congress System.

The success of the 1830 Belgian revolution marked the end of the Congress System. This provided an opportunity for the oppressed people to revolt against their leaders.

The growth of nationalism

Because of nationalistic feelings, the German and Italian states rose up to demand for respective national unifications. Elsewhere in Europe people demanded for constitutional rule and an end to despotism.

The rise of new personalities in European politics.

They included Mazzini and Garibaldi of Italy, Louis Kossuth of Hungary, Von Bismarck and Stephen Baron of Prussia and Louis Blanc and Lamartine in France. New personalities mobilized support against the oppressive rulers of Austria.

The effects of epidemic diseases

The poor people were affected by diseases like cholera, typhoid and tuberculosis and died in large numbers. The leaders provided no solution to the situation. They became unpopular leading to the outbreak of the 1848 revolutions.

The negative effects of the rapid population growth

In eastern and central Europe the rapid population growth led to urban congestion, food shortage and unemployment. The masses blamed this on their respective governments. This led to the 1848 Revolutions.

The corruption and inefficiency of the rulers

In many states of eastern and central Europe, the rulers were corrupt and inefficient. This compelled the masses to revolt against Louis Philippe for instance in 1848.

The influence of socialist ideas

Socialist ideas were initiated by Karl Marx. Socialists argued that capitalism was responsible for unemployment, inflation and exploitation of the employees. This encouraged the people to join the 1848 revolutions.

The success of the previous revolutions

The French revolution of 1789 and the 1830 Belgian revolution encouraged the outbreak of the 1848 revolutions. The oppressed people believed their struggle would be successful like in France and in Belgium.

The negative impact of industrialization

The spread of industrialization to many European countries created many economic and social problems like unemployment, low wages, long working hour, poor accommodation, rural-urban migration, inflation, and starvation. These problems forced the poor populations in urban areas to join the 1848 revolutions.

The long-term effects of the 1789 French Revolution

The French revolution had left behind strong ideas of liberty, equality and fraternity. It had also overthrown dictatorship and bad governance in France.

Therefore, people in different European states in 1848 were guided by those ideas and wanted to achieve what the French had witnessed in 1789.

Application activity 1.3



1. Which political factors made people dissatisfied with their governments in Europe before 1848?
2. How did economic problems such as population growth, industrialization, and disease contribute to the revolutions?
3. In what ways did nationalism and socialist ideas influence people to rebel?
1. How did earlier revolutions such as the 1789 French Revolution and the 1830 Belgian Revolution encourage the people of 1848 to rise up?

1.3.2 Common characteristics of the 1848 Revolutions

Learning activity 1.4



Read the following scenario and answer questions that are set on it.

Peter and his friend Maria were discussing their history lesson about the 1848 European Revolutions. Peter said that many revolutions started almost at the same time in countries like France, Germany, Italy, and Austria. Maria added that in most places people demanded constitutions, political freedoms, and national unity. They also noticed that students, workers, and middle-class citizens participated together in the protests. Peter concluded that although the revolutions happened in different countries, they had many similar characteristics.

Questions.

2. According to the scenario, in which countries did the 1848 revolutions occur?
3. What common demands were made by the people during these revolutions?
4. Which groups of people participated in the revolutions?

All the 1848 Revolutions were urban based, meaning that they were concentrated in cities and towns, while the countryside remained peaceful. Many of the 1848 Revolutions were led by educated people like professors, doctors, lecturers, lawyers, journalists and even teachers who understood the weaknesses of their home governments. E.g. Mazzini in Italy, Louis Blanc and Lamartine in France and Kossuth in Hungary.

The 1848 Revolutions lacked foreign assistance because they occurred at the same time and each country was busy suppressing its own revolution. This also explains why they were defeated.

Almost all the revolutions of 1848, except in France, were against the unfairness of the Vienna Settlement which restored bad leaders, neglected the principles of nationalism, and encouraged domination of small countries by the big powers.

The 1848 Revolutions took place at the same time: from January to March 1848, the revolutions took place in less industrialized and agricultural states like Italy, German, Hungary and France.

All of them had an element of the French revolution of 1789: the demand for constitutional changes.

All the revolutions failed, except in France where King Louis Philippe was removed.

The revolutions, except the revolution in France, were organized and carried out against the common enemy: Metternich of Austria and his spy network system.

The revolutions were partly caused by the effects of natural disasters like bad weather, epidemics, starvation and scarcity. This explains why there were no revolutions in Britain where these natural disasters did not occur.

The revolutions except in France lacked the support of the national armies. For instance, in Germany, Italy and Hungary the revolutionaries were not supported by their national armies. This was due to the ignorance of revolutionaries about the use of the army. In Italy, and Austria the soldiers feared to participate because their kings were dictators.

The revolutions had similar effects such as loss of lives, destruction of property and exiling of the leading politicians except in France.

Application activity 1.4



1. Using knowledge learnt from the above lesson, complete the table below.

Characteristic	How it was a "Common Thread" in 1848
Social Base	(e.g., Which classes participated together?)
Primary Goal	(e.g., What was the "Constitutional" link to 1789?)
Main Opponent	(e.g., Who was the central symbol of the 'Old Guard'?)
Major Weakness	(e.g., Why did the armies fail to join the people?)

2. Examine the common characteristics of the 1836-1848 Revolutions in Europe.

1.3.3. Effects of the 1848 European Revolutions

Learning activity 1.5



Read the following scenario and answer questions that are set on it.

In a history class, two students, Anna and Peter, are discussing the events of 1848 in Europe after reading different historical sources. Anna says, "I read that the 1848 revolutions caused many deaths in countries like France, Austria, and Germany."

Questions.

1. According to the scenario, what were some **negative effects** of the 1848 Revolutions?
2. Identify **positive changes** that resulted from the 1848 Revolutions.
3. Why were some leaders such as **Metternich and Louis Philippe** forced into exile?
4. How did the 1848 Revolutions contribute to the **unification movements in Germany and Italy**?
5. From the discussion between Anna and Peter, what can we say about the **overall importance of the 1848 Revolutions in European history**?

The 1848 Revolutions which occurred mainly in central and Eastern Europe resulted in positive and negative effects:

The 1848 Revolutions caused loss of lives on a large scale. More than 500 people were killed in France. In Berlin over 300 and 3000–5000 in Austria. In Hungary 13 generals and 1000 other politicians were killed.

The 1848 Revolutions caused many demonstrations against Metternich who fled to exile in London. This led to the decline and collapse of his system.

Apart from Metternich, many other people were forced into exile. These included Louis Philippe, Mazzini, Kossuth, Garibaldi, Prince Metternich and Charles Albert. In addition, ordinary people rose to high positions.

The 1848 Revolutionary movements contributed to the Italian and German Unification in 1871 because the Metternich System which posed obstacles to the unification had collapsed. In addition the revolutions led to the rise of new men who provided able leadership that led to the unifications. These included Otto Von Bismarck and Stephen in Germany, and Victor Emmanuel II of Piedmont, Gavainag and Louis Blanc in France.

The revolutions ended feudalism and serfdom. In September 1848, Emperor Francis I of Austria passed the Emancipation Act under which peasants were permitted to own land. Serfdom was also brought to an end in Hungary. This improved lives of peasants in Europe.

This marked the end of privileges for the nobles and clergy in many parts of Europe.

The 1848 Revolutions taught revolutionaries a lesson that for any revolution to be successful it should be militarily strong instead of relying solely on intellectual ideas.

The 1848 Revolutions were successful for a short time in some states. For example in Hungary, Lajos Kossuth established the Hungarian republic and a parliament at Budapest in March 1849; the Frankfurt Assembly was established in May 1848 for the German states; in Italy, Garibaldi and Mazzini set up a Roman republic in 1849. However, these republics were shortly lived.

The 1848 Revolutions in central Europe marked the awakening of various peoples to national consciousness. In that year the Germans and the Italians started their movements for the unification and creation of nation-states.

Although the attempts at revolution failed in 1848, the movements gathered strength in subsequent years. After a long struggle, an Italian kingdom was created in 1861 and a German empire in 1871. Other European peoples who agitated for national independence in 1848 include the Poles, the Czechs, the Hungarians, and the Christian peoples in the Balkans under the rule of the Ottoman sultan.

The 1848 Revolutions led to the success of socialism in Europe. The socialists successfully organized the workers and peasants to fight against capitalism. Although socialism was suppressed, it later dominated Eastern Europe, divided Europe into the two ideologies of communism and capitalism up to 1989 and beyond.

The 1848 Revolutions also led to the rise of dictatorial governments and the politics of revenge in the countries where they failed. For example: in Hungary and Austria, the constitutional reforms were canceled. General Haynau forced Kossuth into exile and killed many Hungarians. In Bohemia Winschgratz killed many Czech rebels as revenge.

Application activity 1.5



1. Explain political changes that resulted from the 1848 Revolutions in Europe.
2. Describe social or economic improvements that benefited ordinary people after the revolutions.
3. Show how the 1848 Revolutions contributed to the unification of Germany or Italy.
4. Many revolutions failed in the short term. Give reasons why some governments returned to dictatorship or cancelled reforms after 1848.
5. Imagine you were a European citizen in 1848. Suggest one lesson that revolutionaries learned from the failure of the revolutions and explain why it was important..

1.4. Success and failure of the 1848 European Revolutions.

1.4.1 Factors for the success of the 1848 Revolutions in France.

Learning activity 1.6



Scenario. The Collapse of the July Monarchy.

The city is paralyzed. High bread prices and a mysterious flu-like epidemic have left the streets quiet but tense. In a small café near the Tuileries Palace, three people are whispering:

- **Pierre**, a veteran who fought as a young man in the 1789 Revolution.
- **Marc**, a factory worker who has lost his job and has no money for food.
- **Madame Julienne**, a business owner tired of seeing public funds embezzled by government officials.

Suddenly, news breaks: **Louis Philippe** has ordered the army to clear the streets. However, instead of firing, the soldiers are seen lowering their muskets and sharing bread with the protesters. At the same time, **Louis Blanc** is seen standing on a carriage, shouting for the "Right to Work." Across the border, the kings of Austria and Prussia are too busy fighting their own protesters to send help to Louis Philippe. By sunset, the King is packing his bags for England, and the name "**Bonaparte**" is being cheered in the streets.

1. In the scenario, three characters (Pierre, Marc, and Madam Julienne) represent different factors for success. Match the character to the correct factor from your notes:

- Pierre represents: _____
- Marc represents: _____
- Madam Julienne represents: _____

2. According to the scenario, the soldiers refused to fire on the protesters. Based on your lesson notes, why was "**Support from the army**" often a deciding factor in whether a French revolution succeeded or failed?

3. The scenario mentions that other European kings were "too busy fighting their own protesters."

- **A.** Which specific factor from your notes does this describe?
- **B.** How did this "lack of interference" make the 1848 Revolution different from times when foreign armies tried to save the French King?

4. The crowd in the scenario is cheering for **Louis Blanc** and the name "**Bonaparte.**"

- How did **Good Leadership** (like Blanc's) provide a "plan" for the angry masses?
- Why did the name "Bonaparte" act like a magnet for support even before Louis Napoleon arrived in person?

Good leadership: Louis Blanc and Alphonse Marie Lamartine were good leaders who mobilized the masses and demanded for change during the 1848 Revolution in France.

Support from the army: Like during the previous revolution of 1789, the revolutionaries in France were supported by the army. This support encouraged the revolutionaries to succeed.

War experience: Most of the revolutionaries who fought in the February revolution in France had also participated in the 1789 revolution where they got experience in fighting. This enabled them to be successful in the 1848 Revolutions.

Support from the masses: Due to the poor social conditions, effects of the bad weather and outbreak of epidemic diseases, the masses supported the revolutionaries who promised them rapid reforms.

Nationalism and unity: Like in 1789, the people were strongly united. They were determined to overthrow Louis Philippe who had become unpopular.

Financial support from the middle class: Due to the economic problems France was facing which included unemployment, low wages, inflation, corruption and embezzlement of public funds, the middle class preferred to support the revolutionaries who promised better conditions.



Napoleon III.

Source: [https:// www.britannica.com](https://www.britannica.com)

[/biography/Napoleon-III-emperor-of- France](#)

The rise of Louis Napoleon Bonaparte in 1848 boosted the popularity of revolutions because he was a nephew to Napoleon Bonaparte. He attracted big support from the population.

Lack of external interference: Because the revolutions broke out at the same time in many European countries and due to the collapse of the congress system, there was no external interference in France. And Louis Philippe could not get any support from his fellow kings in Europe.

1.4.2 Failure of the 1848 European Revolutions.

The 1848 Revolutions failed in most of the European states like Austria, Hungary, Italian and German states, except in France. The failure of these revolutions was due to the following factors:

The revolutions were not supported by the peasants and lacked foreign support because most countries were facing the same situation.

As a result of economic hardships, the revolutionary leaders and their supporters were very poor and could not finance a prolonged struggle or afford to purchase fire arms.

Ideological conflicts and lack of proper common strategy weakened the revolutions. For example, in Germany the northern states wanted a little Germany under Prussia while the southern states wanted a big Germany under Austria.

Austria had a strong army led by efficient army commanders like General Windschgratz who defeated revolutionaries in Vienna and Hungary, and Raditsky who defeated the Italian revolutionaries at Novaro and Custoza.

The revolutionaries failed to fulfill the promise made to their supporters. They concentrated on talking and failed to deliver what they had promised, for example in the German and Italian states.

Poor mass mobilization also contributed to the failure of the revolutions. They were urban centred and failed to involve people in rural areas.

Religious differences among the revolutionaries weakened the revolutions. In Germany the southern states supported Austria, a fellow Catholic state, while the northern states which were Protestant supported Prussia. Charles Albert, a Catholic did not want to attack Austria while Pope Pius IX supported Austria against the revolutionaries.

The dismissal of liberal ministers in September 1848 by King Fredrick William IV also played a role in the failure of the revolution in Prussia.

Unfair representation in the constituent assembly mainly in Prussia also contributed to the failure of the revolutions in the German states.

Application activity 1.6



1. Explain the major factors responsible for the success of the 1848 Revolutions in France.
2. Identify the role of good leadership in organizing revolutionary movements in France.
3. Examine the reasons behind the failures of the 1848 Revolutions in France.

1.5. The reasons why the European revolutions of 1848 did not occur in certain countries.

The 1848 Revolutions mainly affected the central areas of Europe which were under the control of Metternich and did not extend to all European countries. Britain, Belgium, Holland and Russia did not experience revolutions due to the following reasons:

In Belgium, a revolution was not possible because of the constitutional arrangements achieved as a result of the 1830 revolution. For instance, the right to vote was already extended to include members of the middle class. There was also improvement in public works.

Britain and Belgium had already established the parliamentary system. Many constitutional changes had taken place and they were also easily implemented by parliament without the use of force like in other countries.

In Britain the parliamentary system had focused on improving working conditions. The working day was already shortened. The working conditions of women and children were also addressed. In 1834, the British parliament passed a law to improve the living conditions of the poor.

Britain was a more advanced industrialized society. It was able to meet the needs of the growing population, especially employment, compared to other European countries where the effects of industrialization caused political instability.

By 1846 Britain had a law to improve the living conditions in slums. Improvements in sanitation, drainage, street lighting and medical services led to better conditions of living in comparison to central Europe.

Britain was also never affected by the Vienna Settlement which created a lot of political dissatisfaction in Europe. This helped Britain to escape the revolutions of 1848.

End of unit assessment 1.



A. Knowledge and understanding

1. Explain the **causes** of the 1848 European Revolutions.
2. Describe **common characteristics** of the 1848 European Revolutions.
3. Identify **positive effects** and **negative effects** of the 1848 European revolution.
4. Explain reasons why the 1848 Revolutions did not take place in some European countries such as Britain and Belgium.

B. Skills.

1. Using relevant historical examples, assess the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions.
2. Study the following statement and answer the questions:

"The revolutions of 1848 failed in most European countries because the revolutionaries were divided and lacked strong military support."

- a) Explain reasons that support this statement.
 - b) Suggest ways in which the revolutionaries could have improved their chances of success.
1. Analyse how political oppression and the Vienna Settlement contributed to the outbreak of the 1848 European Revolutions.

C. Attitudes and Values.

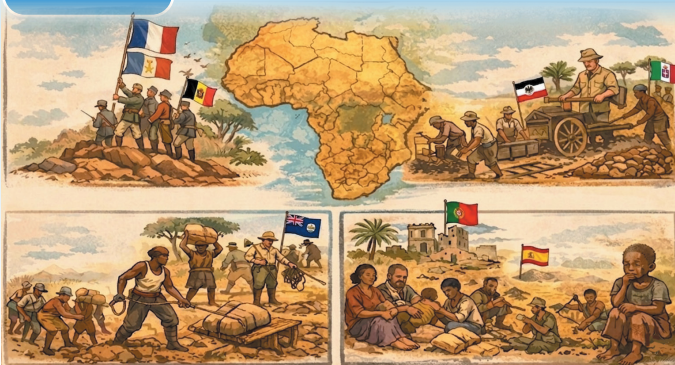
1. Explain how the study of the 1848 European Revolutions encourages people today to value democracy and good governance.
2. Discuss the importance of national unity and cooperation in achieving political reforms in a country.
3. As a responsible citizen, suggest peaceful ways people can use to demand political reforms in their country today.
4. In your opinion, why is it important for citizens to participate peacefully in solving political and social problems?
5. Explain lessons modern societies can learn from the successes and failures of the 1848 Revolutions.

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UNIT 2

EUROPEANISATION OF AFRICA AND ITS IMPACT



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the European domination and exploitation in Africa and its consequences from the 19th Century in enhancing criticism against neo-colonialism in Africa.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the European conquest of Africa in the 19th century by outlining the main events, motivations, and countries involved in the colonization process.
- Describe and categorize major colonial activities in Africa, including economic, political, and social practices implemented by European powers.

Skills

2

- Present and interpret different methods used by colonial powers to exploit African resources and people, such as forced labour, taxation, land appropriation, and resource extraction.
- Analyse the political, economic, and social consequences of European domination in Africa, including changes to governance systems, economies, and traditional.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Appreciate and Interpret historical sources and visual materials related to colonial Africa to develop informed conclusions about the effects of European imperialism.
- Demonstrate curiosity and commitment in evaluating the long-term impacts of colonial rule on African societies, connecting historical events to modern challenges and developments in Africa.

Introductory activity 2



Rugema is a history teacher in Senior Five at Groupe Scolaire Juru. While introducing a new unit on European domination and exploitation of Africa in the 19th century, He shows students a picture of Africans working on a railway under the supervision of European officials. He asks the class: Why did European countries come to Africa in the 19th century? What activities do you think they carried out after taking control? What methods might they have used to exploit African resources and people? How do you think this domination affected African societies and can its effects still be seen in Africa today? As a student of senior five, which answers should you give this teacher?

Introduction

This unit helps you to learn about the process of judging the conquest of Africa by European countries from the 19th Century, the impacts this process left to the communities of Africa.

By learning this history, we understand why Africa was colonized and its impacts until now.

You will learn some political situation that are identified in some African communities today.

By the end of this unit also you are expected to understand the historical events of colonization, analyse its impacts, and connect these experiences to the modern challenges of neocolonialism in Africa. This knowledge will help you think critically about Africa's past and its ongoing struggle for economic and political independence.

2.1. Colonial conquest of Africa

Learning activity 2.1



Read the following story and answer the questions below:

In 1884, representatives from major European powers gathered at the Berlin Conference to divide Africa without consulting any African leaders. Within decades, countries like Britain, France, Belgium, Germany, and Portugal established colonies across the continent. They exploited Africa's natural resources, imposed foreign administrations, and disrupted traditional political systems. While Europeans justified colonization as a "civilizing mission," African communities faced loss of land, forced labor, and suppression of their cultures. Some African leaders resisted, using diplomacy, warfare, or alliances, but the power imbalance made large-scale resistance difficult.

Questions

1. Explain how the decisions made at the Berlin Conference facilitated European domination of Africa. Support your answer with examples.

2. Evaluate the statement: "Economic motives were more significant than political or cultural motives in driving European colonization of Africa."
3. Imagine you are an African chief in 1890. How might you respond to European demands for land and labor, considering both resistance and negotiation strategies?

2.1.1. Partition of Africa.

The term **colonial conquest of Africa** refers to the period during the 19th century when European powers systematically invaded, occupied, and controlled African territories. This period is also known as the **Scramble for Africa**.

Between the 1870s and 1900, Africa faced European imperialist aggression, diplomatic pressures, military invasions, and eventual conquest and colonization. At the same time, African societies put up various forms of resistance against the attempt to colonize their countries and impose foreign domination.

By the early twentieth century, however, much of Africa, except Ethiopia and Liberia, had been colonized by European powers. European imperialism push into Africa was motivated by three main factors: economic, political, and social.

Colonization developed in the nineteenth century following the collapse of the profitability of the slave trade, its abolition and suppression, as well as the expansion of the European capitalist industrial revolution.

The imperatives of capitalist industrialization, including the demand for assured sources of raw materials, the search for guaranteed markets and profitable investment outlets-spurred the European scramble and the partition and eventual conquest of Africa. Thus, the primary motivation for European intrusion was economic.



Africa: Different European colonial empires.

Source: <http://exploringafrica.matrix.msu.edu/colonial-exploration-and-conquest-in-africa-explore/>

The Scramble for Africa

Other factors also played an important role in the colonization of Africa. European countries like Britain, France, Germany, Belgium, Italy, Portugal, and Spain were competing for power. One way for a country to show its strength was to acquire territories around the world, including in Africa.

Social issues were another factor. Industrialization in Europe created problems like unemployment, poverty, homelessness, and displacement of people from rural areas. Many people could not find work in the new industries. One way to address this was to send people to colonies, creating settler colonies in places like Algeria, Tunisia, South Africa, Namibia, Angola, Mozambique, Zimbabwe, and Zambia.

However, economic interests remained the main reason for colonization. European countries wanted raw materials, markets for their goods, and profitable investment opportunities. These economic, political, and social factors together caused the "Scramble for Africa," in which European commercial, military, and political agents tried to take control of different parts of the continent. They did this through trade competition, claiming exclusive territories, imposing tariffs on rivals, and controlling important rivers and trade routes.

The scramble was so intense that European leaders feared it could lead to conflicts or even wars among themselves. To prevent this, the German Chancellor **Otto von Bismarck** called a diplomatic meeting, known as the **Berlin Conference**, held from November 1884 to February 1885. The conference created the **Berlin Act**, which set rules for European competition in Africa. Key points of the treaty included:

- Notifying other powers when a territory was claimed
- Effective occupation of claimed territories
- Freedom of trade in the Congo Basin
- Freedom of navigation on the Niger and Congo Rivers
- Free trade for all nations
- Suppression of the slave trade on land and sea

This treaty, made without any African representatives, became the basis for the division, invasion, and colonization of Africa by European powers.

Causes of scramble and partition.

Need for raw materials for European industries

There was need for raw materials to supply European industries which had grown as a result of industrial revolution. The raw materials included gold, diamonds, copper, iron ore, cotton, coffee, cocoa, tea and palm oil.

Market for the manufactured goods

There was mass production of goods by European industries and European countries could not provide market to all the commodities. European countries were also practicing protectionism in order to protect their markets. They thus came to Africa to get markets; e.g. the occupation of Senegal by the French.

Need for areas where to invest their surplus capital

European countries had accumulated a lot of capital from their industrial products; they had to look for areas outside Europe where they could invest their surplus capital.

Need to control economically strategic areas to improve trade

In order to be sure of their improvement of trade, the European countries were ambitious to control the economically strategic areas. For example, the occupation of Egypt by the British was for such reasons.

Discovery of minerals in most parts of Africa

This encouraged the Europeans to come and control some parts of Africa in order to be the masters of those areas rich in minerals. There was gold in Ghana, diamonds and gold in South Africa, copper and diamonds in Congo.

To give protection to European traders and trading companies European traders asked their home governments to come and occupy areas in Africa where they operated in order to protect them from hostile tribes and chiefs who had created insecurity to their business.

To resettle high population from Europe and provide them with jobs the need to settle the unemployed, criminals and people who were suffering from chronic diseases and undesirable in Europe forced European countries to get lands to settle them in Africa. E.g. Occupation of Algeria, Tunisia, Morocco and South Africa respectively by the French and the British.

To control strategic areas.

European countries got involved in occupying strategic areas for their defence; e.g. the occupation of the Suez Canal and the strait of Gibraltar by Britain.

British occupation of Egypt in 1882

Britain got interested in controlling the Suez Canal in 1882 after pushing France out. The French decided to avenge against the British by occupying the Upper Nile and the land from Senegal to Djibouti in the east. To pre-empt this plan, the British took over Kenya, Uganda and Sudan before the French could come in.

French occupation of Tunisia and Morocco

The French occupation of Tunisia and Morocco due to their proximity to Europe, astride the Mediterranean Sea and the Strait of Gibraltar encouraged other powers to join the race for colonies.

Growth of nationalism and jingoism

Colonization was a sign of prestige and glory for the Europeans and in order to show their power, Europeans had to occupy large areas as colonies. This was why the great European powers got large lands in Africa.

Compensation for major losses

Britain had lost America after the American war of independence in 1776. Their pride, prestige and major source of their raw materials and wealth was lost. France lost Alsace and Lorraine to Prussia in 1871 after the 1870 – 1871 Franco-Prussian war.

After achieving some degree of stability, the French Prime Minister Jules Ferry began to look for colonies in Africa as compensation.

Activities of King Leopold II of Belgium in Congo

He took over Congo for himself and not for Belgium his country. As means of counteracting Leopold's activities, the French took over Gabon and Congo (Brazzaville) while British also declared the lower Niger regions as their protectorate.

The activities of Pierre Savrogn de Brazza in Congo and Ivory Coast He was a French explorer who signed colonial treaties with African local leaders. This forced other European powers to also look for colonies in Africa.

The influence of the 1884–1885 Berlin Conference

It had given a green light to colonization by outlining procedures for the partition of Africa.

Humanitarian factors

Humanitarians in Europe urged their countries to occupy territory in Africa to stop slave trade and improve the way of living for Africans.

The scramble, partition and conquest of Africa by the Europeans was followed by the introduction of colonial economic policies which helped them to effectively exploit Africa. The Europeans adopted new methods of exploitation which were similar in different areas of Africa.

Application activity 2.1

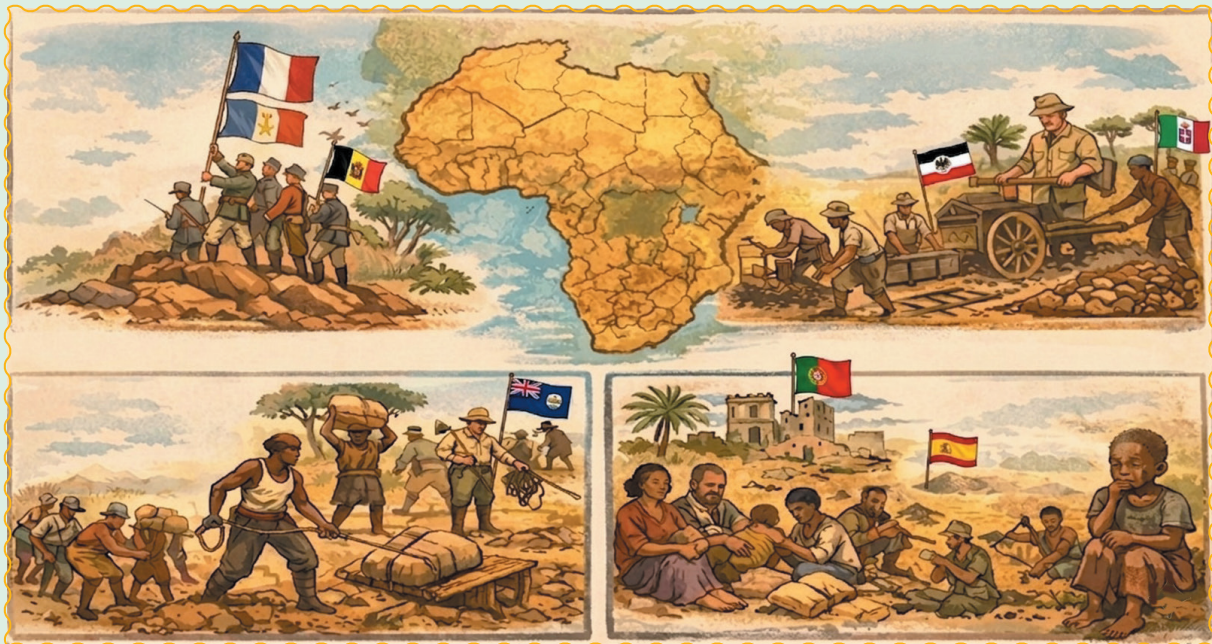


1. Suppose you were a European industrialist in the 19th century. Explain why you would support the colonization of Africa. Give some economic reasons and justifying your answer.
2. Imagine you are an African leader in a region where minerals such as gold or diamonds have been discovered. How might European countries react to this discovery, and what actions might they take to control the area?
3. Assume that European countries were producing many manufactured goods but had limited markets in Europe. Explain how Africa could solve this problem for them.
4. If you were a political advisor to a European government in the 1880s, explain why controlling strategic areas such as canals, rivers, or trade routes would be important.
5. Imagine you were present when the rules of the Berlin Conference were being discussed. Explain how the rule of "effective occupation" could encourage European powers to invade and control African territories quickly.
6. Look at the example of Britain occupying Egypt to control the Suez Canal. Explain how controlling such strategic areas could help a country to expand its trade and political influence.

- Assume you are a historian explaining the Scramble for Africa to students today. Show how economic, political, and social factors worked together to cause European colonization of Africa.

2.2. Colonial activities in Africa.

Learning activity 2.1



- Look at the "Labour" and "Mining/Trade" panels in the picture above. How did the construction of railways and roads specifically serve the economic interests of the colonial powers rather than the local population?
- In the "Administration" section, we see the collection of taxes (Hut/Poll Tax). How did the requirement to pay taxes in European currency "force" Africans to move into the labor and cash crop sectors shown in the other panels?
- Cultural Repression: Observe the symbol for cultural repression. Why was the suppression of indigenous religions and languages considered as necessary "administrative tool" for colonial stability?
- Based on the visual of the European officer and the local chiefs, which system of administration do you think was more effective to maintaining control with minimal European personnel, and why?

Colonial activities in Africa refer to the economic, political, and social actions carried out by European colonial powers after they established control over African territories in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. After the **Scramble for Africa**, European governments organized their colonies in ways that would allow them to exploit African resources, control African populations, and strengthen their own economies. These activities greatly transformed African societies, economies, and political systems.

One of the most important colonial activities in Africa was the exploitation of natural resources. European powers were interested in Africa mainly because of its abundant raw materials that were needed for their industries in Europe. As a result, minerals such as gold, diamonds, copper, and iron were extracted from different parts of the continent.

Forest products such as rubber and timber were also collected in large quantities. In addition, Europeans encouraged the production of agricultural products known as cash crops, including coffee, cocoa, cotton, tea, and palm oil. These products were exported to Europe where they were processed in industries and sold in international markets.

Another important activity carried out by colonial governments was the establishment of plantation agriculture. Europeans created large plantations where cash crops were grown mainly for export. In many areas, Africans were forced or encouraged to work on these plantations under difficult conditions. The introduction of plantation farming often reduced the land available for African farmers to grow food crops, which sometimes resulted in food shortages and economic difficulties for local communities.

Colonial governments also developed infrastructure in order to support the exploitation of African resources. Railways, roads, and ports were constructed to facilitate the transportation of raw materials from the interior regions to the coastal areas where they could be exported to Europe. For example, railway lines were built to connect mining areas and plantations with seaports. Although this infrastructure improved transportation in some regions, it was mainly designed to serve colonial economic interests rather than to promote balanced development within African societies.

In order to control their colonies effectively, European powers established new systems of colonial administration. Colonial officials were appointed to govern African territories on behalf of European governments. Two main systems of administration were used in Africa. The first was direct rule, where European administrators governed the colonies directly without relying on local leaders. The second was indirect rule, where colonial governments used existing African chiefs and traditional authorities to administer local communities under the supervision of European officials. These systems weakened many traditional African political institutions and reduced the independence of African leaders.

Colonial governments also introduced taxation systems in African colonies. Africans were required to pay different forms of taxes such as hut tax or poll tax. Since these taxes had to be paid in money, many Africans were forced to work in mines, plantations, or colonial construction projects in order to earn wages. In this way, taxation became an important tool used by colonial governments to obtain labour and generate revenue for the colonial administration.

Social and cultural activities were also part of colonial rule in Africa. Christian missionaries played an important role in spreading Christianity and Western education. They established churches, schools, and hospitals in different parts of the continent. Missionary schools introduced literacy and basic education to many Africans and trained some individuals to work as clerks, teachers, and assistants in colonial administrations. However, the education provided was limited and mainly aimed at supporting colonial systems rather than promoting independent African development.

Colonial rule also brought significant cultural changes. European languages such as English, French, Portuguese, and Spanish became official languages in many colonies. Western forms of education, religion, and dress were introduced. While some Africans adopted these new cultural practices, many traditional African beliefs, customs, and social institutions were weakened or transformed during the colonial period.

Another important colonial activity involved the control and organisation of labour. In order to ensure the success of their economic activities, colonial authorities introduced different labour systems. These included forced labour, contract labour, and migrant labour systems. Many Africans were required to work in mines, plantations, and public works such as road and railway construction. These labour systems often caused hardship, population movements, and social disruption in many African communities.

Colonial activities in Africa had both positive and negative consequences. On one hand, some infrastructure such as roads, railways, schools, and hospitals was developed during the colonial period. These developments contributed to improvements in communication, transportation, and education in some areas. On the other hand, colonial activities mainly benefited European countries while African societies experienced exploitation of their resources and labour. Africans lost control over their land and political systems, and their economies became dependent on the export of raw materials to Europe.

Briefly, colonial activities in Africa were primarily designed to serve the economic and political interests of European colonial powers. Through the exploitation of natural resources, the establishment of colonial administrations, the introduction of taxation and labour systems, and the spread of missionary education, colonial governments reshaped African societies. Although some forms of development occurred during this period, colonial rule largely resulted in economic exploitation, social change, and political domination of African peoples.

2.3.Colonial Systems of Administration in Africa.

Learning activity 2.3



Read the following scenario and answer the questions asked on it.

Karake was a young African man living in a village during the colonial period. One day, colonial authorities informed the villagers that every household had to pay a **hut tax** in money. Since Karake and his family had no money, he was forced to leave his village to work in a **European-owned mine** far from home. The colonial government had also built a **railway line** that transported minerals from the mine to the coastal port, where they were shipped to Europe. Meanwhile, large pieces of land near Karake's village had been taken by Europeans to establish **plantations** for growing cash crops for export.

Questions.

1. From Karake's experience, identify two methods used by Europeans to exploit Africans and explain how they worked.

2. Explain why the colonial government introduced hut taxes and how this policy forced Africans like Karake to provide labour.
3. Analyze how the construction of the railway helped Europeans benefit economically from African resources..

Taxation

It was the main method of generating revenue for supporting colonial administration. The commonest were the hut and gun taxes. The method of collection was brutal and harsh, and often caused resistance wars. For instance, the Hut Tax War of 1898 in Sierra Leone.

Taxation was also important to force Africans either to grow cash crops or to work on European farms. This was because in order to get money for paying taxes these were the only possible alternatives. In some areas like the Congo Free State and Angola, taxes were paid in form of natural products and animals. Failure to pay taxes in these areas would lead to confiscation of property and sometimes mutilation.

Forced cash crop growing.

To meet the primary demand for colonization of Africa, cash crop growing had to be boosted. Some crops like rubber were grown traditionally, some were grown such as pyrethrum by Europeans while others like coffee and cotton were grown by Africans under the supervision of Europeans. These cash crops were needed to supply raw material to industries in Europe.

Europeans did not encourage the production of food. Forced labour undermined the production of food crops. This led to famine in African societies which had been traditionally self-sufficient in food. The African economies were developed as producers of raw materials in form of cash crops and minerals, and as consumers of European manufactured goods.

Forced labour

Africans were forced to work on European farms, mines and construction sites of colonial offices and roads. Their labour was either paid cheaply or not paid at all. In the Portuguese colonies of Angola and Mozambique there was a unique form of forced labour called contract labour. Africans were rounded up and taken to Sao Tom and Principe to work in sugar cane plantations.

Due to this forced labour, African societies experienced famine. A lot of time was spent on work for Europeans.

Land alienation

This was the most-evil form of exploitation of natural resources. Africans in settler colonies were hit hardest by this practice, for example in Kenya, South Africa, Rhodesia, Algeria, Angola and Mozambique. In some areas of Africa, Africans were forced to settle in reserve camps leaving fertile and mineralized plots of lands to Europeans. This policy caused resistance in many areas of Africa.

In Rwanda, the church alienated huge chunks of land to build churches, schools and people were forced out of their land.

Development of legitimate trade

After realizing the benefits of slave trade and its abolition, they introduced legitimate trade. This form of trade is said to have brought peace and stability as it eliminated the raids and suffering caused by slave trade.

Legitimate trade was monopolized by Europeans who transferred all the profits to their countries. They paid low prices for African products and highly priced their exports to Africa. Worse still, the legitimate trade involved the exchange of high valued African products like gold, copper, diamonds, cotton, coffee, rubber, and palm oil among others. Exports to Africa included beads, used clothes, bangles, spices and glassware.

In Rwanda, the European trader named Borgrave d'Altena purchased cows at very low prices so as to supply beef to the colonialists.

Discouraged industrialization

To control the monopoly for trade in raw materials and market for their manufactured goods in Africa, Europeans extremely discouraged manufacturing industries. In Egypt, Lord Cromer established processing plants for cotton lint while cotton cloth production was done in Britain.

Cromer also set up tariffs on locally manufactured foods and on imported coal. He also set up heavy fines on smokers to kill the tobacco industry.

In Senegal, the French never set up any industries to the extent that even groundnuts were exported in their shells. Only primary processing industries were set up to reduce the volume of raw materials. The prices for raw materials were very low while the manufactured goods from Europe were sold at high prices. This was a clear indication of colonial exploitation.

Development of road and railway transport

To support legitimate trade, road and railway transport networks were established. These networks connected the interior of African colonies to the coast. Roads were mainly established in areas rich in resources where colonialists had direct gains. The main purpose was to facilitate the effective exploitation of raw materials.

In Togo, Germany constructed railway lines and named them according to the produce they were meant to carry such as Cotton line, Palm oil line and Iron line.

In Rwanda, the railway project planned by the Germans from Dar-es-Salaam via Tabora to Rusumo stopped because of World War I.

Education system

The colonial education system was controlled by Christian missionaries. In the colonial schools, Africans were trained to serve as lower cadres, known as "colonial auxiliaries". The main products of these schools best suited the posts of houseboys, house girls and clerks. They could not make engineers, doctors and other professional careers.

The colonial education system produced people who liked European ways of life. As a result they exploited fellow Africans. In Rwanda, education was exclusively given to the sons of chiefs. In French, Portuguese and Italian colonies education was used for assimilation purposes.

Liberal subjects such as, political science, literature and history were neglected in order to keep Africans away from forming revolutionary movements against colonialists. To colonialists, the best subjects fit for Africans were bible study, reading and writing of languages.

Application activity 2.3



1. The colonial education system mainly trained Africans to become clerks, house servants, or assistants in colonial administration. Explain how this type of education helped colonial governments maintain control over African societies.
2. European colonial governments built roads and railway lines connecting resource-rich areas to coastal ports. Explain how this transport system supported the exploitation of African resources.
3. A colonial government introduces hut taxes and requires all Africans to pay them in money. Explain how this policy could force Africans to work on European farms, mines, or plantations.

2.4. Consequences of the European domination and exploitation of Africa

Learning activity 2.4



Read the scenario below and answer the questions that follow.

During the colonial period, **Amina**, a young African woman, noticed many changes in her community after Europeans established control over the region. Large areas of land were taken by colonial authorities for plantations and mining activities. Many people in the village were forced to work on these plantations or migrate to towns to earn money for paying taxes. New roads and railways were built mainly to transport raw materials to the coast for export. Missionary schools were also introduced, teaching European languages and culture while many traditional African practices began to decline.

Questions

1. Identify the economic consequences of European domination shown in the scenario.
2. Explain how colonial labour policies affected African communities.
3. Analyze positive and negative impact of missionary education on African societies.
4. Explain how European domination led to cultural changes in African communities.

2.4.1. Consequences of European domination.

Migration

The colonial powers used forced labour in the exploitation of Africa. This economic policy was introduced in order to exploit Africa. All adults were subjected to forced labour. Those who failed to accomplish it were punished. Africans were also beaten or had their properties confiscated.

As result of this forced labour, some Africans resisted European colonialists. Others preferred to migrate to the neighbouring countries where the situation was quite different.

E.g. Some Rwandans migrated to Uganda which was under British control. Others were forced to migrate to Democratic Republic of Congo as workers in mines.

Resettlement of Africans

Another consequence of colonial economic policies was the resettlement of Africans due to land alienation. They were displaced from their fertile soils to provide space for colonial economic projects such as infrastructure.

Exploitation of Africans

All colonial economic policies resulted in the exploitation of Africans. Examples include taxation and labour policies.

Dependence of African economy on Europeans

The over dependence of the African economy was due to poor colonial economic policy. This policy discouraged industrialization and also destroyed local African industry. The African economy was reduced to a market for European goods. The Europeans got the raw materials at low prices while their manufactured goods were sold at high prices in Africa.

Development of infrastructure

European colonialists succeeded in the development of communication lines. Railways were constructed in many parts of Africa to connect the interior of Africa to the coast. The aim was to facilitate the economic exploitation of Africa. Communication lines only extended to areas rich in resources; for example, minerals.

2.4.2. Cultural Consequences on Africa.

Disruption of traditional African cultures and introduction of Christianity

Colonialism affected African societies in various ways. It disrupted the traditional tribal cultures and religions. They introduced Christianity and controlled Africans to European rule.

The introduction of Christianity led to suppression of many ancient practices, although some survived. Some had already been introduced to the Caribbean islands by African slaves. Tribes often competed for colonial industrial products. In some cases, tribes still warred among each other as before colonialism. An aristocratic class of European managers and directors sprang up to operate the colonies. Like the American Indians, many African tribes lost their lands, were mistreated, or became second class citizens in a segregated society.

Politically, European colonization of Africa led to the demise of old African kingdoms and empires and the emergence of new political entities. Some of the old societies were reconstructed and new African societies were founded on different ideological and social premises. Consequently, African societies were in unstable state, and many were organizationally weak and politically unstable. They were therefore too weak to resist the European invaders.

As a result of poor technology, Africans were defeated by colonialists. African forces in general fought with bows, arrows, spears, swords, old rifles, and cavalries while the European forces, fought with more deadly firearms, machines guns, new rifles, and artillery guns. Thus in direct encounters European forces often won the day. However, Africans put up the best resistance with the resources they had.

By 1900 most of Africa had been colonized by European powers. After the conquest of African states, the European powers set about establishing colonial state systems.

The colonial state was established to facilitate effective control and exploitation of the colonized societies. As a result of their origins in military conquest and because of the racist ideology of the colonialists, the colonial states were authoritarian. Because they were imposed and maintained by force, without the consent of the governed, the colonial states never had the effective legitimacy of normal governments. Second, they were authoritarian because they were administered by military officers and civil servants appointed by the colonial power. While they were all authoritarian, bureaucratic state systems, their forms of administration varied, partly due to the different national administrative traditions and specific imperialist ideologies of the colonizers and partly because of the political conditions in the various territories that they conquered.

End of unit assessment 2



A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Define the term Scramble for Africa and explain how it contributed to the colonization of the continent.
2. Explain three major causes of the European colonization of Africa in the 19th century.
3. Describe two major colonial activities carried out by European powers in Africa and explain their purpose.
4. Explain the economic consequences of European domination in Africa.

Skills

1. Interpret the following situation: A railway line was constructed from a mining area in the interior of Africa to a coastal port during the colonial period. Explain how this railway supported European economic interests rather than the development of African societies.
2. Analyze how **taxation policies** introduced by colonial governments forced Africans to participate in colonial economic systems.

3. Analyse how colonial economic policies created dependence of African economies on European countries.

Attitudes and Values.

1. Study historical sources such as pictures, maps, or written accounts about colonial Africa. Explain why it is important to critically analyse such sources when studying the history of colonization.
2. Some historians argue that the legacy of colonialism can still be seen in Africa today. Explain two ways in which colonial policies continue to influence modern African societies.
3. As a learner studying African history, explain why it is important to understand the impact of colonialism in order to evaluate modern forms of neo-colonialism in Africa.

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UNIT 3

ACHIEVEMENTS AND FAILURES OF FIRST AND SECOND REPUBLICS



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the events that happened in First and second Republic for ensuring a proper governance.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Describe the successes and the failures of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda.
- State the reasons that caused the fall of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda.

Skills

2

- Explain the successes and failures of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda in detail.
- Examine the reasons that caused the fall of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Appreciate the successes and understand the failures of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda.
- Recognize the reasons that caused the fall of the First and Second Republic of Rwanda..

Introductory activity 3



Questions.

1. Look at the map carefully. Which regions of Rwanda had schools and hospitals built during the First Republic (1962–1973)?
2. Identify industries or factories developed during the Second Republic (1973–1994).
3. Which transport infrastructures are shown on the map, and how did they help connect the country?

Introduction

This unit helps you to learn about the post independent Rwanda's economic, social and political situation during the first and the second Republic. You will understand the major achievements and challenges of Rwanda after independence, including the First and Second Republics. You will learn how leadership, infrastructure, and policies shaped the country's development. The unit helps you appreciate the importance of good governance, national unity and responsible citizenship. It also encourages you to analyse past successes and failures to make informed decisions for the future.

3.1. Achievements of the 1st and 2nd Republic of Rwanda

Learning activity 3.1



Read the following scenario and answer questions that follows.

During a History lesson at **Groupe Scolaire Kigarama**, Mr. Ndayisaba asked his students about Rwanda's development after independence in 1962. He explained that during the First Republic led by **Grégoire Kayibanda**, the government worked to improve the country. Many **schools, hospitals, and roads** were built to help people access education, health services, and transport. Administrative institutions were also created to strengthen governance. Mr. Ndayisaba then asked students to think about how these achievements helped Rwanda to be developed after independence.

Questions.

1. Identify two achievements of the First Republic shown in the scenario.
2. Why were schools and hospitals important for Rwanda's development after independence?
3. Do you think the achievements of the First Republic were enough to ensure long-term stability in Rwanda? Explain your reasoning using historical thinking.

3.1.1. The Achievements under Kayibanda Gregoire (1962-1973)

The first Republic was a continuation of Belgian colonial legacy. As one tries to make a fair assessment of the regime, it must be noted that from the beginning, it was a puppet regime of colonialists and the Catholic Church motivated by selfish interests, not nationalistic and therefore ended in sowing more seeds of instability in Rwanda.

Establishment of the 1962 Constitution

When Rwanda gained independence on 1 July 1962, the country did not yet have a formal constitution. Earlier, leaders of the PARMEHUTU party had prepared a document during the Gitarama coup d'état of 1961, but this text was never officially published in the Official Gazette of Ruanda-Urundi. Because of this, colonial authorities continued to influence law-making even after independence.

To avoid a constitutional vacuum, the Parliament transformed itself into a Constituent Assembly to prepare a new constitution. With assistance from Belgian legal experts, parliamentary groups from PARMEHUTU and APROSOMA drafted a constitution. It was voted on 23 November 1962, receiving 33 votes in favour, none against, and four abstentions. The final document was signed on 24 November 1962 by 40 deputies.

The constitution clearly aimed to establish a republican state. Article 2 abolished the monarchy and declared that King Kigeli V Ndahindurwa and his dynasty had lost all royal powers, ensuring that the monarchy could not be restored.

Structure of Government under the First Republic

Under the 1962 Constitution, Rwanda adopted a republican system with a President and a Parliament.

The President of the Republic served both as Head of State and Head of Government. Initially, Dominique Mbonyumutwa held the presidency from January to October 1961, after which Grégoire Kayibanda was elected by the National Assembly on 26 October 1961. Kayibanda then formed the government. President Grégoire Kayibanda relied heavily on political allies from his home region of Gitarama. Many government positions were occupied by elites from this region, which created resentment among politicians from northern Rwanda and contributed to tensions that culminated in the 1973 coup.

The Parliament had the authority to supervise the president and his government according to Article 73 of the Constitution. During the First Republic, parliamentary elections took place in 1961, 1965, and 1969. This system continued until the parliament was dissolved after the coup d'état of 5 July 1973, which ended the First Republic.

The Supreme Court.

The Supreme Court was established after the Gitarama coup of January 1961 and was supported by provisions in the 1962 Constitution. However, it had limited power in practice.

For example, when President Kayibanda modified parts of the constitution to allow himself to run for a third presidential term in 1973, the Supreme Court did not challenge this decision because judges feared losing their positions.

Administrative Reorganisation.

After independence, Rwanda reorganized its administrative structure. The previous colonial administrative units' territories, chefferies, and sous-chefferies were replaced by prefectures, sub-prefectures, and communes. These administrative units were led by: Prefects, Sub-prefects, and Burgomasters.

Rwanda was divided into 10 prefectures: Butare, Byumba, Cyangugu, Gikongoro, Gitarama, Gisenyi, Kibuye, Kigali, Kibungo, and Ruhengeri. In total, the country had 143 communes.

From Multiparty System to One-Party Rule.

The 1962 Constitution allowed a multiparty political system. However, the ruling party MDR-PARMEHUTU gradually turned Rwanda into a one-party state. By 1965, MDR-PARMEHUTU had eliminated other political parties and became the only political party in the country. The party merged with the government, meaning that the President of Rwanda was also the president of the party. At regional levels, prefects and local leaders were also leaders of the party.

The party used several methods to maintain control, including intimidation, arrests, violence, and political pressure. Some opposition parties disappeared because their leaders joined PARMEHUTU, while others disappeared after their leaders were killed. For example: Several leaders from RADER and UNAR were killed in 1963.

These executions occurred after attacks by exiled fighters known as Inyenzi. As a result, in 1965 elections, MDR-PARMEHUTU was the only party presenting candidates.

Political Challenges of the First Republic

One of the major challenges was the **refugees problem**, which began during the **1959 crisis**. Many Rwandans fled the country and lived in neighbouring states. Some refugees formed groups known as **Inkotanyi**, meaning “those who attack bravely.” These groups carried out **armed incursions into Rwanda between 1961 and 1967**. Their aim was to overthrow the government and reclaim their citizenship. Major attacks occurred in:

- | | |
|---|---|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none">• December 1961 from Uganda• April 1962 in eastern Rwanda• July 1962 from Goma | <ul style="list-style-type: none">• December 1963 in Bugesera• Later attacks in Cyangugu, Gikongoro, and Kibungo |
|---|---|

After these attacks, many **Tutsi civilians inside Rwanda were killed**, and thousands fled the country as refugees. Between **1959 and 1967**, about **20,000 Tutsi were killed** and **around 200,000 fled abroad**.

“Ethnic” ideology.

The First Republic inherited **ethnic divisions** that had been encouraged during the **Belgian colonial period** through the policy of **divide and rule**.

Political parties formed before independence were often organized along ethnic lines:

- **PARMEHUTU** mainly represented Hutu interests
- **UNAR** a political party that was inclusive to all.
- **APROSOMA** also attracted mainly Hutu supporters

The violence of **1959** and subsequent political policies led to **discrimination against Tutsi**, including dismissal from administrative positions, arrests, and killings. Many Tutsi homes were burned, forcing people to flee the country.

From 1st to 7th November 1959, a spark of violence erupted in Gitarama against the Tutsi and members of UNAR. It was sparked off by members of PARMEHUTU and APROSOMA and it spread in whole country, the Belgian administration morally and physically supported the PARMEHUTU party. Shortly after this crisis, Tutsi leaders were deposed and replaced by Hutu leaders. When independence was given, PARMEHUTU was the dominant party and it did all it could to eliminate other political parties. At the same time, Tutsi were discriminated in various sectors.

The effect of this violence devastating for the Tutsi: their dwellings were burned systematically; they were killed or displaced and became refugees in neighbouring countries. They were arbitrary arrests, imprisonment and assassinations of many Tutsi. Twenty chiefs were dismissed and 150 sub- chiefs were replaced by members of PARMEHUTU assisted by Colonel Logiest.

Economy

At independence in 1962, Rwanda had very few economic resources and infrastructures. Many important government services were still in **Bujumbura**, the former colonial capital of **Ruanda-Urundi**. Rwanda had no airport, radio station, permanent roads, telephone system, hotels, or university. Most goods had to pass through **Bujumbura or the Belgian Congo**.

Rwanda also had little money and depended mainly on **Belgium** for financial support. To improve the economy, the government created financial institutions such as the **Commercial Bank (1962)**, the **National Bank (1964)** and the **Rwanda Development Bank (1968)**. These institutions helped finance some factories and industries.

Another problem was the poor functioning of the **monetary and customs union with Burundi**. The two countries had different political systems, which created tensions. Rwanda also faced a serious economic crisis. Prices increased greatly, reaching **300% by 1964**, while agricultural and mineral production decreased. As a result, exports fell and Rwanda lacked foreign currency.

To solve these problems, Rwanda requested assistance from Western countries and international organizations such as the **International Monetary Fund (IMF)**. Belgium and the IMF provided loans while the **United States** gave food aid and money for equipment. However, this made Rwanda economically dependent on foreign assistance.

The government also reduced spending in many ministries and introduced the **First Five-Year Development Plan (1966–1971)** to promote economic growth. The plan included the construction of important roads such as **Kigali–Gatuna, Kigali–Rusumo, Kigali–Butare and Ruhengeri–Cyanika**. Before the end of the First Republic in 1973, only the **Kigali–Gatuna road** had begun construction. Other projects included the **Rusumo Bridge over the Akagera River** and the **Nyabarongo Bridge failed**.

In agriculture, the government improved rural development by reclaiming marshlands, distributing improved seeds and introducing new crops like **rice**. Measures were also taken to protect cattle from diseases. From **1969**, the economic situation improved slightly because military expenses decreased and foreign aid increased.

Education System

During the First Republic, progress in education was limited, although the government attempted to provide **free education and health services**.

At independence, Rwanda had only a few secondary schools such as **Groupe Scolaire d'Astrida (Butare), Ecole Technique Officielle de Kicukiro, College Sainte André (Kigali), and College du Christ Roi (Nyanza)**. The number of secondary schools increased from **23 in 1962 to 63 in 1972**.

Primary school enrolment also increased from **261,306 pupils in 1962 to 425,000 in 1972**, partly because of the double-shift system. Government spending on education also increased.

The **National University of Rwanda** was opened on **3 November 1963** in **Ruhande (Butare)** by a Canadian priest called **Father Levesque**. It started with **50 students** in three faculties: medicine, arts and sciences. By **1971–1972**, the number of students had reached **470**. The **Institut Pédagogique National (IPN)** was also created in **1966**. Despite these efforts, the number of graduates remained small.

Health

The First Republic also made some progress in the health sector. The number of **dispensaries increased from 67 to 142 by 1972**. The government also tried to fight **malnutrition and poor hygiene** by building medical centres that educated people on disease prevention.

Nutrition centres were created for malnourished children, and mothers received training on child care. A centre for **physically disabled children was built at Gatagara**, while a **psychiatric centre was established at Ndera (Caraes Ndera)** to care for mentally ill patients. In addition, vaccination campaigns were organized between **1965 and 1970** to prevent diseases.

Application activity 3.1



1. Identify major achievements of the first Republic under G. Kayibanda.
2. Explain measures taken by the government to improve the economy.
3. Mention achievements in the education sector during the First Republic.
4. Describe improvements made in the health sector.
5. In your opinion, which government measure was most important for Rwanda's development? Give the reasons to justify your answer.

3.2. Failures of the 1st Republic of Rwanda.

Learning activity 3.2



1. Identify political problems during the First Republic of Rwanda.
2. How does the government institutions such as Parliament and the Supreme Court were not respected?
3. What evidence shows regional divisions between the North and the South of Rwanda?
4. What are the consequences of discrimination and political conflict

Government institutions were not respected. Grégoire Kayibanda and his MDR-PARMEHUTU denied the rights of the parliament to supervise the Government. The same went to the Supreme Court that failed to prevent Gregoire Kayibanda from changing some articles of the constitution to be re-elected for the 3rd term in 1973. Changing the 1962 Constitution was initiated by the President himself instead of the people who were the source of PARMEHUTU.

The cause of rivalry was that the PARMEHUTU members of the South especially from Gitarama, the home area of President Kayibanda tended to systematically monopolise PARMEHUTU and Government power in a form of nepotism at the expense of the Northern region. This resulted into the loss of military support of which the majority of senior officers were from the Northern region and the rest of the country. There was a failed coup attempt by Pierre Nyatanyi who was then chief cabinet of President Grégoire Kayibanda and Joachim Muramutsa, commander of the Kanombe unit. The repression campaign against Tutsi was orchestrated by the Government and local administration. There were many deaths, arrests, burnt houses, stolen goods...Unfortunately, no political, administrative authority or a military was tried for these atrocities.

Institutionalisation of discrimination against Tutsi. From 1959 onwards, the Tutsi was targeted, causing hundreds of thousands of deaths. A population of almost two million Rwandans were refugees for almost four decades. The First Republic, under President Grégoire Kayibanda institutionalized discrimination against the Tutsi and periodically used massacres against the Tutsi as a means of maintaining the status quo.

In 1965, Rwanda was declared a one-party state under MDR/ PARMEHUTU, which was the architect of the racist ideology. The regime of Kayibanda did not manifest a good will to repatriate the refugees. Instead, the state killed the Tutsi whenever the Inyenzi attacked the country.

Transfer of "ethnicism" to regionalism. In 1965, PARMEHUTU won every seat in the National Assembly. In spite of this achievement, this party experience had started to internal tensions since 1963. These tensions fell into two categories:

There were inter-personal rivalries and disagreements in the distribution of jobs as the party organs and state structures came closer and closer. There was increasing discontent among emerging cadres, students and individuals with primary and secondary education. Very fierce local political competition was combined with rivalries at national level. Bourgomasters and prefects competed intensely. Whereas the former drew upon their clientele networks and the legitimacy as elected officials, the latter used state structures and party influence. Divisions emerged due to the struggle for jobs. The state decided to expose "ethnic" divisions so as to unify the regime.

The purges which began in February 26th 1973 were initially provoked by students, but also encouraged and led by political authorities. Along with PARMEHUTU, the authorities aimed at uniting the regime by defining a common enemy. Northern soldiers (particularly Lieutenant Colonel Alexis Kanyarengwe, the Chief of Police, who was from Ruhengeri) who, planned to cause a political crisis, also targeted the Tutsi ("**Mututsi mvira aha**"). The purges, initially involved the posting of lists of Tutsi students and staff, asking them to leave universities and companies. This problem later run out of control.

Consequently, Grégoire Kayibanda punished several northern dignitaries by dismissing them from jobs and removing them from locations associated with power: Lieutenant Colonel Alexis Kanyarengwe was appointed director of the Nyundo Seminary while Major Nsekalije was assigned to a tea cooperative in Byumba. All the general secretaries of the government ministries were replaced, as well as nine of the ten prefects. The division between the south and the north was firmly established.

From February–March 1973, purges were organized in schools and in public administration against the Tutsi population. Tutsi students appeared on lists posted in all secondary schools and at the university of Rwanda and signed 'Mouvement des Étudiants' ('Students' Movement') or 'Comité de Salut Public' ('Committee of Public Safety'). They felt threatened and had to flee from these institutions.

In mid-February, the movement reached the National University of Rwanda in Butare and the secondary school of Kabgayi managed by the Josephite brothers. This movement, which had started in schools, spread to public administration and private companies. In ministries, hospitals, banks and shops, the Committee of Public Safety posted lists identifying the Tutsi. Private individuals were requested to fire their Tutsi servants. From the towns, this spread to the countryside. In the prefectures of Gitarama and Kibuye, the houses of the Tutsi were burned down and they were told to leave.

Different explanations are given for the source of this turmoil. Though orders were given through the administration, they may have originated from people close to Grégoire Kayibanda. They may also have come from Alexis Kanyarengwe, the Chief of Police, who was from Ruhengeri.

Afterwards, the names of some ministers appeared on the lists drawn up in Kigali. In Gitarama, several rich Hutu traders' stores were attacked and looted, as well as the residences of certain politicians, including that of Rwasibo Jean Baptiste. On March 22, Grégoire Kayibanda made a pacification speech and announced the creation of a ministerial commission in charge of inspecting schools.

Another cause of the rivalry between the north and the south was that PARMEHUTU members of the south especially in Gitarama, the home area of President Kayibanda tended to dominate PARMEHUTU and government power at the expense of the northern region. For example, in the last government formed by President Grégoire Kayibanda in 1972, there were six ministers out of eighteen. One third came from Gitarama, the region of Kayibanda. He was accused of behaving like a monarch who played around, and causing misunderstanding in the government.

There was a failed coup attempt by Nyatanyi Pierre the chief of cabinet under President Kayibanda and Muramutsa Joachim, commandant of the Kanombe unit. Because these two officers were from the north the coup was seen as a coup of the north against the south. The two officers were imprisoned only to be pardoned later by President Habyarimana when he took over power in the coup d'état of 1973.

As a result of unjust policies and divisions between the North and South, the first republic was overthrown on 5th July 1973. It was a government dominated by foreign interests. It continued the Belgian policy of dividing Banyarwanda on racial stereotypes. The legacy of the first republic forms the background of the genocide against the Tutsi.

Factors for the downfall of the two Republics of Rwanda.

1. The **First Republic of Rwanda (1962–1973)** was led by Grégoire Kayibanda after Rwanda gained independence from Belgium in 1962. The government was dominated by the political party MDR-PARMEHUTU, which had led the political movement during the late colonial period. Although the First Republic established Rwanda as an independent state and created administrative

institutions, it eventually collapsed in 1973 due to several political and social problems.

2. One major factor that led to the downfall of the First Republic was **regionalism and internal divisions within the ruling elite**. Most political power was concentrated in the southern region of Rwanda, especially in Gitarama and surrounding areas where President Kayibanda came from. This situation created resentment among people from other regions, particularly the northern regions of Ruhengeri and Gisenyi, who felt politically marginalized.
3. Another important factor was the **ethnic tensions and continued refugee problem**. After the events of the Rwandan Revolution of 1959, many Tutsi fled to neighbouring countries such as Uganda, Burundi, Tanzania, and the Democratic Republic of Congo. Some of these refugees later organized armed incursions into Rwanda during the early 1960s. The government responded with harsh reprisals inside the country, which increased tensions and insecurity.
4. The **political system was also increasingly authoritarian**. Rwanda operated as a one-party state under MDR-PARMEHUTU, and political opposition was not tolerated. Over time, the government became less democratic, and political competition was limited. This weakened political institutions and reduced public trust in the government.
5. Another factor was **economic and social instability**, especially in the early 1970s. Competition for jobs and education increased, and tensions grew between regions and ethnic groups. Violence and discrimination in schools and public institutions were reported in 1972–1973, which further destabilized the country.
6. All these problems created a political crisis that allowed the army to intervene. On **5 July 1973**, the Minister of Defence, Juvénal Habyarimana, carried out a **military coup d'état** that overthrew President Kayibanda. This event ended the First Republic and marked the beginning of the Second Republic in Rwanda.

Application activity 3.2



1. Explain two ways in which President Grégoire Kayibanda weakened government institutions.
2. How did regionalism between the North and the South of Rwanda create political tensions?
3. Describe two forms of discrimination or persecution against the Tutsi population under the First Republic.
4. Why did these political and social problems contribute to the fall of the First Republic in 1973?

3.3 Achievements of the Second Republic of Rwanda

Learning activity 3.3



One morning, **Gatera**, a history teacher in a secondary school in **Muhanga District**, asked his students to imagine travelling in Rwanda in the late 1970s and 1980s. He told them that during this period many **roads were constructed**, new **public buildings, schools and hospitals** were built, and communication and transport improved in many parts of the country. These developments happened during the **Second Republic under President Juvénal Habyarimana**. Gatera then asked the students to think about how such developments could change the life of people and the country.

1. According to the scenario, which period of Rwanda's history is the teacher introducing?
2. Identify some types of infrastructural developments mentioned in the scenario.
3. How can the construction of roads help improve people's lives and the country's economy?
4. What do you expect to learn about the achievements of the Second Republic in this lesson?

The second republic was welcomed by all Banyarwanda with the hope that it would end the suffering caused by Kayibanda and his government. However, in many ways it was to continue the legacy of the first republic, ending in the genocide against the Tutsi in 1994 where more than one million of Tutsi were killed. In the night of July 4th to 5th, 1973, the presidential guard under the general command of Major General Habyarimana, Minister of Defense and Chief in staff of the army led a coup d'état against the regime of Kayibanda Grégoire and Habyarimana took over the power. He was assisted by the following senior military officers: Lieutenant Colonel Alexis Kanyarengwe, Majors Aloys Nsekarije, Sabin Benda, Epimaque Ruhashya, Fabien Gahimano, Jean Népomuscène Munyandekwe, Bonaventure Ntubitura, Laurent Serubuga, Bonaventure Buregeya and Aloys Simba.

The coup leaders dissolved the National Assembly, suspended the 1962 Constitution and banned all political activities.

They suppressed MDR- PARMEHUTU Political Party, they at the same time put in place what they called a National Peace and Unity Committee composed of 11 senior officers to replace the ousted government.

Given the state of insecurity the country was going through before the coup d'état of 5th July 1973, this committee was greeted with a lot of hope, even among the Rwandan refugees.

In President Habyarimana's declaration on July 5, 1974, much was said about national peace and unity. He castigated regionalism, public immorality, and corruption.



President Juvénal Habyarimana

Achievements of the Second Republic



3.3.1 In terms of political matter

On July 5th 1975, Major General Juvénal Habyarimana established Mouvement Révolutionnaire National pour le Développement (MRND). The Party's main objective was to unify, encourage and intensify efforts of all Rwandans to enhance economic, social and cultural development in an atmosphere of national peace and unity.

In 1977, the Commission for Administration and Institutional Affairs of Mouvement Révolutionnaire National pour le Développement (MRND) prepared a new constitution. In October 1978, the constitution was adopted by government and the MRND Central Committee.

On December 20th, 1978, the new constitution was adopted by the population in a referendum with a reported 89 per cent of the votes. At the same time Habyarimana was elected through universal suffrage as president of Rwanda with a 99 per cent majority.

Article 7 of the Constitution declared Rwanda as single party state under the MRND where every citizen was a member right from birth. In reality, this was the establishment of a one-party political system. The president of the MRND party had to be the sole presidential candidate. The new constitution abolished the National Assembly and replaced it with The National Development Council (NDC). The first National Development Council or (Conseil National pour le Développement (CND)) was elected in 1983.

At the diplomatic level, the Second Republic made international openness and cooperation one of its main priorities. Rwanda therefore increased the number of its diplomatic representatives abroad. On December 19th, 1983 Juvénal Habyarimana was re-elected president of Rwanda with 99.98 per cent of the votes. After five years, on December 19th, 1988 Juvénal Habyarimana was re-elected again for five years winning 99.8 per cent of the votes.



French President *François Mitterrand (1981-1995).*

Source: <https://www.gettyimages>.

In June 1990, French President François Mitterrand gave a speech at La Baule in France in which he announced that French aid would be conditional upon democratization in Africa. Following this speech, Rwanda experienced a slight opening up towards a multi-party system.

Thus, on July 5, 1990, during his traditional July 5 speech, the day of the Second Republic's 17th anniversary, Juvénal Habyarimana was in position to announce these political changes: the separation of the party bodies from state structures, and the possible implementation of a multi-party system, though he remained very vague about the details of how this would be implemented. On September 1st 1990, thirty-three Rwandan intellectuals published a manifesto 'for a multi-party system democracy'. On September 25th, 1990 Juvénal Habyarimana named National Synthesis Committee CNS in charge of developing the first draft for a constitution allowing many political parties.

3.3.2 In terms of economic development

Under the Second Republic, the Second Five-year period of the economic, social and cultural development plan which covered the period from 1977 up to 1981 was implemented. This plan had four missions:

- Ensuring food security of the population and address the population growth rate;
- Promotion of human resource management;
- Improvement of the social conditions of individuals and the community;
- Improvement of the Rwandan position vis-à-vis external relations.

The objective of this second five-year development plan was the creation of many jobs in order to provide young people in rural areas with opportunities to participate in the

social and economic life of the country.

From 1982 to 1986, the Third Five-year period of the economic, social and cultural development plan was also adopted with the following aims:

- To improve food security for the population in terms of both quality and quantity.
- To promote jobs at sustainable wage levels that cover the basic needs while emphasizing training programmes in order to increase labour productivity.
- To improve the population's health conditions, promote access to shelter and produce goods for mass consumption.
- To develop external relations and encourage the fairness of international trade conditions.

The Rwandan diplomatic representation in foreign countries increased. In 1979, Rwanda had hosted the Sixth Franco – African Conference. In 1976, Rwanda had just been a co-founder of the Communauté Economique des Pays des Grand Lacs (CEPGL). It was also host to the headquarters of the Kagera River Basin Organization (KBO).

The Second Republic made a great effort in agriculture. Cash crops especially tea, coffee and pyrethrum were promoted by the increase in acreage cultivated and the creation of factories. These include the tea factories of Shagasha, Mata, Gisovu, and Nyabihu, and the pyrethrum factory processing in Ruhengeri.

The government of the Second Republic focused a particular attention on food crops like maize, rice, soya beans, sugarcane, etc. Some factories were also set up to process these crops like the Maïserie de Mukamira, Sucrerie de Kabuye, and others.

Emphasis was also put on the creation of agricultural projects. In almost all former prefectures, there were such projects like Développement Global de Butare (DGB), Projet Agricole de Gitarama (PAG), Développement Rural de Byumba (DRB) and Crête Congo Nil.

Regarding animal husbandry, the accent was placed on rearing one cow in a cowshed and planting reeds and other kinds of grasses to feed the cows. To improve the existing breeds of cows, strategies such as the importation of bulls, artificial insemination, research, fighting cattle diseases, etc, were adopted.



Kigali International Airport

Source: https://www.aeroport-kigali.com/kigali_international_airport.php

Concerning infrastructural development, the following infrastructure were put in place by the Second Republic:



Amahoro Stadium

Source: <https://www.worldstadiums.com>

- Asphalting of the following routes:
Kigali–Gatuna; Kigali–Butare– Akanyaru;
Kigali–Ruhengeri–Gisenyi;
Kigali–Kibungo–Rusumo;
Butare–Gikongoro–Cyangugu
- Construction of several buildings to serve as offices, for different ministries and hospitals; for example, King Faisal Hospital,
- Extension of electricity network
- Construction of Kanombe Airport
- Construction of Amahoro National Stadium

From 1980 to 1986, the country enjoyed economic growth due to a combination of positive external and internal factors. This included good climate high prices of coffee, tea and minerals, and a considerable flow of external capital into the country. However, from the end of 1986, the situation deteriorated and the economy of Rwanda gradually declined. The causes of the economic crisis in Rwanda during this period included the following:

- The drastic fall of the world coffee and tin prices
- The over devaluation of the Rwandan franc
- The poor management of public funds
- The demographic explosion prevailing in Rwanda since 1940, hence the reduced yields from land.

To address this economic crisis, the government of Rwanda applied the Structural Adjustment Programme (SAP) dictated by the Bretton Woods Institutions (International Monetary Fund (IMF) and World Bank) with a view to stabilizing the economy and benefiting from financial support of those institutions.

3.3.3 Health

Under health, the Second Republic, many attempts were made to expand the health

sector. The dispensaries were transformed into health centres and more medical personnel were trained.

The government also put in place a policy which aimed at creating nutrition centres in order to educate parents on nutrition and hygiene.

Government improved hygiene conditions by putting emphasis on the most vulnerable groups such as women and children. In order to find a solution to hygiene related-problems, the government established nutritional centres at health centres. Thus, it achieved curative care and preventive education, including vaccination, nutrition, maternal and child protection.

In 1979 the government established the Broad-Based Vaccination Programme (PEV/ BVP) whose objective was to reduce infant mortality through vaccination against certain targeted diseases which included tuberculosis, whooping cough, tetanus, polio, measles and diphtheria.

The office for National Population (ONAPO) to deal with Population growth.

In 1987, the government established the Programme National de Lutte contre le SIDA (PNLS) or National Program for the Fight against AIDS whose objective was to control, prevent, reduce and conduct research on AIDS. In the same year, the government launched the Programme National de Lutte contre le Paludisme (PNLP) or National Program for the Fight against Malaria.



King Faisal Hospital

Source: <https://kfh.rw>

In 1989 the Programme for Acceleration of Primary Health Care (PASSP) was also put in place. This programme aimed at encouraging community participation in self-reliance and management of health services at their health centres.

3.3.4 Education

In this sector, the following were the achievements of the Second Republic:

Many reforms were made at all levels of education in Rwanda. Among these was the construction of new primary and secondary schools.

During the school year of 1978–1979, primary education was revised. The primary cycle changed from 6 years to 8 years. Towards the end of 1980–1981, the primary school cycle changed from 6 years to 8 years. This reform established professional schools known under the name of Centre de l'Enseignement Rural et Artisanal Intégré (CERAI). These professional schools admitted students who had missed secondary school enrollment for 3 years. In such schools, students could learn professional skills such as woodwork, electricity, masonry and plumbing.

Training in professional skills was introduced in Primary 7 and Primary 8, and Kinyarwanda became a language of instruction from P 1 up to P 8. So, in 1991, these reforms were revised, the primary education cycle was brought back to 6 years. At the secondary education level, the Ordinary Level was reduced and specializations

sections introduced in the second year of secondary education. But this reform failed due to lack of:

- Teaching materials
- Qualified teachers in the newly introduced subjects appropriate evaluation methods for the reform.

At university level, the Institut Pédagogique National (IPN) was fused with some departments of the National University of Rwanda. The new campus of Nyakinama was created in 1980–1981 as the result of this fusion. Besides, the duration of studies in most faculties was reduced from 5 to 4 years.

Application activity 3.3



1. Examine the major achievements of the second republic under Habyarimana.
2. Discuss the major challenges faced by the second republic in achieving the best level of quality of Education.
3. In your opinion, why is it important to study both the achievements and challenges of a government period?
4. As a student of history, assess whether development projects alone are enough for a country's progress. Explain your answer.

3.4 Failures of the 2nd Republic of Rwanda.



Learning activity 3.4



1. Identify measures taken by the government that increased dictatorship during the Second Republic.
2. According to you, why did the government refuse the mass return of Rwandan refugees during the second Republic?
3. Mention examples of how opposition was suppressed during the regime.
4. Explain what was meant by the "Quota System" and how it affected national life in Rwanda.

Increased dictatorship with the aim of consolidating his regime, Juvenal Habyarimana took various measures. On 5th July 1975, Le Mouvement Révolutionnaire National pour le Développement (**MRND**) became a "Party State" as was MDR-PARMEHUTU under the First Republic. Moreover, the central committee of MRND was the highest decision-making body in the Habyarimana regime. The article 7 of the 24 December 1978 Constitution consecrates MRND as the sole political party and all Rwandans were automatically its members. Therefore, Juvénal Habyarimana, the President of MRND, was the sole candidate in the 1983 and 1988 presidential elections. The following factors played a significant role in the failure of the Second Republic.

Politics of exclusion: The Habyarimana's regime never attempted to reverse the policy of political exclusion that had been introduced by Belgians and Kayibanda's government. Habyarimana's government considered one section of citizens to dominate political posts (Rubanda Nyamwinshi) democratic. As a result, some were officially excluded from politics which annoyed people, leading to the decline of the second Republic.

Racist ideology: The regime did not attempt to reverse the Hutu racist ideology of 1959 which regarded Batutsi as foreigners from Abyssinia in Ethiopia. The Hutu considered themselves the only ones with the right to citizenship. This ideology was used by Hutu elite to dominate Hutu peasants and Tutsi. Hutu peasants thought that because the government leadership was Hutu, they stood to gain. However, the peasants gained the little from the second republic. Only a small section of the Hutu elite gained from government and business.

Quota policy: The quota policy (equilibre or iringaniza) under Kayibanda's regime was maintained, especially in schools and the civil service. As a result, the Batutsi were denied the right to work. To avoid discrimination, the Batutsi mainly worked in the private sector. In the army, it was not allowed to marry Batutsi women. Batutsi could only remain safe as long as they did not interfere with politics.

Identity cards: During colonial period, the Belgians introduced identity cards which divided Banyarwanda. This policy was continued by Kayibanda to promote selfish interests. This policy which divided Banyarwanda was maintained by the second republic. One can therefore say that Habyarimana never attempted to correct mistakes of the Belgians and the catholic church of that period.

Restricted movement: The place of residence was written on the identity cards of all

citizens. People could travel but not change address without permission. Permission to change the address was not allowed except for a serious reason like going to school or getting a job.

Forced labor: Communal labor from peasants which was supposed to take two days a month was raised to four or more days. The work ceased to be voluntary and, in some cases, it was forced labor. This practice could not be changed in spite of international criticism. Some of the work had to be done on private lands of government leaders. This was why in 1991 and 1992, farmers rebelled against the forced communal labour system. In south peasants destroyed forests they had been forced to plant.

Regionalism: The second republic was led by northerners who took over the power because Kayibanda was favouring southern Hutu. The second republic favoured the northern Hutu in terms of jobs. However, soon there was a struggle between Gisenyi and Ruhengeri Prefectures whereby the president and his wife favoured Gisenyi. Even in Gisenyi there was conflict between Bushi (Habyarimana's home) and Bugoyi (a home to Col Theoneste Lizinde who made a coup attempt in 1980. By the 1980s, as a big part of civil and military positions was occupied by people from Gisenyi.

Insecurity: There was insecurity as a result of killing of suspected government opponents. For example, between 1974-1977 the leader of security Col. Theoneste Lizinde killed 56 people, mostly former leaders in Kayibanda's government. Also, lawyers and businessmen government did not like were killed, mainly from the South. Also between 1990-1994, there was a rise of violence where many people were killed.

Madame's clique:(Akazu) From the late 1980s, the president's wife and her family plus few associates gained greater control of the state. Habyarimana used this group for support against opponents. Because the president had no strong lineage, his wife's clan controlled him. This was to lead the chaos which contributed to the failure of the second Republic. For examples, the murder of Col. Mayuya, a likely successor to Habyarimana, by Col. Serubuga Laurent of Madame's clan caused power struggles and instability in the government. The clique was responsible for quotas in schools and giving government jobs. The clique had a death squad (Escadron de la mort) led by Agathe Kanziga and Zigiranyirazo protais also known as Mr. Z. with Seraphin Rwabukumba known as Northern prince It was charged with killing government opponents. Its activities were planned in the president's house. It was represented in all sections of the army and prefectures.

The Government made no significant efforts to solve the refugee problem. In June-July 1989, the central committee of MRND examined the problem of Rwandan refugees scattered around the world, especially in the neighbouring countries. The central committee resolved that refugees were not to return massively into the country. It strongly advocated that refugees should find a way of integrating themselves into their respective countries of asylum. The central committee of MRND declared openly that Rwanda was overpopulated and incapable of receiving and accommodating the refugees returning back in the country.

Crashing all forms of opposition, Juvénal Habyarimana regime had zero tolerance to opposition. Opponents were subjected to political executions. Examples include Abbé Sylvio Sindambiwe (Former Director of Kinyamateka Newspaper) and Félicula Nyiramutarambirwa (Former member of the MRND Central Committee).

Exclusion. There was a deplorable exclusion which was highly institutionalized right from 1981, in the name of "ethnic and regional balance/ the "Quota System". Applied in all sectors of national life, the "Quota System" had to allocate places in schools, the national army, administration and diplomatic services on the basis of ethnic and regional belonging.

Factors for the downfall of the Second Republic in Rwanda.

The **Second Republic of Rwanda (1973–1994)** was established after the military coup led by Juvénal Habyarimana.

The regime initially promised national unity, peace, and development. During its early years, the government introduced development programs, expanded infrastructure, improved education and health services, and promoted community development activities such as **Umuganda**. However, over time several political, economic, and social problems weakened the regime and eventually led to its collapse.

One major cause of the downfall of the Second Republic was the **establishment of a one-party authoritarian system**. In 1975, the government created the National Revolutionary Movement for Development (MRND), which became the only legal political party in Rwanda. According to the 1978 constitution, all Rwandans automatically became members of this party. The president was always the sole candidate in elections, which limited political competition and democratic participation.

Another factor was **regionalism and favoritism** within the government. Many key positions in the military and government were given to people from the northern regions, particularly Gisenyi and Ruhengeri, where President Habyarimana came from. This concentration of power created resentment among people from other regions and weakened national unity.

The **economic crisis of the late 1980s** also contributed to the fall of the Second Republic. Rwanda's economy depended heavily on agricultural exports, especially coffee. When international coffee prices collapsed in the late 1980s, government revenues declined sharply. At the same time, rapid population growth increased pressure on land and resources, which caused widespread poverty and dissatisfaction.

Another key factor was the **refugee problem and the outbreak of civil war**. Many Rwandan refugees who had lived in exile since the early 1960s demanded the right to return home. When negotiations failed, the Rwandan Patriotic Front launched an armed struggle against the government in October 1990. This war weakened the state and created political instability.

In response to internal and external pressure, the government agreed to negotiate with the RPF. These negotiations resulted in the signing of the Arusha Accords, which aimed to establish a power-sharing government and end the civil war. However, extremist political groups opposed the agreement and created further tensions in the country by deciding to exterminate the entire race of Tutsi as planned earlier.

Briefly, the fall of both the First and the Second Republics in Rwanda was mainly caused by **authoritarian leadership, regional and ethnic divisions, political exclusion, and economic difficulties**. These factors weakened national unity and political stability, eventually leading to regime changes in **1973** and **1994**.

Application activity 3.4



1. Examine the major factors that contributed to the downfall of the second Republic of Rwanda.
2. Imagine you are an advisor to a national leader whose country is at risk of collapse. What recommendations would you give to help stabilize and develop the country?
3. How did dictatorship cause the fall of the second Republic in Rwanda.

End of unit assessment 3



A. Knowledge and understanding

1. Describe the major successes of the First Republic of Rwanda under Grégoire Kayibanda.
2. State the main failures of the First Republic of Rwanda.
3. Describe major achievements of the Second Republic under Juvénal Habyarimana.
4. State major failures of the Second Republic of Rwanda.
5. Identify the main reasons that led to the fall of the First Republic in 1973.

B. Skills

1. Explain in detail the political, social, and economic successes of the First Republic of Rwanda.
2. Explain the major successes achieved during the Second Republic and how they contributed to national development.
3. Examine the major failures of both the First and Second Republics and explain how they affected governance in Rwanda.
4. Analyse the reasons that caused the fall of the First Republic and the Second Republic of Rwanda.

C. Attitudes and Values

1. Explain why it is important for leaders and citizens to appreciate the successes and learn from the failures of the First and Second Republics of Rwanda.
2. Discuss how understanding the reasons that led to the fall of the First and Second Republics can help promote good governance and national unity in Rwanda today.

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UNIT 4

THE 1990 LIBERATION WAR IN RWANDA



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the causes, major events and consequences of the 1990-1994 liberation war in Rwanda and its significance in the spirit of patriotism and resilience.

Teun Voeten (War photographer) – Rwandan Patriotic Front soldiers during the war of liberation.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Describe the causes and explain the course of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda.
- Identify and explain the major consequences of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda.

Skills

2

- Analyse the major political, social, and historical causes that led to the outbreak of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda.
- Examine the course of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda by explaining the main events and developments that occurred during the conflict.
- Assess the major consequences of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda and explain how they affected the country politically, socially, and economically.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Value the different causes that led to the outbreak of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda and understand their significance in the history of the country.
- Appreciate the course of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda by recognizing the major events and developments that characterized the conflict.
- Judge the consequences of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda and evaluate their impact on the political, social, and economic development of the country.

Introductory activity 4



In a senior five history class, students are discussing the history of Rwanda. During the discussion, one student named Aline asks why many Rwandans lived as refugees in neighbouring countries for many years after independence. Another student, Eric, explains that these refugees wished to return to their homeland but were not allowed to come back. He adds that in 1990 a liberation war started when some of these refugees organized themselves and fought to claim their right to return home and to bring political change in Rwanda. Their teacher then tells the class that the war lasted several years and greatly influenced Rwanda's political, social, and economic situation. According to you, what problem did many Rwandan refugees face before the liberation war began? What reasons mentioned in the scenario might have contributed to the outbreak of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda? What effects do you think such a war could have on a country and its people?

Introduction

This unit helps you understand the history of the **1990–1994 Liberation War in Rwanda** and why it is important in shaping the country today. History allows us to learn from past events and understand the struggles and efforts that contributed to building the Rwanda we live in today. By studying this unit, you will learn about the **causes that led to the liberation war, the major events that took place during the conflict, and the consequences it had on the country and its people.**

Through this unit, you will also develop the ability to **analyse historical events, examine their impacts, and evaluate their significance in the development of Rwanda.** Understanding the liberation struggle will help you appreciate the values of **patriotism, unity, resilience, and responsibility** in nation building. This knowledge will encourage you to respect your country's history and inspire you to become a **responsible citizen who contributes to peace, development, and national unity in Rwanda.**

4.1. The Liberation War in Rwanda (1990– 1994)

4.1.1. Causes of Liberation war

Learning activity 4.1



Read the text below and answer questions on it.

By 1990, Rwanda faced deep political and social tensions. Many refugees, especially Tutsi, had lived in exile since 1959 in countries like Uganda and were denied return.

The government of Juvénal Habyarimana maintained a one-party system under the MRND, limiting participation. Economic problems, including falling coffee prices and unemployment, increased dissatisfaction.

Refugees formed the Rwandan Patriotic Front to demand their rights. Peaceful solutions failed due to government resistance. In October 1990, the RPF launched an armed struggle, beginning the liberation war.

Questions

1. Explain the key political and social conditions in Rwanda that contributed to the outbreak of the 1990 Liberation War.
2. Describe how the refugee issue influenced the decision to form the Rwandan Patriotic Front.
3. "Inclusive governance is essential for national stability." Discuss this statement with reference to pre-1990 Rwanda.

As a result of the policy of denying Banyarwanda in Diaspora their rights to return home, a civil war broke out in 1990 between the Rwandese Patriotic Army (RPA) and the Forces d'Armee Rwandaise (FAR). This was caused by long term causes and immediate causes as follows:

The long exile

The first group of refugees were registered in 1959 after the unrest marked by violence and massacres against the UNAR members, mainly Tutsi, committed by PARMEHUTU with assistance from Belgian administration. The resistance, which was organized by *refugees* to return home, was in vain and the refugees were desperate to recover their dignity as Rwandans. The poor conditions of living such as lack of employment and good education in host countries, made them think of a strategy to return home. Groups started to form around the themes of return and self-help.

Among the institutions set up to address the challenges of education were the Rwandese Refugees Welfare Foundation (RRWF) in Uganda and College Saint Albert in Kivu and Bujumbura (initiative of refugees themselves). Later these institutions provided a large number of leaders to political movements like the Rwandese Alliance of National Unity (RANU), which was started in Nairobi in June 1979, and RPF-Inkotanyi in 1987.

RANU had many objectives. It aimed at fighting against ethnic divisions and the ideology of divisionism by the Kigali regime. It also sought to fight against grabbing Rwanda's riches by a small group of people. The other objective was to sensitise Rwandans about their rights. RANU wanted to find an appropriate solution to the refugees problems and to fight the fascist and dictatorial regime of Kigali. The strategy consisted of uniting all Rwandan intellectuals inside the country and in the diaspora in order to restore national unity.

The refusal to allow Rwandan refugees to return home

In June 1986, the Central Committee of MRND examined the problem of Rwandan refugees scattered around the world, especially in the neighbouring countries such as Burundi, Uganda Kenya, Tanzania and Zaire (now DRC).

Unfortunately, the Central Committee of MRND resolved that Rwandan refugees could not massively return into the country. The committee strongly advocated that refugees should find a way of integrating themselves into their respective countries of asylum.

The argument was that the country was overpopulated and incapable of receiving and accommodating her own people. **Habyarimana himself declared that Rwanda was like a glass full of water to which one could not add a drop.** He added that “a child of a refugee should not be called a refugee” and so he started negotiations in February 1989.

According to the Habyarimana regime, Rwandan refugees were declared refugees who were to remain wherever they were and earning their living. They were not supposed to dream of returning to home.

“Ethnic” and regional division

Both the First and the Second Republics institutionalised “ethnic” labels (Hutu, Tutsi, Twa) in identity cards and the quota system (“ethnic” and regional equilibrium) in administration, schools, the army, etc.

During the First Republic, power was in the hands of a few people from some Communes of Gitarama and again a few people from some parts of the former Ruhengeri and Gisenyi Prefectures during the Second Republic. Both Republics were characterised by identity ideology.

The two regimes reinforced the conflict between Nduga people in the central and Southern part of the country and Rukiga people in the Northern and Western part of the country by monopolising and excluding many parts of the country. During these regimes, hatred against Tutsi worsened.

Every political crisis was blamed on Tutsi who were treated as **scapegoats**. This case was raised when *Inyenzi* attacked Rwanda in 1963 and later before the 1973 Habyarimana’s Coup d’Etat.

Intimidation and killing of opposition politicians

The regime of Juvénal Habyarimana did not tolerate any opposition. Any person who tried to oppose him suffered long prison terms. Political assassinations were frequent as well. For instance, the murder of the former Chief Editor of Kinyamateka newspaper, Father Sylvio Sindambiwe and Nyiramutarambirwa Felicula, a member of Parliament.

Increasing dictatorship in Rwanda

During the Second Republic, only one political Party, MRND, was allowed as it was stipulated by the 1978 Constitution. All the powers were concentrated in the hands of a small group, members of the President’s family and his in-laws which was called *Akazu*. No single decision could be made without prior approval and blessing of the President and his political party MRND.

Participation of Rwandans in other movements of National Liberation

Many Rwandan refugees had lost hope. They were reluctant to join any political organisation due to past failures of the earlier attempts to regain their home country, spearheaded by *Inyenzi*.

By 1979, some Rwandans, like Fred Gisa Rwigema, had participated in African struggles, especially in Mozambique. In 1982, when the Government of Uganda under President Milton Obote expelled more than 60,000 Rwandans, the Government of Rwanda refused to recognise them as Rwandans.

For them, there was no magic formula for a solution to their country's problems. The victory showed that a successful Liberation War was possible in Rwanda.

The Military option

The military option was dictated by the denial of fundamental rights and democracy by the Habyarimana regime, which was denounced by the population. Students abroad were also organising themselves to challenge the Habyarimana regime. Those on scholarships in Europe and Canada, formed organisations such as *Association Générale des Etudiants Rwandais (AGER)* and *Association des Etudiants Rwandais au Burundi (AERB)*. The refugees resented their continued exile and the indifference of the Rwanda Government towards their dangerous situation. All this made the military option inevitable for the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF).

On September 30th, 1990, the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF) with its military wing, Rwanda Patriotic Army (RPA), took a decision to attack Rwanda and assembled them near Kagitumba. On October 1st, 1990, the first attack was launched.

The reasons for the war, as summarised in the RPF programme, were: to restore national unity among Rwandans, establish true democracy eradicate racism against the Tutsi and sectarianism of the Kigali regime, poor management of State affairs, and to find a lasting solution to the question of refugees to which the Rwandan government had turned a deaf ear among others.

Application activity 4.1



By 1990, Rwanda was experiencing deep political and social tensions rooted in its history since 1959. Thousands of Rwandans, especially Tutsi, had lived in exile in neighbouring countries such as Uganda and were denied the right to return home despite repeated appeals. Internally, the government of Juvénal Habyarimana maintained a one-party system under the MRND, limiting political participation and excluding opposition voices. At the same time, economic difficulties and social inequalities increased dissatisfaction among the population. As peaceful efforts to resolve these issues failed, Rwandan refugees organized themselves under the Rwandan Patriotic Front to demand their rights, including return, equality, and political inclusion. In October 1990, the RPF launched an armed struggle, marking the beginning of the liberation war. As a young Rwandan growing up today, do you think the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda was necessary? If yes, justify your answer.

4.2 The course of the Liberation War

Learning activity 4.2



1. Outline the main stages in the course of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda.
2. Identify the major consequences of the liberation war on the political and social structure of the country.
3. "Reconciliation is more important than victory after conflict." Discuss this statement in relation to post-war Rwanda.
4. Assess the importance of unity and good governance in preventing future conflicts.

The following were the major steps of the Liberation War:

- On October 1st, 1990, the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF) and its armed wing (RPA) declared the war of liberation that lasted almost four years. The first attack was in Umutara, but was not successful because of the death of Major General Fred Gisa Rwigema. The RPA was pushed from Umutara after which they changed tactics by launching a guerrilla warfare in the Northern region.
- On January 23rd, 1991, they captured Ruhengeri town and liberated the political prisoners who had been jailed in Ruhengeri prison. Among them, there were: Theoneste Lizinde, Biseruka and Brother Jean Damascène Ndayambaje.
- On March 29th, 1991, the first negotiations between the RPF and the government of Rwanda started at N'sélé in the Democratic Republic of Congo (DRC). Other meetings, had been held in Arusha, G'badolité, and Mwanza.
- Regarding the internal political evolution, a coalition was formed on March 14th, 1992 by the main opposition political Parties. It was called *Forces Démocratiques pour le Changement* (Democratic Forces for Change). Its aim was to negotiate peace with RPF.
- On July 12th, 1992, a ceasefire was negotiated and signed in the Arusha Peace Agreement between the RPF and the Habyarimana Government. An Organisation of African Unity force known as ' *Groupe d'Observateurs Militaires Neutres* ' (GOMN) was to observe the ceasefire.
- On November 15th, 1992, Habyarimana **declared the negotiations between the government and RPF null and void**. According to him **the ceasefire was a mere piece of paper—rubbish**—and thanked the Interahamwe killer, militia of his MRND Party for the massacres they had committed, especially in the northern part of the country. This growing insecurity was one of the ways used by the Habyarimana regime to block the implementation of the Arusha Peace Agreement.
- On February 8th, 1993, in response to massacres, the RPF launched an offensive that resulted in the capture of a large part of the country, especially in the Northern region. The RPF were approaching the gates of Kigali. But due to international pressure to resume negotiations, the RPF returned to its former positions around Kinyihira. On the side of Government, troops had to remain in the new positions. The area between the two armies was declared a demilitarised zone.

- On August 4th,1993, the Arusha Agreement was signed. It was a political compromise for power sharing between the Government, Internal opposition and the RPF, but the Broad-based Transitional Government failed to take off because Habyarimana refused to swear in the new Government and Parliament of which RPF was to be part.
- In December 1993, a United Nations Intervention Force arrived. It was a United Nations Peacekeeping Force known as United Nations Mission for Rwanda (UNAMIR). Its mission was to supervise the implementation of the Arusha agreement of August 4th, 1993.
- On December 28th,1993, 600 soldiers of the Third battalion of the RPF arrived at the Conseil National de Développement (CND) to ensure the security of the RPF future Ministers and Members of Parliament in the new broad-based transition Government.
- On January 5th,1994, President Habyarimana was sworn in as President in accordance with the Arusha Agreement but blocked the swearing in of other members of the Broad-based Transition Government.
- From April 7th,1994, the country was ignited in several weeks of intense and systematic genocidal massacres, in which over one million Tutsi perished. It was the Rwanda Patriotic Front that stopped genocide.
- On July 19th,1994 the Government of National Unity was formed.

4.2.1.The effects of the Liberation War

The Liberation War was launched on the 1st October 1990 by RPF- Inkotanyi and its armed wing the Rwandese Patriotic Army (RPA) It ended on July 4th,1994 with the fall of Kigali and Butare. It had the following effects:

Death of Major General Fred Rwigema

The first effect was the death of Major General Fred Gisa Rwigema the Chairman of RPF and the supreme commander of RPA. This death was a great loss for RPF.

Death of other Rwandans

Many soldiers were killed on both sides and others were wounded. There was also the massacre of Abagogwe from 1991 to 1993 by Habyarimana regime in retaliation for RPA attack. Similar killings were carried out in Kibirira, Bugesera, Kibuye, Murambi and in Umutara.

Displacement, loss of property and psychological effects

There was displacement of people from their properties, trauma, and destruction of properties.

Reaction of Rwandans

For those in exile, they felt time had come to return home and massively joined the RPF and the struggle as the war progressed. Mobilisation to support the war effort was deepened in the region, and recruitment into the RPF was intensified.

A lot of money, medicine, food, and clothes were mobilised in support of the war.

Inside Rwanda, people reacted differently. Some people, mainly sympathisers of the RPF who had been treated as second-class citizens, felt that the time had come for their liberation and therefore joined the struggle from neighbouring countries. Others, however, were worried about the reaction of the Habyarimana regime.

Call by the Government of Rwanda for support

Its allies supported the Government of Rwanda. Habyarimana argued that he had been invaded by neighbouring Anglophone Uganda and mobilised his closest allies to assist him militarily and diplomatically. Consequently, France, Belgium and the then Zaire (now DRC) under Mobutu Sese Seko sent troops.

Increasing of pressure for democratisation

While the Habyarimana regime was facing the armed struggle with RPF-Inkotanyi on the local fronts, on the international level, Habyarimana was facing pressure to democratise Rwanda (**La Baule summit**). The regime also faced internal opposition. In June 1991, Habyarimana was forced to accept the multiparty system by signing a new Constitution.

Chronology of Rwanda's democratisation process

- a) In June 1990, at the La Baule **Summit** in France President François Mitterrand announced that French aid would depend on democratisation.
- b) On July 5th, 1990, at the MRND Congress, President Habyarimana declared that the country was adopting the multiparty system.
- c) September 1st, 1990, there was a declaration by thirty-three intellectuals claiming the establishment of multi-partism in Rwanda.
- d) On September 21st, 1990, President Habyarimana established a commission with the task of studying how multi-partism could be established in Rwanda. This commission ended its work and submitted its report in January 1991. Meanwhile, on November 11th, 1990, President Habyarimana allowed multi-partism and declared the amendment of the Rwandan constitution. In June 1991, the *Conseil National de Développement* (CND) approved the new Constitution. The new Constitution banned political Parties based on ethnicity or regional affiliation, the position of Prime ministership, and limited the executive, judicial and legislative branches of Government.
- e) Beginning July 1991, new political Parties were legally registered.

These included :

- Parti Socialiste Démocratique (PSD),
- Parti Libéral (PL),
- Mouvement Démocratique Républicain (MDR),
- Parti Socialiste Rwandais (PSR),
- Union Démocratique du Peuple Rwandais (UDPR),
- Parti Ecologiste (PECO),

- Parti pour la Démocratie Islamique (PDI).

The signing of Arusha Peace Agreement

The Liberation War led to the signing of Arusha Peace Agreement on August 4th, 1993 whose purpose was to obtain a lasting peace. Both parties, the RPF-Inkotanyi and the Rwanda Government agreed to share power. However, the Hutu extremists, who felt out of the process and threatened by the results, were not satisfied and started to organise a genocide against the Tutsi and killing of moderate Hutu.

Decline of the economy

Because of the war and the pressure on the Habyarimana regime, Rwanda's economy collapsed. Coffee, which was the main source of foreign currency, was not produced. Thus, the country witnessed a hard economic situation. Besides, foreign aid stopped and the Rwandan franc lost its value. The main sectors of the economic collapsed. People became poor and discontented.

Because of the war, the Northern corridor was closed and this led to the stoppage of commercial exchange with Uganda. Moreover, the war increased the military expenditure of the government and this made the country more and more impoverished.

Displacement of many people

More than one million Rwandans were displaced inside the country. These were in great need of shelter, food and other basic needs.

Among the positive effects of the Liberation War, the following deserve to be mentioned:

- There is promotion of National unity. Thanks to the Liberation War, many achievements were made in the national unity, justice, peace and security, and ending of segregation.
- Corruption, favouritism, embezzlement are being fought.
- All reasons for fleeing the country were eliminated and the refugees are encouraged to return home.
- The war helped to establish a true democracy. The people of Rwanda have the right to choose their leaders at all levels.
- The war contributed to the improvement of the image of the country. Rwandans are well known all over the world as a good example of reconciliation, people living together on the same land, victims and criminals, after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- The country promoted international relations based on mutual respect, cooperation and mutual economic exchange. This helped the country to reduce economic and political dependence on foreign countries.

Application activity 4.2



1. Describe the people's reactions toward the 1990-1994 the Liberation War
2. Describe the life of a refugee and try to find out his/her feelings
3. Show how the First and Second Republic imposed difficult conditions for individual repatriation of the Rwandan refugees.
4. To what extent did the "ethnic" and regional divisions contribute to the outbreak of the Liberation War?
5. On one page, explain the consequences of the 1990-1994 Liberation War Rwanda.

End of unit assessment 4



A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Give four reasons for the fall of the First Republic.
2. Name four ways used by Kayibanda to eliminate opposition.
3. What political system did Rwandans use before independence?

B. Skills

1. Justify the factors supporting the attack of RPF Inkotanyi on October 1, 1990.
2. Habyarimana learnt nothing and forgot nothing from Kayibanda. Discuss.

C. Attitudes and Values

1. Choose three main causes of the Liberation War and explain why they are important to you.
2. What lessons on unity, patriotism, and responsibility can Rwandans learn from the Liberation War (1990–1994), and how can you apply these lessons in your daily life

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UNIT 5

THE 1994 GENOCIDE PERPETRATED AGAINST THE TUTSI



Key Unit Competence:

Explain the causes, course and the consequences of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi with a commitment to Never Again.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Understand the concept, characteristics, and dynamics of genocide by explaining its meaning, distinguishing it from other mass crimes, and describing its stages.
- Analyse the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi by examining its causes, ideological origins, key actors, and the role of the RPF/RPA in stopping the genocide, as well as its consequences.
- Appreciate the historical significance of genocide memory and preservation by explaining the structure, organisation, maintenance, and importance of genocide memorial sites.

Skills

2

- Critically analyse the concept and dynamics of genocide by examining its meaning, distinguishing it from other mass crimes, and assessing its stages.
- Analyse the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi by examining its causes, ideological origins, key actors, and the role of the RPF/RPA in stopping the genocide, as well as its consequences.
- Appreciate the historical significance of genocide memory and preservation by explaining the structure, organization, maintenance, and importance of genocide memorial sites.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Develop an appreciation of the concept and nature of genocide by recognizing its meaning, acknowledging its stages, and distinguishing it from other mass crimes.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Demonstrate informed judgment on the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi by appreciating its ideological causes, evaluating its planning and execution, and judging the roles of the main actors involved.
- Value the response, consequences, and memory of the genocide by appreciating the role of the RPF/RPA in stopping the genocide, valuing its consequences, and recognizing the importance of genocide memorial sites in preserving history.

Introductory activity 5



Imagine you are living in a peaceful community where people share the same markets, schools, and celebrations. Over time, you begin to hear messages on the radio and from leaders that divide people into groups, labelling some as “enemies” or “less important.” Gradually, discrimination increases, some people lose their rights, are excluded from jobs, and face violence. One day, violence escalates rapidly. Organized groups begin targeting specific people. Neighbours turn against neighbours. However, in the midst of this tragedy, a group rises to stop the violence and restore peace. After the events, survivors struggle to rebuild their lives, and memorial sites are created to preserve the memory and teach future generations.

Questions.

1. What signs in the story suggest that a genocide could be developing?
2. How is this situation different from other forms of violence or conflict you know?
3. Why is it important to stop such acts, and who should take responsibility?
4. What might be the effects of such events on survivors and the country?
5. Why do you think societies build memorial sites after such tragedies?

Introduction

This unit aims to empower students with the critical thinking skills necessary to identify, deconstruct, and combat the persistent ideologies that led to the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. It aims also to build a generation that is resilient against misinformation, capable of defending historical truth, and committed to the principle of “*Never Again*” through an informed understanding of how hate is institutionalized and later denied.

The unit covers the historical arc of the 1994 genocide perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda from its origins to its execution.

5.1 Comparative analysis of Genocide and Other mass crimes

Learning activity 5.1



1. What is the origin of the term genocide, and what do the words *genos* and *caedere* mean?
2. How can the definition of genocide help international organisation prevent such crimes?
3. Evaluate the role of the international community in enforcing the Genocide Convention.
4. Discuss the relevance of Raphael Lemkin's concept of genocide in today's world.

The term "*genocide*" derives from two words: A Greek word '*genos*' meaning origin or species, and a Latin verb '*caedere*', meaning to kill. It was first, used by Raphael Lemkin, a Polish born American lawyer who taught law at the University of Yale in the 1940s. He used this term '*genocide*' uniquely to make it different from other crimes of mass killings. Generally, it is the mass extermination of a whole group of people, an attempt to wipe them out of existence.

Scientifically and legally, the definition of the term «Genocide» on the international level, adopted by the UN Convention, has remained substantially the same since it was initially formulated on 9th December 1948 in article 2 of the Convention on the Prevention and Punishment of the Crime of Genocide defines "*genocide*" as any of the following acts committed with intent to destroy, in whole or in part a national, ethnical, racial or religious group, these acts were followed by a series of characteristics of the crime of genocide, representing serious violations of the right to life and the physical or mental integrity of members of the group such as:

- Killing members of the group;
- Causing serious bodily or mental harm to members of the group;
- Deliberately inflicting on the group conditions of life calculated to bring about its physical destruction in whole or in part;
- Imposing measures intended to prevent births with the group;
- Forcibly transferring of the group to another group.

The Convention states that it is not just the acts of genocide themselves that are punishable, but also "*conspiracy to commit genocide*," "*direct and public incitement to commit genocide*," the "*attempt to commit genocide*" and "*complicity in genocide*." It is the specific intention to destroy an identified group, either "*in whole or in part*", that distinguishes the crime of genocide from a crime against humanity.

The Convention also states that any country or state that endorsed the convention has the rights and legal authority to request any other state that ratified the convention to prevent against this crime of genocide.

Mass atrocities or other crimes against humanity: According to international law and Rwandan organic law no 01/2012/OL of 02/05/2012 instituting the penal code article 120, define crimes against humanity as “any of the following acts when committed as part of a widespread or systematic attack directed against any civilian population because of its national, political, ethnic imprisonment in violation of law, torture, rape or any other form of sexual violence, persecution, enforced disappearance of persons, the crime of apartheid, other inhuman acts of a similar character.”

In contrast with genocide, a crime against humanity do not need to target a specific group. Instead, the victim of the attack can be any civilian population, regardless of his/her affiliation or identity. Another important distinction is that in the case of crime against humanity, it is not necessary to prove that there is an overall specific intent. It is sufficient to be a simple intent to commit any of the acts aforementioned.

Mass atrocities have been witnessed in China, Cambodia, Tibet, Argentina, El Salvador, Chile, Guatemala, Colombia, Bosnia and Sudan (Darfur) mass killing began when the Sudan Liberation Movement (SLM) and the justice and Equality (JEM) rebels took up arms in defense of the non-Arab population in Darfur who were the target of the Arab-led forces from Sudan however, they are not forms of genocide. The government responded with a heavy hand and organized ethnic cleansing against the non-Arab population in Darfur. Many people lost their lives. The government got support from a local militia, Janjaweed.

Genocide is the mass extermination of a whole group of people, an attempt to wipe them out of existence. It is the specific intention to destroy an identified group, either “in whole or in part”, that distinguishes the crime of genocide from a crime against humanity. Thus, these acts were perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda in 1994. This is why it is called the Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda. They were also perpetrated against the Jews by the Nazi (Holocaust/Shoah) in Germany.

Genocide is an international crime. For the Genocide to happen, it must be supported by the government. The government deliberates intentionally on eliminating part of its citizens and ensures that the plan is successfully executed.

The government intending to commit genocide puts in place effective plans and measures to achieve the crime. The victims are killed not because of the crime they have committed, but because of belonging to a certain group of people meant to be eliminated or unwanted.

Genocide is distinguished from other mass crimes such as crimes against humanity and war crimes.

- **Mass crime:** is an act or crime committed against a large number of people within a short or long period of time during war or any other kind of conflicts by individuals, terrorists, groups of people, armed men and states. Mass crimes include genocide, war crimes and crimes against humanity.
- **War crimes:** According to the statute that established the International Criminal Court, war crimes are defined as armed hostility (conflict) and military operations between societies, nations or states. An example of war is the Second World War of 1939 -1945. Then, War crimes refer to criminal acts (violation of laws) during the war. The people who do that are referred to as criminals of war.

Examples of war crimes include:

• Killing civilians • Killing hostages • Killing spies and prisoners • Deliberately destroying property	• Killing surrendered military • Torture • Rape • Involving children in the war (child soldier)
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Crimes against humanity: According to the Rome Statute definition offers the most expansive list of specific criminal acts that may constitute crimes against humanity to date. In Article 7 of the treaty stated that: For the purpose of this Statute, "crime against humanity" means any of the following acts when committed as part of a widespread or systematic attack directed against any civilian population, violation of common human rights and values with knowledge of the attack.

Example of crimes against humanity:

• Murder • Expulsion (to force someone out) • Slavery • Forced migration of people • Confiscation of property • Forced disappearance • Apartheid (racial segregation)	• Forced labour • Torture • Sexual slavery • Forced prostitution • Forced pregnancy • Forced sterilization.
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Difference between genocide and other mass crimes.

- Genocide has the intention to completely or partly destroy a certain group of people while other crimes against humanity do not require this specific intent to destroy one group
- Crimes against humanity are essentially about the violation of common human rights and values while genocide involves violation and killings.
- War crimes and crimes against humanity focus on killing a large number of individuals while genocide focus on eliminating a group
- Other mass crime does not consider dehumanization while genocide consider it
- Other mass crimes may not be planned by the government while genocide is planned by the government
- Some crimes against humanity prepare the genocide
- Genocide occurs in various stages while other mass crimes do not involve different stages.

Application activity 5.1



1. The 1948 Genocide Convention defines genocide as acts committed with the 'intent to destroy' a group. Explain why is it harder to prove this 'intent' than it is to prove that people were simply killed?
2. Genocide specifically protects national, ethnic, racial, or religious groups. If a government targets a political group for extermination, does it legally count as genocide? Why or why not? Explain your answer.
3. Explain why the 1994 tragedy is specifically called the 'Genocide against the Tutsi and how using vague terms like 'the Rwandan genocide or civil war' contribute to the ideology of denial
4. Genocide is often called 'the crime of crimes. Explain how does this title makes more important than other crimes, or it just means it has a more specific and dangerous motivation?
5. If we cannot agree on the definition of genocide, explain how that affects the international community's duty to intervene and prevent it from happening again.

Genocide never takes place suddenly. It is a culmination of a long process that usually takes place in distinct steps or stages. Various scholars have explained how genocide develops.

Some of them include Gregory H. Stanton and Ervin Staub who have conceptualized the development of genocide as a progression. They have each provided a continuum of steps through which genocide develops. These are explained according to Gregory H. Stanton in the text below:

Classification:

This is a primary method of dividing society and creating a power struggle between groups. Distinguishing people into 'us' and 'them' by race, identity, religion or nationality etc. In Rwanda, these identification cards were later used to distinguish Tutsi from Hutu in the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

Symbolisation

This involves giving names or symbols to classify the victim group to distinguish them by religion, race, ethnicity or other identifying factors may become mandated information for use by the government.

Discrimination

The ruling class, caste, or ethnic group excludes "inferior" groups from full rights. Laws are passed segregating and separating disfavoured groups in housing, schools, transportation, hotels, and establishments, as well as laws against intermarriage.

Usually takes a legal, cultural, custom, or political form used by the perpetrator group. They use power and authority to deny the rights of the victim group.

Dehumanisation

The perpetrator group treats the victim group as second class citizens. Dehumanisation makes the victim group easily vulnerable to the dominant group. One group denies the humanity of another group, and makes the victim group seem subhuman. Words such as "vermin" and "cockroaches" (in German and Rwanda) are used to define the "other", as well as comparisons to disease, animals, or beasts.

Organisation

Genocide is a group crime, so it must be organised. The state usually organizes arms and financially supports the groups that conduct the genocidal massacres. Often Militias are organized to carry out the genocide to provide deniability to the State. The government and powerful citizens or hate groups provide the necessary arms, equipment, and instructions to perpetrate genocide. Special army units or militias are usually trained and supplied with arms in readiness to carry out the nefarious activities

Polarisation

Efforts are made by the dominant group to draw a sharp wedge between them and the victim group. Hate groups spread propaganda to reinforce prejudice and hatred between the two groups. Extremists drive the groups apart. Hate groups broadcast and print polarising propaganda. Laws are passed that forbid intermarriage or social interaction.

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Preparation

Meetings are held by perpetrators and plans are drafted for the impending genocide. Military plans and orders are drafted, and weapons are stockpiled and distributed. Sometimes former territories are annexed or invaded, and divisive treaties with neighbouring States are developed. This is done to ensure that everything takes place. Adequate preparations that entail identification of victims and tools for use are made.

Persecution

Members of victim groups are forced to wear identifying symbols. Segregation based on ethnic or religious identity, segregation into ghettos is imposed; victims are forced into concentration camps. Victims also deported to famine-struck regions for starvation. This stage begins with identification and separation of victims due to differences between them and the perpetrators. Death lists are dressed.

Extermination

The method of killing because the perpetrators do not believe the victims to be truly human. Often the genocide results in revenge killings creating a downward spiral of death. Killing of all the members of the victim group begins at this stage. With time, the killings take on genocidal proportions.

Denial

Denial is the surest indicator of further genocidal massacres. Perpetrators go to great lengths to conceal their acts and deny having committed any crime. The perpetrators and their sympathizers begin using the forms of denial to defend their actions.

Destruction of evidence, victim blaming and refusal to relinquish power will ensue the five forms of denial: deny the evidence, attack the truth tellers, deny genocide intent, blame the victims and deny that the facts fit the legal definition of genocide. Violence usually evolves from one stage to another.

In most situations, limited discrimination transforms into progressive discrimination, persecution and violence against victimized groups. Occurrence of intense violence and discrimination leads to a higher chance of it progressing to mass killings or genocide.

Lesser acts of discrimination and violence against the victim group, change and transform the perpetrator group negatively. Actions against the victim group are based on devaluing them. They are seen as less human hence the need to be removed from the perpetrators' 'world'. All efforts by the perpetrator group are geared towards committing violence against them.

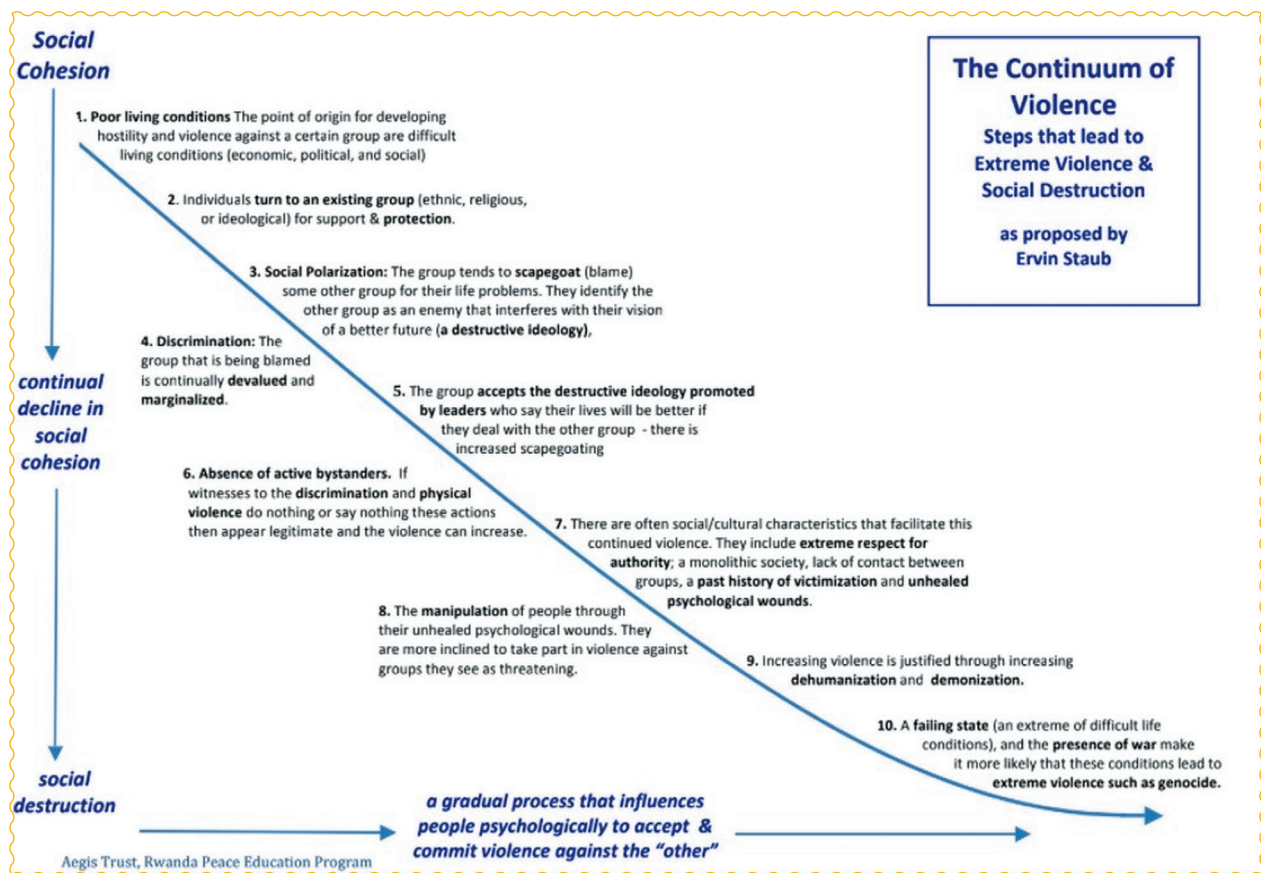
Consequently, there is a bad change in the behaviour of the perpetrator group due to these efforts. Institutions are also changed or where possible, new ones are created to help further the goals of the perpetrator group.

The attitude of by-standers and the rest of the population undergo change too, for the worse. The victim group is then subjected to high level of intense violence, which culminates into genocide.

The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was carefully planned and executed to annihilate Rwandan Tutsi. It was the fastest and cruellest genocide ever recorded in human history.

❖ The 10 stages of genocide according to Ervin Staub

On other hand, Ervin Staub, a Hungarian-born American psychologist and professor at the University of Massachusetts known for his research on the roots of mass violence, genocide, and altruism, in his book the roots of evil, explains how a normal person becomes a killer. As a psychologist, his researches explain how the politicians prepare people to become killers.



According to Ervin Staub explain that at the beginning, people are living in harmony and the social cohesion is very high. When the poor living conditions arrive and when the politicians are unable to deal with the situation, people are divided (us & them) for support and protection.

Hence the groups are created, one group begin to blame another, as scapegoat of the existing life problems. This group begins to be devaluated and marginalized and this sometimes led to the violences. Instead of looking for solutions, the leaders promote destructive ideology telling one group that the life will be better if they deal with another group. This increases the violence against the scapegoat group, sometime, minority. The situation becomes worse when the leaders continue to tell to the members of group the fake history of their victimisation.

As the crisis continues, the members of scapegoating group are dehumanized and demonized and this is very dangerous, A group of people prepared and trained to become killers, when the time for genocide comes, they take part in killing members of another group as if they were killing animals, after having spent a long time calling them that.

At the same time, the group who are meant to be killed have already accepted death. They feel that they no longer have the right to live. Instead, the only right they think they have is how they will be killed, hoping for a less painful way compared to others. For example, during the genocide against the Tutsi in 1994, some people even gave money so that they could be shot instead of being killed with machetes.

Application activity 5.2



1. Explain how the Classification ('us vs. them') turn into dehumanization ? Identify the 'trigger' words or social changes that signal this shift."
2. In the stage of symbolization symbols are often harmless (like a flag). Explain how these symbols become 'deadly' when combined with Ideology and provide an example from the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Compare the stage of organization with Preparation and explain how does a government move from simply <planning> to actively <arming> a population? What are the visible signs of this shift?»
4. Analyze the role of the RTLM radio station during the polarization stage. If you were a journalist at the time, what specific counter-messages could have been used to disrupt the <hate> narrative?
5. Some scholars argue that these stages do not always happen in a linear order (1 to 10). Argue for or against this: Can a genocide reach the Extermination stage if it skips Dehumanization? Explain your answer.
6. Evaluate the transition from polarization to Persecution. At what moment does an ordinary citizen lose their 'neutrality' and become a bystander or a perpetrator? Taking "Abarinzi b'igihango" as an example, explain how can 'Critical Thinking' act as a shield at this exact moment?"

5.2. Causes, origins and ideological dimensions of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 5.3



1. Explain why it is necessary for a genocidal regime to change the language (e.g: using "cockroaches" instead of "neighbors") before the killing begins.
2. Analyze how the "Hutu Ten Commandments" aimed to break the social fabric of Rwandan villages.
3. The "Enemy" Definition: In this ideology, was the "enemy" defined by what they did (actions) or who they were (identity)? Evaluate how that distinction is vital for a genocide.
4. Explain how the organizers of the genocide convinced ordinary people that they were the ones under threat, making the genocide seem like «self-defense».
5. What were the major reasons behind the outbreak of the 1994 Genocide perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda?

Although it may seem difficult to identify the root causes of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda, this is largely because, historically, Rwandans were united and shared key elements of national cohesion such as a common king, clans, language, values, religion, culture, and a shared country. However, over time, several factors emerged that gradually undermined this unity among the Banyarwanda and ultimately contributed to divisions that led to the genocide.

- **The loss of cultural identity**

The influence of colonial education is responsible for the derision and diminution of the Rwandan culture. The colonial education made Rwandans adopt Western culture at the expense of their own. They were conditioned to regard his traditional as archaic and barbaric. During the colonial period, the colonial masters deliberately applied a policy of "divide and rule". The colonialists took the Tutsi and Hutu as two distinct "groups" instead of looking them as two social categories. The loss of their common cultural identity and the policy of divide and rule resulted in the first pogroms and massacres of 1959 and to the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

The hatred culture of Rwandans vis-à-vis other Rwandans under the two Republics Rooted from colonial period and because of bad leadership under the First and the Second Republics, the hatred culture was promoted and supported by divisionism worsened by regionalism and nepotism. This undermined the national unity among the Rwandans. Hatred indicators showed through vilification and name calling that Rwandans were accustomed to using while addressing each other. Such names like "snake, enemy, malicious, fake, false, robber..." All that fuelled hatred against each other. Institutionalization of untruthfulness and the culture of impunity Under the two Republics, the crimes were committed with the beliefs that the culprits will never be apprehended. Indeed, some people who committed big and atrocious crimes were rewarded by being promoted to important administrative positions. Corruption,

favoritism, cheating, embezzlement and diversion of public funds, suspicion and mistrust were common.

- **Persecution and impunity**

During the colonial period, the colonizers had favored a group of 'Tutsi elites' which was associated to colonial power as auxiliaries. When their alliance broke up in the end of 1950s, the colonizers changed alliance from supporting the Tutsi elites in power because some elite members of UNAR spearheaded by King Mutara III Rudahigwa were advocating for immediate independence that provoked a break up with the Tutsi.

This change is the origin of the political and violence which happened since November 1959 characterized by mass killings of the Tutsi and members of UNAR party. Their houses were burned and destroyed systematically.

The same scenarios of mass killing targeting Tutsi repeated in 1963/64, 1973 and in 1990-1994 up to the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. They were scapegoats of the failure of the government.

The authors of such massacres were never punished for the crimes committed. On the contrary, many of them were promoted to positions of responsibility. On the side of international community, it always considered the respective governments of Rwanda as the true representatives of the population. It totally ignored the crimes committed and the injustices those governments were responsible for.

- **Genocidal ideology in postindependence Rwanda**

After regaining independence on 1/7/1962 until July 1994, the PARMEHUTU political party leadership (led by Kayibanda and MNRD led by Juvenal Habyarimana) encouraged Hutu hatred and divisionism towards the Tutsi. They denied them basic human rights including right to their country, education, job opportunities, etc.

The genocidal ideology identified the two antagonist groups like "Us" and "Them" or "You" and after proceeded by the nomination or qualification of those two groups. The genocidal ideology in Rwanda is based on ideas, attitude and practices of discrimination and hatred against the Tutsi. It has been implemented and disseminated by the political leaders since 1959. The Tutsi most important manifestation was persecution, killing, public hatred messages, loss of property, exclusion from political and administrative systems, discrimination in many sectors like education, forced exile, physical and psychological violence, etc.

- **Persecution and impunity**

Since independence, the Tutsi have been identified as "enemies" of the Hutu. In 1960's, the first president of the Republic, Grégoire Kayibanda, used the hatred speeches to qualify the danger of the Tutsi to the Hutu due to the attacks of Inyenzi (groups of refugees) from outside of Rwanda. From 1990 with the attack of Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF-Inkotanyi), the ideological speeches pointed out again the "double treat presented by the Tutsi (of internal and of external)".

Between 1990 and 1994, the Tutsi were qualified as the "enemy" "outsiders" and "suspected" complots. From those qualifications and propaganda, many Newspapers and Radios, called upon all Hutu, "to kill all Tutsi before they were killed".

Besides the presentation of the threats against the Tutsi, another factor was the dehumanization or qualification of enemy not as humankind but as an animal like rats, snakes or cockroaches. The aim was to incite public reactions against the Tutsi who were considered as a "common enemy".

This shows that genocide crime before being an act of physical destruction of the enemy, the genocidal ideology begins by developing ideas of exterminating the 'group enemy'.

- **Discriminatory leadership**

Under the two Republics (1962-1994), social inequality was maintained and encouraged by exclusion, favoritism and regionalism. It was under the Second Republic that the policy of "division, exclusion" and regionalism balance" was reinforced. The social promotion was not based on meritocracy; a choice that has generated negative effects on the development of the country and the relationship among Rwandans.

The prefectures of Gisenyi and Ruhengeri monopolized more positions of responsibility in the public administration. The "quotas system" was adopted in 1970's as a solution to social injustice. However, this policy led to the exclusion and discrimination of the Tutsi from schools and services.

It deprived the Tutsi the right to education and employment. Finally, the governments of the first and second republics had systematically ignored the problem of refugees who were roaming around in the neighboring countries since 1959. The reaction of the government was that the country was too overpopulated to receive more.

It was this repeated refusal that made the Rwandese refugees in the neighbouring countries to organise themselves into a politico-military structure, named Rwandese Patriotic Front (RPF –Inkotanyi) and opted return by force.

Application activity 5.3



1. Explain the major steps in planning and execution of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda.
2. To what extent is the government of Rwanda under the first and second Republics are to be blamed for planning and execution of the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda.

5.4 Planning and execution of 1994 genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 5.4



Read the following text and answer questions that are set on it.

During the 1st and 2nd Republics, Rwanda experienced increasing division among its people. Some leaders planned genocide by spreading hatred against the Tutsi through speeches and radio programs. They trained militias, distributed weapons and prepared lists of people to be exterminated.

On 7th April 1994, the long- term plan was put into action. Roadblocks were set up and killing began immediately. Militias, soldiers and some civilians participated in killings targeting Tutsi. The 1994 genocide against the Tutsi spread rapidly across the country, leading to loss of over one million innocent lives until it was stopped by RPF/RPA.

Questions

1. Mention two ways in which the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi was planned before April 1994
2. Using information from the text, explain how the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi moved from planning to execution
3. Analyse the role of propaganda in influencing people to participate in the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi
4. What lessons can be gained from this text to prevent genocide and promote unity in Rwanda?

Planning of 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

The following are the key highlights of planning the 1994 Genocide against Tutsi:

Massacres of Tutsi even before 1994

- Tutsi were massacred in 1959, in 1962, 1963, and 1966 and in 1973 Tutsi were killed again and were once again exiled in neighbouring countries as it happened in 1959.
- In 1973, other Tutsi massacres were organised by the Government of the 1st Republic using the Rwandan students forming what they called Public Salvation Committee (*Comité du Salut Public*) recruited from secondary schools and National University of Rwanda (NUR). These massacres targeted Tutsi intellectuals.
- Repeated massacres targeting Tutsi were committed between 1991 and 1994. For example, in 1991, Tutsi were killed in various Communes of former Gisenyi, Byumba, Ruhengeri, Bugesera, Kibungo, Kibuye Prefectures mentioned but a few. The night of March 4 to 5, 1992 was marked by the massacre of more than 500 Tutsi in Bugesera, and killings continued in the following years.

In general, between October 1990 and April 1994, the Rwandan genocidal Government with its armed forces and armed groups also carried out many massacres. In various parts of the country, they were organised for killings by Senior political and military officials. For example: Kibirira (October 1990) killing of Bagogwe, in Mutara and Ruhengeri (February 1991), Bugesera (March 1992), Kibuye (August 1992), Shyorongi (October 1992), Gisenyi, Ruhengeri and Kibuye (December-January 1993), Mbogo in Kigali Ngali (March 1, 1993) and many other areas around the country.

The launch of the extremist CDR Party in 1992

The extremist Party, which has proclaimed itself Coalition for the Defense of the Republic (CDR) has played a big role in genocidal propaganda, whether in its preparation, whether by calling on the Hutu to join forces in order to exterminate the Tutsi.

Creation of civilian militia.

Militias comprised of organised groups, armed individuals and army troops such as Garde *présidentielle*, Interahamwe *militias of MRND* and impuzamugambi militias of CDR. These were trained and served as a complementary force to Rwandan army to ensure that all enemies (Tutsi) were wiped out (all killed).

Distribution of weapons to fight those opposing Habyarimana's regime

In 1992, President Habyarimana ordered that strong youth (interahamwe) from MRND, should be selected and equipped with guns and trained to counter those from the opposition and those he called Inkotanyi accomplices (*ibytso*).

Foundation of newspapers and RTLM

The newspapers such as Kangura, Kamarampaka, La Médaille Nyiramacibiri, Echos des Mille Collines, Umurwanashyaka and RTLM (Radio Television Libre des Mille collines) are among the media that fanned hate propaganda and the incitement of Hutu population to commit genocide against Tutsi.

Briefly, the radio encouraged people to believe that killing Tutsi was necessary and urged listeners to take part in eliminating them, presenting violence as something normal and expected. When on RTLM, a journalist was quoted calling for the extermination of Tutsi, **"The graves are only half full. Who will help us fill them?"**

The Habyarimana Government eliminated those who were opposed to his Tutsi extermination plan

The planning of the genocide went hand in hand with the desire to silence anyone who might oppose it. Many of them were murdered, others were thrown in jail, especially journalists who revealed the truth, for example Kameya André, the editor of the newspaper *Rwanda Rushya*.

Use of a hateful language

For example, the 9th of January 1993 is a date that should never been forgotten in the History of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. On this date, in Arusha Tanzania, a part of the Arusha Peace Agreement regarding power-sharing had been signed. Col Théoneste Bagosora who was part of the talks but not convinced with the resolutions, infuriated, got out of the room saying: **"I am returning home to prepare for a 2nd apocalypse for Tutsi."**

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Identification of the enemy

The enemy to be eliminated was any Tutsi within the country. Enemies also included moderate Hutu leaders who were against genocide ideology. The Tutsi were named different names such as cockroaches and snakes.

The purchasing of machetes used during the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

In February 1994 a representative of Chillington, a manufacturing Company, which makes machetes among other things, reported that the Company sold more machetes in one month than it had sold throughout the year 1993.

Preparation and establishment of lists

As part of the conspiracy to exterminate the Tutsi, civilian and military authorities and militia prepared lists of persons to be eliminated. This was done by establishing a list of the people to kill especially the Tutsi. It also included politicians, intellectuals, businesspersons and ordinary people in Kigali and elsewhere in the country. As early as in October 1990, lists were used for arrests.

Setting up roadblocks, day and night patrols

Day and night patrols (*Amarondo*), roadblocks (*bariyeri*) were set up in different corners of the country to prevent any Tutsi attempt to escape. Every adult Rwandan male was obliged to make night patrols and to go on roadblocks. During 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, each person passing the roadblock was required to show the national identity card, which included ethnic groups and any with Tutsi cards were killed immediately by *interahamwe* and *impuzamugambi* militias.

I. Execution of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

It should be noted that no genocidal action could take place without the involvement of the Government. This is why the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was a long process, having roots in colonial period. It had been put into motion by the Governments of the 1st and 2nd Republics of Rwanda.

The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi began on 7th April 1994. Soon afterwards, there was incitement from the local media and genocidaires, soldiers of the presidential guards, Interahamwe and impuzamugambi militias. They started systematic elimination of the Tutsi and Hutu politicians in opposition. The killings started in Kigali and immediately the genocide spread across the whole country, and this is a proof that the Rwandan genocidal Government had planned the extermination of Tutsi. Within 100 days, over 1,000,000 Tutsi civilians perished.

From 7th to 11th April 1994, acts of great horror had spread throughout the entire country except in former Gitarama and Butare Prefectures. In an effort to kill politicians who did not support Habyarimana's Government and who did not support the Genocide plot, on April 07, 1994, the Prime Minister, Mrs. Agathe Uwilingiyimana, 10 Belgian UN Peacekeeping soldiers, several Ministers, opposition political leaders, business people and civil servants in Kigali City were assassinated.

Different meetings were held at the High Command of the F.A.R (Forces Armées Rwandaise) which resulted into the formation of the interim genocidal Government termed *Abatabazi* "Saviours Government" on 9th April 1994, where Dr Sindikubwabo

Theodore was nominated as the President of the Republic and Kambanda Jean as Prime Minister. Their government was composed of Ministers most of whom belonged to extremist wing of political parties that had accepted to be part of the coalition.

That Government had only one mission: to coordinate the implementation of the Genocide countrywide, to distribute arms, to mobilise people to commit Genocide and to explain what was happening to the International Community. On 12th April 1994, the Interim Government left the capital of Kigali following the advance of the RPF-Inkotanyi and settled in former Gitarama (Muhanga District) at Murambi.

On 18th April, 1994, members of the criminal regime, including Edouard Karemera, who was supposed to be the Minister of internal administration, went to the former Gitarama Prefecture to incite people to commit Genocide. On the same day, President Théodore Sindikubwabo went to former Gikongoro to hold meeting with the authorities of Gikongoro Prefecture, in order to plan how the Genocide should be carried out.

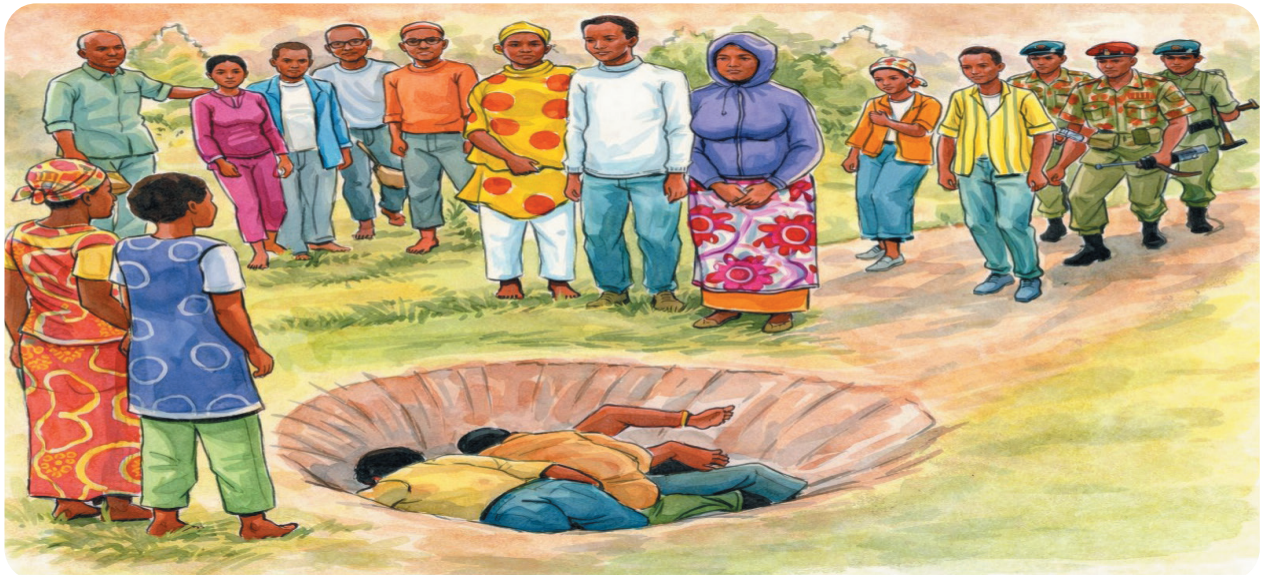
From Gikongoro, Sindikubwabo went to the Nyakizu (Butare) Commune office to encourage the killers to start the Genocide. Such acts of inciting people to carry out Genocide, were carried out in public by Sindikubwabo to the people mobilised by the communal authorities to meet with the President.

On 19th April 1994, John Kambanda went to Gitarama and incite people to commit genocide. April 21,1994, was the day when many Tutsi were killed simultaneously in the country. More than 50,000 Tutsi were killed in Murambi (Nyamagabe, Gikongoro), more than 35,000 were killed in Cyanika Catholic Parish in Nyamagabe, and more than 47,000 were killed in Kaduha Catholic Parish in Nyamagabe.

As part of extermination of the surviving Tutsi, the Government meeting of June 17, 1994, decided that the Tutsi of Bisesero, who had been fighting the killers for more than two months, should be killed as soon as possible. The execution of that massacre was speeded up as much as possible by the Kambanda Government and its soldiers. More than 2,000 surviving Tutsi in Bisesero were killed in front of French soldiers who were camping in Gishyita region, and the French did nothing to help them. And we should note that the killings took place all over Rwanda. At the beginning, the militias in small groups killed the victims in their homes and along roadblocks.

However, later on, the Tutsi began to escape and look for safe places in Public Offices, Commune offices, Hospitals, Stadiums, Schools and Churches. Even in these places, they would still attack and kill them. Generally, there were no safe places to hide.

Finally, it should be said and registered that it was the RPF which stopped the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi on 4th July 1994 everywhere they scored victory over the genocidal forces. In 2000, the Ministry of Local Government conducted a study to identify the victims of the genocide against the Tutsi and published in 2002. According to the study, the genocide against the Tutsi killed more than **1,047,017 people**.



Mass killing of Tutsi by Interahamwe

Main Actors of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda had different categories of actors: organisers, executors, and accomplices of killers.

- **Government of Rwanda under President Habyarimana:** As the main organiser, it holds the core responsibility of having neither forbidden nor punished violence against one part of its population. It provided financial, materials and moral support to the executors. It had used all means to encourage the killings through the sectarian education and government owned media.
- **Militias:** These were paramilitary groups of people formed and trained for civil defense of the country by 1990s. Groups like *Interahamwe* and *Impuzamugambi* were used to echo hatred, suspicion and division against the Tutsi as the Liberation War was on going. The propaganda recalled many differences between Hutu and Tutsi, prejudices, and other kinds of stereotypes against the Tutsi.
- **Forces of Garde présidentielle (Republican Guards):** They actively participated in the killings all over the country from the beginning of 1994 Genocide against Tutsi up to the stopping of Genocide by the RPF Inkotanyi.
- **Civil servants and the military:** These include Commune police, Prefecture and Commune civil servants as well as the army (*Forces armées Rwandaises*). They organised militias and Hutu citizens to track and kill the victims hiding in many places including hills, churches and houses.
- **Local actors:** These included businesspersons, MRND local representatives and local opinion leaders (such as teachers and entrepreneurs). They worked hand in hand with local authorities to implement Government directives and to execute the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- **Citizens:** They played the role of being observers, executors and accomplices to the killing of innocent relatives, brothers, sisters, colleagues and friends. The targeted group to be exterminated was the Tutsi population without any distinction of age, religion, region and sex.



Note: One could assert that among all these categories, there were a few numbers that were reluctant to act as they were expected. Some accepted to die instead of killing their brothers, sisters, neighbours and friends while others used all means to save those who were being killed by providing them refuge or helping them escape the danger before RPF forces arrived. Some testimonies of genocide survivors proved this fact.

Application activity 5.4



1. To what extent can the pre-1994 massacres of Tutsi (1959–1993) be interpreted as a deliberate “testing phase” for the execution of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi? Support your answer with evidence.
2. Analyze the role of propaganda (media, political parties, and hateful language) in transforming ordinary citizens into perpetrators of genocide. How did these tools contribute to the normalisation of violence?
3. Examine the relationship between state structures (government, military, and administration) and non-state actors (militias and civilians) in the planning and execution of the genocide. Was the genocide primarily state-driven, society-driven, or a combination of both?
4. Evaluate the significance of logistical preparations (such as weapon distribution, lists of victims, and roadblocks) in ensuring the rapid and widespread execution of the genocide in 1994.
5. “The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was not a spontaneous event but the result of long-term, systematic planning.” Critically discuss this statement using evidence from different stages of preparation outlined in the text.

Between April and July 1994, over one million Tutsi were killed across Rwanda during the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. It was in such situation that Genocide Memorial sites were created after Genocide as a place of remembrance and learning. Today, four memorial sites have become UNESCO World Heritage sites. These are **Nyamata, Murambi, Bisesero and Kigali/Gisozi**. However, there are not only four UNESCO memorial sites used to study and preserve the Genocide against the Tutsi victims. There are also various Genocide memorial sites in each district that preserved and using to commemorate the victims of the Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda, preventing Genocide ideology and denial as well as peace education in Rwanda and abroad.

5.6.1. Components of the building of a memorial site a

A building of a **memorial site** of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi must have at least the following elements:

- A reception room.
- A show room of photos and archives to indicate history of Rwanda before the

1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

- A place reserved for names, photos and identity of the victims, if possible.
- A place reserved for history of how the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was planned and executed.
- A place for preservation of evidence of the Genocide against the Tutsi including bodies of the victims preserved in scientific and sustainable manner, their clothes or any other item which can help to identify them.
- A place where tools and weapons, which were used to commit the Genocide against the Tutsi are kept.
- A place reserved for names and photos of planners and perpetrators of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- A meeting room where visitors of the memorial site get explanations relating to the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- A place reserved for keeping books, tapes, films, testimonies and other items reflecting the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi, specifically that of the area where the memorial site is located.
- A counselling room for people who are traumatized during the visit of the memorial site
- A place for names and photos of persons who manifested bravery to save Tutsi and those who stopped the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- Offices of the employees of the memorial site
- A canteen if possible.
- A storeroom.
- Enough toilets.
- Parking yards.
- A garden for commemoration.
- A sufficient ground for reception of a big number of people during the period of commemoration.
- A monument of the Genocide against the Tutsi if necessary, according to the particular history of the place.
- A quiet place for meditating about the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- A wall bearing names of victims of the Genocide against the Tutsi buried in that memorial site
- The graves.
- A fence.

5.6.2. Maintenance of a memorial site

In order to maintain a memorial site at national or District level, the following are ensured:

- To recruit employees in charge of management and maintenance of the memorial site for the Genocide against the Tutsi with sufficient knowledge enabling them to explain well the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- To organise trainings for the employees mentioned.
- To recruit workers in charge of cleaning on permanent basis the memorial site for the Genocide against the Tutsi.

The Organisation of memorial sites in Rwanda Memorial sites are classified as follows:

- A district memorial site
- National memorial site
- A memorial site located abroad.
- An international memorial site (UNESCO Heritage)

In every District, there shall be at least one District memorial site. Part of the characteristics, it must be significant of the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi in that District. Its management is the responsibility of the district where the site is erected.

A national memorial site must have a special history of national relevance. It is related to the planning and execution of the Genocide against the Tutsi. It is managed by the designated Ministry.

A memorial site of the Genocide against the Tutsi located abroad is managed by the Ministry in charge of Foreign Affairs through the Rwandan embassy in the country where the memorial site is erected. The Ministry in charge of Foreign Affairs includes in its annual budget funds earmarked for the maintenance of a memorial site of the Genocide against the Tutsi located abroad.

International memorial sites in Rwanda are **Kigali Genocide Memorial (Gisozi), Murambi, Bisesero and Nyamata memorials**. They have been inscribed World heritage by UNESCO.

While setting the Genocide against the Tutsi memorial, the following elements are considered:

- A place with a particular facts or proofs of the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- A place which does not cause harm to the health of the neighbouring people.
- Conservation of environment.
- Particular conditions of the land.
- Climate change conditions in a given region.
- Ventilation of graves.
- A building having a sufficient light.
- Graves are protected from cold, humidity and moisture.

Historical importance Genocide Memorial sites

Memorial sites constitute a national historical and cultural heritage and must be preserved for present and future generations. In addition, Genocide memorial site is a place of remembrance and learning dedicated to the victims of the Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda or everywhere. It also offering a powerful experience for visitors, promoting reconciliation and building peace through education. These Genocide memorials also serve to educate about how the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi took shape and examines Genocide in the 20th century.

The following are the summary of the importance of the Genocide memorial sites:

- It provides a dignified final resting place for victims of 1994 Genocide against Tutsi
- It serves as a remembrance place for these who are buried in and all victims of 1994 Genocide against Tutsi
- It contains proofs of what happened and serves as a way of fighting against 1994 Genocide against Tutsi denial
- It constructs human values which are taught to new generation
- It helps in rebuilding socio-cultural values such as peace values, unity and reconciliation
- It is one way of prevention of Genocide and its ideology

The Organization of memorial sites in Rwanda Memorial sites are classified as follows:

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- A memorial site located abroad.
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In every District, there shall be at least one District memorial site. Part of the characteristics, it must be significant of the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi in that District. Its management is the responsibility of the district where the site is erected.

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- A place with a particular facts or proofs of the history of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
- A place which does not cause harm to the health of the neighbouring people.
- Conservation of environment.
- Particular conditions of the land.
- Climate change conditions in a given region.
- Ventilation of graves.
- A building having a sufficient light.
- Graves are protected from cold, humidity and moisture.

Application activity 5.6



1. What are the main purposes of genocide memorial sites in Rwanda?
2. Identify any four key components required in building a genocide memorial site.
3. Explain how genocide memorial sites help in preventing genocide in Rwanda.
4. Name the four genocide memorial sites in Rwanda recognized as UNESCO World Heritage sites.
5. Describe how genocide memorial sites are organized and managed in Rwanda

End of unit assessment 5



A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Identify the four Genocide Memorial Sites in Rwanda recognized as UNESCO World Heritage sites.
2. Explain the main purpose of establishing memorial sites after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Describe any four key components required in the construction of a genocide memorial site.

B. Skills

1. Analyse how memorial sites help in preventing genocide ideology and denial.
2. Design a simple memorial site plan and justify the inclusion of any four components.
3. Evaluate the role of memorial sites in promoting peace, unity, and reconciliation in Rwanda.

C. Attitudes and values

1. Explain why it is important to respect and preserve genocide memorial sites.
2. Discuss how visiting memorial sites can influence people's attitudes toward human rights.

Explain how memorial sites promote the value of "Never Again" in society.

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UNIT 6

RWANDA IN POST-1994 GENOCIDE AGAINST THE TUTSI.



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the political, social and economic transformation of Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and the importance of unity, reconciliation, justice to a responsible citizen in a national building.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Describe the situation in Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- Explain the political, social, and economic challenges faced by the government.
- Identify the measures taken and achievements made in promoting unity, reconciliation, and development.

Skills

2

- Analyse the situation in Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- Assess the political, social, and economic challenges faced by the government.
- Evaluate the measures taken and achievements made in unity, reconciliation, and national development.

Attitudes and Values

3

- Value the situation in Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- Judge the political, social, and economic challenges faced by the government.
- Appreciate the measures taken and judge the achievements in unity, reconciliation, and national development.

Introductory activity 6



Read the following scenario and answer questions that are set on it.

An old man, Mzee Habimana, narrates to young people about the impact of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, where many lives were lost and families destroyed. He explains how Rwanda chose resilience instead of remaining broken. Widows became strong, orphans were supported and educated by communities, and survivors rebuilt their lives through unity and reconciliation. He highlights socio-economic development seen in schools, hospitals, and roads. Community activities strengthened trust among citizens. He emphasizes that resilience means learning from the past while building the future. The youth understand that Rwanda's strength lies in unity, care, and determination.

Questions

1. How does Mzee Habimana describe the effects of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi on Rwandan society?
2. In what ways did widows, orphans, and survivors contribute to Rwanda's recovery?
3. Identify the signs of socio-economic development mentioned in the scenario.
4. Explain the role of unity and community activities in rebuilding Rwanda.
5. What lesson do the young people learn from Mzee Habimana's narration about resilience?

Introduction

This unit helps you learn about the past and why it is important. History tells us stories about people who lived long ago and the challenges they faced. By learning history, we understand where we come from and how Rwanda recovered after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

You will learn about the situation in Rwanda immediately after the Genocide and the political, social, and economic challenges the government faced. You will also learn about the solutions and measures adopted by the government to solve these challenges. You will explore the achievements of the government, including unity and reconciliation, civic education, and the Agaciro Development Fund. This unit will help you respect your culture, appreciate the efforts made to rebuild the nation, and become a good and responsible citizen.

6.1 Situation in Rwanda immediately after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 6.1



In a quiet town hall in Kigali, the new leader, RWABIKABU, addressed the survivors of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. "Imagine Rwanda today our homes destroyed, families lost, and fear all around. But what kind of Rwanda do we want to build from these ashes?" he asked. "How can we revive hope, rebuild our economy, restore unity, and strengthen resilience?" He encouraged the people to speak, share ideas, and help children return to school, restart farming, and support each other. The community began to discuss ways to rebuild markets, schools, and trust among neighbors. Slowly, hope and determination grew as people realized that the nation's future depended on their collective effort. Even in the darkest times, they imagined a brighter Rwanda together.

Questions.

1. What steps would you take to revive hope among Rwandans after the genocide?
2. How can the economy be rebuilt in a community where most people are displaced or traumatized?
3. What strategies could restore unity and trust among neighbours who were once divided?
4. How can resilience be strengthened in a population that has experienced extreme loss and fear?

1. Humanitarian crisis

Immediately following the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, Rwanda faced a catastrophic humanitarian crisis. Over **one million people (Tutsi)** had been killed, leaving millions of survivors traumatized and displaced. Many survivors were living in **refugee camps**, forests, and other unsafe areas. Families were torn apart, with children orphaned and many people separated from their relatives. Food, clean water, and basic medical care were extremely scarce, resulting in widespread **malnutrition, disease outbreaks**, and high mortality rates. Hospitals were overwhelmed, as many medical staff had either been killed or had fled the country. The social and psychological toll on survivors was immense, with deep **emotional and mental trauma** affecting both children and adults.

2. Displacement and refugees

The genocide forced millions of Rwandans to flee their homes. Many killers from the ancient Regime feared to be brought to justice due to what they have committed, while Tutsi survivors were searching for safety and lost relatives. Refugees crossed into neighbouring countries such as **Zaire (now the Democratic Republic of Congo), Tanzania, Burundi, and Uganda**, creating enormous refugee camps. These camps were often poorly managed, lacked security, and became a source of further humanitarian concern. The displacement disrupted agriculture, trade, and social cohesion, leaving much of the country in economic paralysis.

3. Social and psychological impact

The genocide left deep **psychological scars** on the population. Survivors were not only grieving the loss of loved ones but also coping with the trauma of extreme violence, sexual assault, and betrayal by neighbours or even family members. Communities faced a breakdown in trust, as neighbours who once lived peacefully together had participated in atrocities. The fear and suspicion among people made social reconciliation difficult. **Psychosocial support programs** were urgently needed, but the country lacked sufficient trained counselors and social workers. The mental health crisis affected daily life, education, and community rebuilding.

4. Economic devastation

Rwanda's economy was in **shambles** after the genocide. Agricultural production, which was the backbone of the economy, had been disrupted because farmers were killed, displaced, or traumatized. Infrastructure, including roads, schools, hospitals, and government offices, had been destroyed or abandoned. Trade and local businesses had collapsed, leading to widespread unemployment and poverty. The country faced a critical shortage of skilled labour, as many professionals were either killed or had fled. This economic devastation slowed recovery and compounded the humanitarian crisis.

5. Governance and security challenges

Following the genocide, the **RPF-led government** took control of the country. Restoring law and order was one of the government's main priorities. Many areas were lawless, with armed groups still active, including genocidaires who fled or were hiding in rural areas. The government faced the dual challenge of **disarming militias** and establishing a functioning administration. Courts were overwhelmed with genocide-related cases, and there was an urgent need to rebuild governance institutions from scratch. Ensuring security while promoting justice and reconciliation became a delicate balancing act.

6. Health and sanitation

The genocide left Rwanda with a **serious health crisis**. Water and sanitation systems were destroyed, leading to outbreaks of cholera, dysentery, and other diseases. Health facilities were few and ill-equipped to handle the sheer number of injured and sick. Malnutrition was rampant among children and the elderly. Humanitarian aid from the **United Nations, international NGOs, and other countries** became vital for providing emergency food, medicine, and basic healthcare services. Vaccination campaigns and emergency medical interventions were launched, but the scale of the problem was overwhelming.

7. Education and children

Schools had been destroyed or abandoned, and teachers had been killed or fled. Education came to a **complete standstill** immediately after the genocide. Many children were orphaned and had no access to learning. Psychologically, children carried heavy trauma, which affected their ability to study. The government and NGOs gradually began programs to reopen schools, provide psychosocial support, and rebuild education infrastructure. Education became a key tool for **healing, social reconstruction, and promoting the message of "Never Again."**

8. Rebuilding social cohesion

Rebuilding trust and unity in communities was an enormous challenge. Many people were afraid to return to their homes due to lingering violence, and the presence of landmines or abandoned weapons. The **government initiated programs** to promote reconciliation, including community dialogues, gacaca courts (traditional community justice), and national commemorations to remember victims. These initiatives aimed to restore relationships, promote forgiveness, and prevent future conflicts. Social cohesion was essential for rebuilding a country deeply divided by ethnic hatred.

9. Role of international community

The international community played a significant role in post-genocide Rwanda. Organizations like the **United Nations, Red Cross, Médecins Sans Frontières (Doctors without Borders), and other NGOs** provided emergency relief, including food, shelter, medical care, and psychosocial support. International actors also helped with rebuilding infrastructure, training civil servants, and supporting justice initiatives. However, the response was often criticized as being **too slow and insufficient** given the scale of the crisis.

10. Hope and recovery

Despite the enormity of the challenges, Rwanda gradually began a **recovery process**. The RPF government, under leadership committed to peace and unity, launched programs to rebuild infrastructure, resettle displaced people, revive agriculture, and restore education. Survivors demonstrated resilience, rebuilding their lives, forming cooperatives, and participating in local governance. Commemoration events and memorial sites were established to honor the victims and educate future generations never to do harm any human and even any breathing living. While the post-genocide period was marked by immense suffering, it also became a period of **renewed hope, unity, and nation-building**.

Application activity 6.1



1. Why is it important for every citizen, not just leaders, to participate in rebuilding the nation?
2. Explain major events that characterised the Rwandan community after the stopping of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Why was forgiveness more important just after the 1994 Genocide perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda.

6.2. Challenges faced by the government of Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 6.2



1. How does violent conflict reshape social trust, and what long-term consequences can this have on community relationships?
2. To what extent do different sectors (social, economic, political, and educational) suffer unequal impacts after war or genocide? Explain with reasoning.
3. Select a major post-genocide challenge and critically analyze its short-term and long-term effects on your community.
4. Propose and justify two realistic strategies (by citizens or government) that could effectively address this challenge.
5. Evaluate the role of unity, reconciliation, and peace education in resolving this issue and preventing its recurrence.

After the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, Rwandans met serious difficulties in reconstructing their country. Among them are the following:

Suspicion and mistrust: Since Rwanda's social cohesion had fractured due to the divisive politics that preceded the Genocide, **suspicion** and mistrust characterised the population.

The new government inherited a deeply **scarred** nation where trust within and between communities had been replaced by fear and **betrayal**.

This posed a serious challenge to the functioning of institutions because the RPF's vision was not shared by all stakeholders. In spite of all this, the RPF believed that Rwanda was not dead but that it could be reborn and re-built. To achieve that goal, the RPF advocated strongly for unity and reconciliation despite the enormous challenges.

Security problems: Although the RPF had captured power and a transitional government had been put in place, the security situation was still fluid, with former government forces and Interahamwe militia still carrying out Genocide against Tutsi in various part of the country. A French buffer area in western Rwanda, known as *Zone Turquoise*, had become a safe haven for genocidal forces. In addition, infiltrators from refugee camps across the border continued to cross and destabilise the country. The ex-FAR and interahamwe were allowed to retain their weapons and to mix with the civilian refugees.

Other sympathisers of the former regime, notably the DRC (then Zaire) under President Mobutu Sese Seko, continued to provide support. All these proved to be security challenges for a country that had been hit by one of the worst human tragedies of the 20th century.

The Broad-based Transitional Government under RPF leadership had to devise means to address insecurity in the whole country and regain a semblance of normalcy so that Rwandans could begin the task of rebuilding the nation.

Resettlement of refugees and Genocide survivors. The RPF strived to restore Rwanda as a country for all Rwandans and provided a homeland to which millions of Rwandan refugees could return. Tens of thousands of internally displaced people, especially Genocide survivors whose homes had been destroyed, were resettled and provided with basic housing facilities. The Transitional Government brought about three million refugees who had been held hostage by fleeing genocidal forces in the DRC and some in Tanzania back home.

This humanitarian exercise was largely successful despite the failure of the international community to address their plight in refugee camps. About two million older refugees (from 1959 and subsequent years) were also resettled peacefully across the country.

Economic challenges. The Rwandan economy and political situation before 1994 were marked by economic stagnation and high levels of poverty, mainly attributed to lack of vision, poor economic planning, mismanagement, embezzlement and corruption by the leadership of the time. They emphasized state control of the economy by a clique who benefited from the existing system.

As a result, post-Genocide Rwanda faced economic challenges including an unstable macroeconomic environment. For example, in 1994 the economy shrank by 50 per cent and inflation rose to 64 per cent. Between 1985 and 1994, the GDP growth rate was a mere 2.2 per cent against a population growth rate of 3.2 per cent, meaning there was an annual decline of -1 per cent of per capita GDP.

This was mainly due to the fact that the economy was characterised by low productivity in all sectors, but most especially in agriculture, a sector on which more than 90 per cent of the population depended for their **livelihood**. Without a visionary leadership to avert the situation, this resulted in a very weak export base coupled with a narrow revenue collection base. This implied that there was lack of internally generated resources to fund social services like education and health.

In addition, there was low private investment and as such, the country lacked a serious and vibrant private sector to drive economic growth. In the public sector too, there was a highly unskilled labour force. For example, in 1994, at least 79 per cent of civil servants in the country did not have qualifications higher than secondary school. To make matters worse, skilled professionals had been particularly targeted in the Genocide.

In brief, the Government of National Unity inherited an economy completely destroyed by Genocide and over three decades mismanagement.

Health. In the health sector, the picture was equally bleak. This sector had always been weak in Rwanda. Health workers in this sector were few and poorly trained. This was a result of chronically poor human resource development strategies that characterised colonial and post-colonial Rwanda. This situation was caused by the Genocide in which a large number of health workers had participated and consequently fled the country or were killed. The few that had returned from exile settled in Kigali, which had some infrastructures and was also safer to live in.

To **mitigate** the health crisis, a number of NGOs and the army came in and tried to make a difference, but the task was **overwhelming** since the number of the injured and the sick was very high. Statistics indicate that immunization coverage for children had dropped to 27 per cent as a result of war and mismanagement.

Malnutrition levels were also very high. Child as well as maternal mortality rates were equally high due to poor health service delivery. The prevalence of water-borne diseases and other conditions related to poor sanitation was among the highest in Africa at that time. Equally worrying was the high infection rate of transmittable diseases, especially HIV and AIDS, which had been made worse during the Genocide where rape was used as a weapon of war. The situation was worsened by a very high fertility rate, coupled with ignorance. Malaria was hyper endemic in some parts of the country, especially in the east and southern provinces.

Education. During the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, most education infrastructure was destroyed and the human capital decimated. Besides, the poor and discriminatory education policies, coupled with an education system that did not respond to the socio-economic needs of the country, served to perpetuate massive ignorance. Even the few that went to school could not translate their knowledge into productive activities to improve the standard of living.

In the eastern part of the country, schools were not only few, but in some areas, they did not exist at all. During the first and second Republics, higher education was not only quantitatively low but also a privilege of the few favoured ones. Not even the quota system worked. For instance, between 1963 and 1994, only about 2000 Rwandans had completed university education.

Justice: The Transitional government inherited a broken justice sector. More than 140, 000 Genocide suspects had been arrested, yet there was insufficient prison infrastructure to host them. Their upkeep became a huge challenge in terms of feeding, and provision of medical and other services.

To make matters worse, there was an inadequate number of trained lawyers to handle the large number of perpetrators of Genocide and this was also true for other crimes that were being committed in the country.

The laws were also outdated, obscure and inadequate. The justice sector also witnessed unskilled personnel. For example, according to records of the Supreme Court, out of 702 judges in 2003, only 74 possessed a bachelor's degree in law.

Nonetheless, justice had to be delivered. And despite the meagre resources that were available, the government had to introduce the needed reforms and new judicial institutions to deal with all these judicial problems.

Application activity 6.2



Using relevant examples from post-genocide Rwanda:

1. Examine the relationship between two interconnected challenges (e.g., security and resettlement, justice and reconciliation), explaining how they influenced each other.
2. Assess the potential short-term and long-term consequences if these challenges remained unresolved.
3. Propose and justify an integrated strategy that could simultaneously address both challenges effectively.
4. Identify and explain one significant post-genocide challenge and its broader implications for society.
5. Derive and articulate key lessons related to peace building, unity, and resilience.

6.3. Measures adapted by the government of Rwanda to solve these challenges

Learning activity 6.3



After the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, Rwanda faced severe challenges including destroyed infrastructure and broken social cohesion. The government introduced measures to restore unity and rebuild the nation. Community-based justice systems like Gacaca Courts helped promote reconciliation and accountability. Development strategies such as Vision 2020 aimed at economic recovery and long-term growth. Efforts were also made to restore security and rebuild state institutions. Refugees were repatriated to support national stability. These combined measures contributed to the country's reconstruction and progress.

Questions

1. Identify the major challenges faced by Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi as implied in the scenario.
2. Explain the role of Gacaca Courts in solving post-genocide challenges.
3. Analyse how development programs like Vision 2020 contributed to national reconstruction.
4. To what extent were the measures taken by the government effective in promoting unity and stability in Rwanda? Justify your answer with relevant arguments.

6.3.1. Emergency period (1994–1999)

This period was characterized by extreme distress and national devastation. Rwanda had been reduced to ruins, with mass graves scattered across the country, reflecting the magnitude of the tragedy. It was a time when every citizen was called upon to contribute to the reconstruction of all sectors of national life that had been destroyed by the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

From a political perspective, the government faced the urgent task of rebuilding state institutions, guided by the principles of good governance and the restoration of the judicial system. Economically, there was a critical need to rehabilitate essential infrastructure, including water supply systems, electricity, road networks, financial institutions, schools, and hospitals. Virtually all sectors required reconstruction, alongside the resettlement of refugees.

On the socio-cultural level, it became imperative to sensitize the population in response to the profound consequences of the genocide. This involved organizing conferences and community meetings focused on unity, reconciliation, human rights, and good governance, with the aim of restoring social cohesion and national identity.

6.3.2. Period of Durable Development Programmes (After 1999)

Safeguarding National Security.

In the aftermath of the genocide, Rwanda's security situation remained highly unstable due to unresolved tensions and the lingering effects of conflict. A large portion of the population had been displaced, creating a fragile and volatile environment.

To address this, the government developed military strategies aimed at dismantling armed groups and neutralizing ex-combatants who continued to threaten civilian lives. Insecurity along the western border, largely driven by incursions from Ex-FAR and Interahamwe militias, required decisive intervention. The Government of National Unity (GNU) responded by facilitating the repatriation of refugees from the Democratic Republic of Congo and launching military operations to weaken these destabilizing forces.

Promotion of Unity and Reconciliation

A central objective of national reconstruction was the promotion of unity and reconciliation, grounded in the principles of good governance. National unity emphasized the indivisibility of the Rwandan people, rejecting divisions based on ethnicity, regionalism, or discrimination.

All citizens were granted equal access to economic resources and political rights. The repatriation of refugees was also prioritized as a crucial step toward peace and reconciliation. To address the root causes of conflict, the government established key institutions and mechanisms, including the National Commission for Human Rights, the National Unity and Reconciliation Commission, Gacaca courts, the Commission Nationale de Lutte Contre le Génocide (CNLG), the National Itorero Commission, and the Rwanda Demobilization Commission.

Additionally, new national symbols—the flag, anthem, and coat of arms—were introduced to reflect a renewed sense of unity and shared identity among Rwandans.

Promotion of civic engagement

Civic engagement is the active participation of citizens in the life of their community and nation to improve public life, influence decisions, and contribute to social and political development.

To achieve this initiative, the Government of Rwanda has established various civic education programs, including Ingando (solidarity camps), which later evolved into Itorero ry'Igihugu, and the recognition of outstanding achievers.

Ingando (solidarity camps)

Ingando, or solidarity camps, were established as platforms for civic education, bringing together diverse groups such as students, farmers, and civil servants. These programs facilitated discussions on Rwanda's history, citizenship, governance, human rights, and socio-economic development.

Ingando played a vital role in promoting democratic values and patriotism. In November 2007, this initiative was institutionalized under the National Itorero Commission. Currently Itorero is a department of Ministry of National Unity & Civic Engagement (MINUBUMWE) with the aim of reinforcing and coordinating spaces for civic education and engagement, promotes Rwandan cultural values through education and recognition of heroic behaviour among citizens, monitors and reinforces unity, historical memory and civic education in the Rwandan community abroad through different sensitization programs.

The recognition of outstanding achievers

In 1995, the Government of National Unity set up a committee that was given three responsibilities: to establish the mechanism of selecting National Heroes, determine the day of annual celebration of National Heroes, to draft the Law relating with national heroes.

This committee had identified National Heroes in 2001. These National Heroes are in three categories: **Imanzi, Imena, Ingenzi**; and designated the **1st February each year to be a National Heroes' Day** on which the country celebrates the outstanding deeds done by National Heroes.

Later, the Chancellery for Heroes, National Orders and Decorations of Honour was mandated by the 2003 National Constitution as revised in 2015 in its article of 139. It was established by the Law No.13 bis/2009 of 16/06/2009 that determines its responsibilities, structure and functioning as it was revised up to date. Apart from establishing the institution in charge of awarding outstanding achievers, the Government of Rwanda has institutionalized different form and categories of **National Orders and decorations of Honor** that shall be awarded to Rwandans and foreigners who distinguished themselves with outstanding and exemplary actions.

National Orders

A National Order is symbol awarded by National authorities to a person for having performed outstanding acts for the public interest. The following are approved national orders:

1. National Liberation Medal: Uruti

Uruti is awarded to Rwandans and foreigners who contributed in Liberation Struggle of 1990-1994.

2. Campaign against Genocide Medal: Umurinzi

Umurinzi is awarded to Rwandan and foreigners who participated in fighting and stopping the 1994 Genocide Against the Tutsi.

3. National Order of Honour: Agaciro

Agaciro is awarded to a Rwandan or foreign head of State or head of Government, or a head of an international organisation or a high-ranking official who has made a special meritorious contribution to the political, economic, social or cultural advancements in Rwanda or Africa in general or other significant public or private endeavours.

4. National Order of Friendship: Igihango

The National Order of Friendship: Igihango is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who has acted in an exemplary manner in the promotion of friendship and cooperation between Rwanda and other countries and has positively promoted Rwanda or Africa at the international scene.

5. National Order of Performance: Indashyikirwa

The National Order of Performance: Indashyikirwa is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who has accomplished remarkable and exemplary acts and innovations in the development of the country.

6. National Order of Culture: Indangamirwa

The National Order of Culture Indangamirwa is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals, who has accomplished remarkable and exemplary acts, in the promotion of the Rwandan culture.

7. National Order of Bravery: Indengabaganizi

The National Order Indengabaganizi is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who, in an exemplary way, have demonstrated outstanding supreme act of self-sacrifice to save the life of one or many people.

National Orders





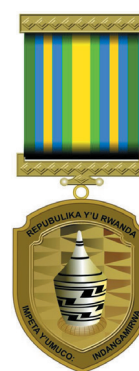
National Order of Honor:
AGACIRO



National Order of Friendship:
IGIHANGO



National order of
performance:
INDASHYIKIRWA



National Order
of Culture:
INDANGAMIRWA

Establishing the rule of law

The establishment of the rule of law was fundamental to rebuilding the nation. A just state ensures that no individual is above the law and that all citizens' rights and freedoms are respected.

Justice, legitimacy, and accountability—implemented through effective institutions—formed the foundation of governance. A strong legal framework not only promotes national unity but also guarantees the protection of fundamental rights, serving as a key indicator of democratic development.

A) Democratisation

Democracy in Rwanda has been defined as governance by the people, for the people, and through the people. Sovereignty resides with citizens, who exercise their power through free, transparent, and fair elections.

Since 2000, Rwanda has conducted regular elections at various levels. The Constitution clearly outlines the structure, functions, and limitations of political institutions, while promoting a multiparty system and safeguarding human rights. It explicitly rejects all forms of discrimination, identity-based ideologies, and unconstitutional changes of government.

The 2003 Constitution, revised in 2015, promotes power-sharing and consensus-based governance. Rwanda's Parliament consists of two chambers

the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate which operate independently but complement each other. The Executive is accountable to Parliament, while the Judiciary remains independent, ensuring checks and balances within the state.

B) Establishing core institutions

To strengthen good governance, the government established key institutions aimed at promoting transparency, accountability, and the fight against corruption. These include the Office of the Ombudsman, the Office of the Auditor General for State Finances, the Rwanda Public Procurement Authority, the Rwanda Revenue Authority, and the Rwanda Governance Board.

These institutions are mandated to combat corruption, injustice, and abuse of power,

ensuring that both public and private sectors adhere to principles of accountability. Rwanda has also ratified major international conventions, including the United Nations Convention against Corruption (UNCAC), reinforcing its commitment to good governance.

C) Decentralisation

Decentralisation was implemented to empower local communities by involving them in decision-making processes, planning, and monitoring development projects. Authority was transferred to local leaders to enhance grassroots participation, enabling citizens to actively contribute to their own development.

D) Imihigo (Performance contracts)

Introduced in 2006, Imihigo is a performance-based system rooted in traditional Rwandan culture, where leaders set measurable targets to be achieved within a specified timeframe.

This initiative has significantly improved accountability and accelerated development at local levels, leading to advancements in infrastructure such as schools, health centers, and markets.

E) Economic growth and development

The government inherited an economy that had been severely weakened by the genocide. Efforts were made to restore economic stability through structural reforms, including the privatization of state-owned enterprises beginning in 1996.

Strategic development frameworks such as Vision 2020, the Poverty Reduction Strategy Programme (PRSP), and the Economic Development and Poverty Reduction Strategy (EDPRS) were introduced to guide long-term economic growth. These initiatives aimed to diversify the economy and align national development with global goals.

F) Education

Prior to 1994, Rwanda's education system had been significantly neglected. Post-genocide reforms focused on expanding access and improving quality. The number of higher education institutions increased, and student enrollment grew substantially.

Primary and secondary education were strengthened through initiatives such as Nine-Year and Twelve-Year Basic Education. Infrastructure development, teacher training, and community involvement in school construction were prioritized.

Institutions such as the Rwanda Education Board (REB) were established to coordinate and improve education services, while technical and vocational training centers were introduced to develop a skilled workforce.

L) Promotion of gender equality

Before 1994, women faced significant discrimination in access to education, property, and political participation. Post-genocide reforms promoted gender equality through legal and institutional changes.

Women were granted equal rights to land ownership and inheritance, and their

participation in governance was enhanced. The Constitution mandates at least 30% representation of women in decision-making bodies, and Rwanda now has one of the highest levels of female parliamentary representation globally.

The establishment of the Gender Monitoring Office (GMO) further strengthened efforts to ensure gender equality across all sectors.

M) Environmental protection

Rwanda implemented progressive environmental policies, including the 2006 ban on non-biodegradable plastic bags, to address environmental degradation.

The Rwanda Environment Management Authority (REMA) was established to oversee environmental policies such as reforestation, terracing, and sustainable land use. These efforts have contributed to Rwanda being recognized as one of the cleanest and greenest countries in Africa.

N) Urban and rural settlement development

The government recognized housing as a fundamental human right and established the Rwanda Housing Authority in 2010 to coordinate urban planning and development.

The Imidugudu programme was introduced to organize rural settlements and provide adequate housing, particularly for returning refugees. This initiative also promoted efficient land use and agricultural productivity, contributing to overall national development.

Application activity 6.3



1. To what extent do you appreciate the efforts made by the government of Rwanda in rebuilding communities after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi? Explain how these measures can inspire your personal commitment to unity and reconciliation.
2. How do you value the role of education in addressing the shortage of skilled labour in Rwanda, and what attitudes should young people adopt to contribute effectively to national development?
3. Why should citizens appreciate and support the measures taken by the government of Rwanda to overcome national challenges?
4. What positive attitudes should individuals develop to actively contribute to the success of government solutions to national problems?
5. How can the measures adopted by Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi inspire values such as unity, responsibility, and resilience among citizens?
6. To what extent should young people feel morally responsible for supporting and sustaining national development initiatives?
7. What values can you learn from the government's efforts to restore peace, security, and development in Rwanda?

Learning activity 6.4



1. Why should citizens appreciate and protect the achievements shown on the map?
2. What role can you play as a student to support and sustain these achievements?
3. How do these developments promote values such as unity, patriotism, and self-reliance?
4. In what ways do these achievements help Rwanda recover from the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi?

6.4. Achievements of the government of Rwanda.

a. Political programme of the Government of National Unity

The new government had to fill the power vacuum left by the defeated Interim Government. In this regard, the constitution of June 10, 1991, the Arusha Peace Agreement with all its protocols, the RPF declaration of July 17, 1994 and the Agreement of November 24, 1994 between political parties were used by the new Government in order to put in place its programme.

The Arusha Peace Agreement was the main source of inspiration for governmental action. This was due to the fact that the Arusha Peace Agreement included two important principles in the management of the state namely the establishment of the rule of law and the power sharing arrangement. However, the texts were adapted to the new situations. For instance, MRND and its satellite political parties supporting the "Hutu power" and those involved in the Genocide were excluded from new institutions of the Transitional Government. Their posts had to be given to RPF.

A new army had to be created by integrating in the APR, the ex-FAR and the recruitment of those who had not participated in the Genocide. In addition, independent people and soldiers were introduced in the Transitional Parliament and a post of Vice President of the Republic carrying another portfolio was allocated to RPF.

On July 19, 1994, the government programme was presented by Mr. Faustin

Twagiramungu. The latter was the Prime Minister designated by the Arusha Peace Agreement.

The programme focused on the following points:

- Restoration of peace and security;
- Organization of central and local administration, i.e. préfectures, communes, sectors and cells;

- Restoration and consolidation of national unity;
- Settlement of refugees and returning their property;
- Improvement of living conditions of the people and solving the social
- Problems that resulted from war and Genocide;
- Revival of the country's economy;
- Consolidation of democracy.

During the establishment of the transitional institutions in July 1994, only Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF), Mouvement Democratique Republicain (MDR), Parti Social Democratique (PSD), Parti Liberal (PL), Parti Democratique Chretien (PDC), Parti Social Rwandais (PSR), Union Democratique Politique Rwanda (UDPR) and Parti Democratique Islamique (PDI) were officially recognized. Later, MDR was excluded from accepted political parties because of its divisive ideology. A parliamentary report pointed out that some people wanted to use it for their political agenda.

b. Safeguarding national security

After the Genocide against the Tutsi, the security in Rwanda was extremely unstable as there were still unhealed wounds from the war. Most of the population was displaced, creating a volatile situation in the country. Military strategies were devised to find solution and eradicate the thousands of military groups and ex-combatants who continued to torment and kill citizens.

The problem of insecurity especially on the western border of the country was caused by the incursions of Ex-FAR and Interahamwe militias. To put an end to this destabilisation, the Government of Rwanda proceeded to the repatriation of refugees from Zaïre, current DRC and military operations aiming at weakening the combatants.

c. Politico-administrative reforms and fight against injustice

From its inception, the Government was supposed to set up administrative structures from the top to the bottom. Due to lack of time to produce the most appropriate administrative framework, it maintained the structure left by the defeated regime namely central government, prefectures (provinces), communes (Districts), sectors and cells.

From 2001, Rwanda's decentralization policy was an important innovation. Its objective was to empower and invite the population to participate actively in debates on issues that concerned it directly. It also aimed at encouraging the electorate in the countryside to provide information and explain issues in order to take decisions knowingly.

The decentralization of activities went hand in hand with the decentralization of financial, material and human resources.

The first phase (2001-2005) aimed at establishing democratic and community development structures at the district level and was accompanied by a number of legal, institutional and policy reforms, as well as democratic elections for local leaders. However, the decentralisation process faced some challenges because some leaders have to perform volunteer work. In addition, some of them cumulated jobs and this could lead to their inefficiency.

To reinforce good governance in Rwanda, anti-corruption and public accountability institutions were created by the Government. Their operational capacity continued to be strengthened to achieve greater accountability. They include the Office of the Ombudsman, Office of the Auditor General for State Finances, Rwanda Public Procurement Authority and Rwanda Revenue Authority etc...

These institutions are mandated to fight injustice, corruption and abuse by public officials and related offences in both public and private administration and to promote the principles of good governance based on accountability and transparency.

Rwanda has also signed and ratified the United Nations Convention against Corruption (UNCAC), the African Union anti-corruption Convention (AUCC) and the UN convention against Transnational Organized Crime (UNTOC).

In order to promote consensual democracy, since 2000, free, transparent and peaceful elections have been organised at local levels and Rwanda has put in place a new constitution that clearly defines the main principles as well as performance and limit of political institutions, multiparty system and respect of everybody's right.

The 2003 Constitution accepts that almost important political positions in the country must be shared by political parties and independent politicians. This power sharing was observed not only in the government but also in the Parliament made up of two chambers: the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate.

These two chambers are complementary in nature, but independent of each other. The Executive is overseen by parliament, according to the constitution, while the judiciary power is also independent from the Executive and the Legislative ones.

d. Promotion of unity and reconciliation

The national unity implies the indivisibility of the Rwandan people. All citizens should have an equal opportunity to national economic resources and can claim the same political rights. Rapidly, the Government of National Unity fought and eliminated all constraints of national unity such as "ethnicity" and regionalism. For instance, "ethnic" labels were removed from identity cards.

In the same perspective, the Commission of Unity and Reconciliation urges Rwandans to strive to heal one another's physical and psychological wounds while building future interpersonal trust based on truth telling, repentance and forgiveness. Thus, the Commission educates and mobilises Rwandans on matters related to national unity and reconciliation and undertakes research in the matter of peace, unity and reconciliation to make proposals on measures for eradicating divisions and for reinforcing unity.

In addition, a series of strategies such as solidarity camps where different categories of people meet to discuss issues related to unity and reconciliation and programmes on radios are used by the Commission. The Government of National Unity repatriated a big number of refugees which was a fundamental obligation and a bridge to peace, national unity and reconciliation.

In addition to the above efforts, the Government of National Unity introduced several structures and programmes that were meant to correct past errors that led to war and Genocide.

These structures include the National Commission of Human Rights, the Gacaca Juridictions, Commission Nationale de Lutte Contre le Génocide (CNLG) and Rwanda Demobilisation Commission.

Besides to promote unity among Rwandans new national symbols namely the national anthem, the national flag and the coat of arms were designed to reflect the unity of Rwandans. However, "ethnic" based ideologies propagated by electronic media or in families keep hindering national unity.

e. Remaking justice

The Genocide was carefully planned and executed to annihilate the Tutsi. The Government made it among its highest priorities to apprehend and bring to justice the perpetrators of the Genocide.

Thousands of people were arrested and judged. Some of them were released for lack of evidence and others convicted and sentenced. It is pertinent to the people of Rwanda to feel that no reconciliation is possible without justice. The big number of prisoners and cases due for trial placed severe strain on Rwanda's criminal justice system which had already been crippled by the murder of professionals during the Genocide. The Government of National Unity decided to ease pressure on the criminal justice system by categorising Genocide suspects according to the crimes they were accused of. In this regard, category 1 was composed of the planners and perpetrators of the Genocide. A number of 2,133 people were convicted in the conventional courts. The categories 2-4 where involvement was slightly less serious were convicted in traditional jurisdictions or Gacaca courts.

This new process significantly sped up trials and sentencing, which if they had been restricted to conventional courts would take over 200 years to complete. The Gacaca courts also had the advantage of involving the community in the trial and sentencing process. The Government believed that involving the population in the trials could also contribute significantly to reconciliation. In fact, testimonies from the general population helped survivors to discover the corpses of the family members killed during the Genocide. Moreover, some perpetrators demanded pardon from the survivors. In some places, perpetrators and survivors were gathered in associations. On the debit side, the Gacaca courts were criticised for corrupt judges and lack of lawyers commonly used in modern judicial system.

The Government also made it a priority to strengthen the criminal justice system. Special training was provided to magistrates and judges, while courts around the country were renovated. A national police force was created and charged with civil security matters and criminal investigations.

6.4.1 The achievements of the Government of Rwanda on social level

Assistance to the most vulnerable people

From the social point of view, the Government of National Unity faced with the problem of assisting vulnerable people.

Almost all the Rwandan population that had survived Genocide and war was described as vulnerable. With time, their numbers kept on reducing given the situation which improved politically, socially and economically.

The vulnerable people included Rwandan refugees and repatriated displaced people, Genocide survivors, single children and orphans, widows, people with disabilities, the poor, HIV/AIDS victims and prisoners. Moreover, between November 1995 and February 1996, Rwanda hosted almost 37, 000 refugees including former Burundi refugees and Kinyarwanda-speaking ones from Zaïre.

In 2003, the number of foreign refugees in Rwanda was estimated at 300, 000 persons. Only 35, 000 refugees remained in Rwanda at the end of 2003. The survivors of Genocide were part of the most important vulnerable groups in the country. The Government handled them as a priority. In 1998, an Assistance Fund for Genocide Survivors, Fonds d' Aide pour les Rescapés du Génocide (FARG) was set up. It was allocated 5% of the national budget. This budget enabled FARG to solve a big part of its problems experienced by vulnerable surviving children in the fields of primary, secondary and higher education. The fund was also used to pay for health care. FARG also helped vulnerable survivors to construct residential homes in regrouped villages (imidugudu) and/or elsewhere. It was also used to repair their former residences. FARG financed small projects to help survivors fight against poverty.

From 1994, the orphans and single-children received assistance of varied nature. For some of them, houses were constructed; others were trained and given supplies in reception centres. In this way, they received physical and mental health-care, education and social integration facilities. Some of them were able to reunite with members of their families.

The ministries which were dealing with social affairs performed the following services: designing intervention programmes in favour of widows, providing material assistance, conducting a census of raped and pregnant women, etc. On the other hand, women victims of war and genocide set up associations for mutual help. These actions produced tangible results. However, a big number of them still suffered from the after-effects of war and genocide such as traumatism. Among them we can state AVEGA AGAHOZO (Association des Veuves du Génocide du mois d'Avril), BAMPOREREZE, DUHOZANYE, etc

Health promotion

Between 1994 and 2003, a particular focus was put on the improvement of health infrastructure given the role that the latter plays in the improvement of health. Some new hospitals were constructed, and old ones were constantly rehabilitated or expanded. Several health centres were also constructed while old ones were repaired gradually. In 1996 the majority of health facilities started to provide both curative and preventive treatment.

National referral hospitals such as King Faisal Hospital, the Centre Hospitalier de Kigali and the University Teaching Hospital of Butare were rehabilitated, re-equipped and made operational. There were 25 district hospitals in the country. Out of 279 health centres and dispensaries, 257 were reopened after rehabilitating them with new equipment.

In 2000, Nyanza Hospital and Kimironko Health Centre were established. In 2001, there were 33 district hospitals and 40 health centres. The above district hospitals were coordinated by 11 regional health officials. Health staff increased qualitatively and quantitatively.

The National University of Rwanda (NUR) Faculty of Medicine produced 1,999 general doctors. Nonetheless, the Government resorted to foreign doctors from neighbouring countries and even beyond to solve the problem of inadequate medical personnel. Kigali Health Institute (KHI) also trained several medical assistants at A1 level. The nursing section at secondary school also level produced nurses of A2 level, whereas those in the social section trained and graduated social workers.

The government policy of encouraging the people to participate in health programmes was successful. The Rwandan Sickness Insurance Scheme, La Rwandaise d'Assurance Maladie (RAMA) was established to ensure that government civil servants get proper medical insurance coverage. It started business in 2001.

Meritocracy and skills enhancement in education

The colonial and post-colonial administrations left Rwanda with one of the lowest skilled populations in the sub-region. In addition to this, an "ethnic" quota system for entry into secondary schools and the university made access to education limited for sections of the population.

On entering office, the Government of National Unity immediately instituted meritocracy in education system and measures were put in place to address the country's manpower incapacity. Since 1994, the number of higher learning institutions kept increasing and were six in 2000. The total number of students receiving higher education rose from 3,000 and was close to 7,000 in 2003. The number of university graduates between 1963 and 1994 was 2,160. Between 1995 and 2000, a period of just five years, the Government of Rwanda produced over 2,000 university graduates.

A former military college in the heart of Kigali was transformed into a modern Institute of Science and Technology. The new Kigali Institute of Science and Technology (KIST) was established in 1997 to provide technical, skills based training to 2,500 full and part-time students.

The institute also hosted the African virtual University and conducted business and entrepreneurship courses. Licenses and facilitation were granted to other institutions and colleges to make more training opportunities available to the population.

Similarly, from 1994 to 2000, the number of primary schools increased more than one and a half times. The number of qualified teachers rose by 53% between 1994 and 2000. More resources were made available to build new schools and to rehabilitate old ones. In addition, Government introduced universal primary education, established education support institutions such as the National Curriculum Development Centre, the General Inspectorate of Education and Examinations Board.

The National Examination Council was introduced to ensure fairness, transparency and uniformity in standards

Promotion of gender equality

Women had suffered due to war and the Genocide. One of the Government and civil society priorities were to strengthen capacity building programmes for women in all fields. In this regard, the Rwandan legislation which was disadvantaging women was amended in order to give equal opportunities to both men and women.

The Government set up the National Commission for Women's Rights which played an important role in revising the law and culture. Articles which disadvantaged women were removed. Similarly, women organizations became very active. Hence, an association called PROFEMMES/Twesehamwe trained women and empowered them to take up roles in decision making organs, justice etc....

In addition, laws on inheritance were reformulated. Furthermore, the gender factor was integrated in all national policies on Rwanda's long-term development.

In political domain, the Government encouraged women to get involved in decision making organs. This started from the first electoral campaigns of 1999, 2001 and 2003. For example, during the 2001 elections organized by district and sector committees, almost 25% of the women were elected.

All categories of the Rwandan population took part in the process of drafting the Rwandan constitution of 2003. This facilitated the inclusion of the gender factor in the constitution. The 2003 Constitution of the Republic of Rwanda stipulates that women shall occupy at least 30% of the decision making organs in the country. The results of the 2003 elections showed that Rwanda was among the first world countries with the most outstanding percentage of women in the National Assembly.

6.4.2. The achievements of the Government of Rwanda on economic level

Enhancing economic growth and development

Due to War and the Genocide, the country's infrastructure was destroyed. Between July 1994 and 2000, the Government of National Unity put in place an emergency programme of reconstruction. In this regard, policies and programmes of economic recovery and social welfare were put in place. For instance, the Government designed first a programme of national reconciliation and another one of rehabilitation and development. The latter was presented during Geneva donors' conference in January 1995. Its aims were the restoration of the macro-economic framework of the country, capacity building, reinforcing the participation of local investors and integration of refugees and displaced people. In addition, the Government had to restore favourable conditions for economic and social activities.

Almost 600 million US dollars was received by Rwanda for the period 1995-1996 thanks to the Geneva donors' conference. The international financial contribution served not only to rehabilitate and repair the basic infrastructures but also to increase agricultural activities. It also improved Rwanda's balance of payments. During the second conference held in June 1996, Rwanda received 500 million US dollars for the second recovery programme called Rehabilitation and recovery programme (1995-1998). The third programme presented to the World Bank and International Monetary Fund (IMF) was a structural adjustment. It intended to stabilise the country's macro-economic performance to improve the balance of payments, controlling inflation, etc.

In June 1998, IMF (International Monetary Fund) approved Rwanda's application to achieve Reinforced Structural Adjustment Facility. In 1999, this 3 years programme was transformed into a 'Facility for Poverty Reduction and Growth' (FPRG). It was supported with funds worth 413.3 million USD. Thus, Rwanda embarked on its economic and social construction.

Even if some programmes and policies were conceived, it was from 2000 that the

Government of Rwanda started formulating long term policies. They included Vision 2020 and the Strategic Plan for the Reduction of poverty (EDPRS) which was published in June 2000. These two strategic programmes demonstrated remarkable dynamism because they inspired subsequent policies which were designed in all government sectors.

The Government immediately set out to create fiscal stability and economic growth. Inflation was brought down from 64% in 1994 to fewer than 5% from 1998 up to 2000. In 1994, annual fiscal revenues were zero while in 2002 they stood at nearly 70 billion of Rwandan Francs (frw). The economy grew steadily at an average of 11%, while gross domestic incomes grew at an average of 14.3% per annum since 1995. The process of privatisation of government enterprises started in 1996. Many enterprises were put up for privatisation and shares were sold to local or foreign investors. The government made it a priority to diversify Rwanda's economic base.

The Government of National Unity was committed to rebuilding, expanding and improving the infrastructure of the country in order to facilitate economic growth. Since 2003 new roads have been built and others have been reconstructed to improve the road system.

Other efforts related to promote health conditions in residential houses increased the availability of water and electricity. Up to 2001, only 2.4% of the homes were connected to water supplied by ELECTROGAZ as opposed to 38.1% homesteads which got water from natural wells. The poorest people fetched water from rivers. The average distance between homes and water sources was 703 meters in 2001.

As for electricity, the number of ELECTROGAZ customers increased. It rose from 2% of the population in 1994 to 6% in 2002. In addition, there was a significant difference in living standards between rural and urban dwellers.

Agriculture and animal husbandry

Ever since it took over power in July 1994, the Government of National Unity focused its attention on boosting agricultural production. It sensitised the population to embark on agriculture as soon as peace and security were achieved. It distributed seeds, basic tools, pesticides, etc. to boost agriculture.

To curb the problem of famine and guarantee food security, government priority identified the cultivation of the following crops: maize, rice, sorghum, beans and, Irish potatoes.

Rwanda's economy heavily depended on the export of coffee and tea. The evolution of quantitative production of coffee from 1994 to 2003 was achieved unevenly. The new export crops on which the Government focused its attention included flowers which started fetching foreign exchange to the Rwandan economy. In short, agricultural production increased from 1994. Between 1995 and 2005, it multiplied twofold.

In the field of animal husbandry, government action since 1994 was bent on the following: increasing the reproduction of animals in all regions of the country, reopening of veterinary laboratories and research institutions in animal technology, provision of veterinary medicines and the sensitization of farmers to ensure an increase in animal production.

In 1994 and 2003, the number of domestic animals increased by almost five. Quantitatively, animal husbandry also improved because big-sized animals and the number of cross-breed animals increased though generally, a lot of improvement was still needed.

The achievements of the government of Rwanda in promoting unity and reconciliation, strengthening civic education, and establishing the Agaciro Development Fund have been instrumental in rebuilding the nation after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. These efforts have not only restored peace and stability but also laid a strong foundation for sustainable development. Today, Rwanda stands as a model of recovery and transformation. The continued commitment of both the government and citizens to these initiatives ensures a brighter and more united future for the country.

Application activity 6.4



1. Explain the key principles that guided the political program of the Government of National Unity in Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
2. Assess the measures taken by the government to restore national security and stability after 1994.
3. Analyse the importance of politico-administrative reforms and decentralisation in promoting good governance in Rwanda.
4. Examine the strategies used by the government to promote unity and reconciliation among Rwandans.
5. Discuss the role of justice mechanisms, including Gacaca Courts, in addressing the consequences of the Genocide.
6. Evaluate the achievements made by the Government of National Unity in improving social welfare and economic development in Rwanda.

End of unit assessment 6



A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Describe the situation in Rwanda immediately after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
2. Identify the major political, social, and economic challenges faced by Rwanda after 1994.
3. Explain the key measures taken by the government to address these challenges, including unity and reconciliation, civic education, and the Agaciro Development Fund.

B. Skills

1. Analyse how the challenges faced after 1994 affected Rwanda's recovery and development.
2. Assess the effectiveness of the government's solutions in rebuilding the country.

3. Evaluate the impact of achievements such as unity and reconciliation and the Agaciro Development Fund on Rwanda's progress

C. Attitudes and Values

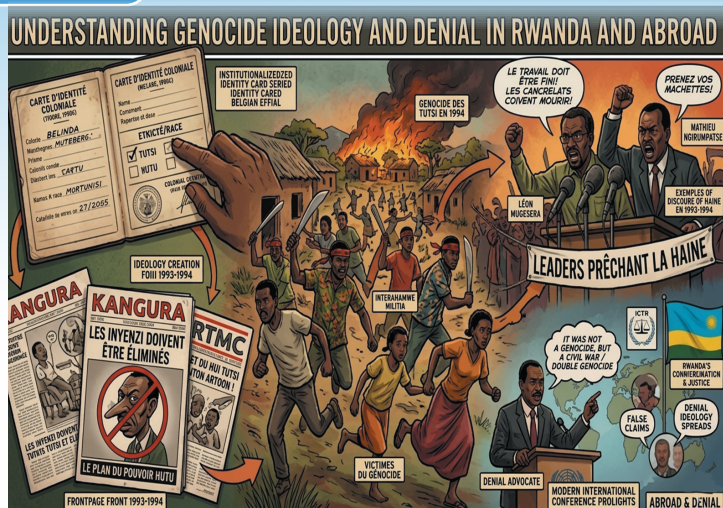
1. Why is it important for citizens to support unity and reconciliation efforts in Rwanda?
2. What attitudes should young people develop to contribute to national development after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi?
3. How can you demonstrate patriotism and responsibility in sustaining the achievements made by the government of Rwanda?

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UNIT 7

THE 1994 GENOCIDE AGAINST THE TUTSI IDEOLOGY AND DENIAL (9periods).



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the 1994 Genocide against Tutsi ideology and its denial in Rwanda and abroad with a commitment to Never Again.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit, students should be able to:

1 Knowledge and understanding

- Explain the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, describe the different forms of its denial, and identify the channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread in Rwanda and abroad.
- Describe and evaluate the strategies used to fight against genocide ideology and denial at both national and international levels..

2 Skills

- Analyse the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi by assessing the different forms of its denial, and examine the various channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread in Rwanda and abroad.
- Assess the strategies used to fight against genocide ideology and denial at both national and international levels.

3 Attitudes and Values

- Judge the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and acknowledge the different forms of its denial, as well as the various channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread in Rwanda and abroad.
- Appreciate the strategies used to fight against genocide ideology and denial at both national and international levels.

Introductory activity 7



Ineza is a History teacher in Senior Five at Groupe Scolaire Nyamata. At the beginning of a lesson, she presented a short video and testimonies about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, after presentation one student claimed that some of the information was exaggerated while others shared what they had seen on social media and heard from different people. She then guided the class to discuss how genocide ideology was formed, how denial appears in different forms, the channels through which such ideas spread in Rwanda and abroad, and the strategies used to fight them. If you had been one of her students, how would you explain the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, identify forms of its denial, and describe the channels through which they spread? Add what you think can be done to effectively fight genocide ideology and denial both in Rwanda and abroad

This unit helps you to understand the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and why it is important to prevent it from happening again. It explains how such harmful ideas were created and spread, as well as the different forms through which genocide denial appears in society today. By learning this, you will better understand the importance of truth, unity, and responsibility in building a peaceful society.

You will also learn about the various channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread in Rwanda and abroad, including media and everyday interactions. In addition, the unit will help you explore the strategies used to fight against these harmful ideas, such as education, laws, and remembrance activities, so that you can become an active citizen who promotes peace and stands against genocide ideology and denial.

7.1. The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi ideology and denial

a) Genocidal ideology in post-independence Rwanda

Learning activity 7.1



During a class discussion at a secondary school in Kigali, a student named Eric shared a story he had seen on social media claiming that the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was exaggerated. Another student, Aline, strongly disagreed and explained that such statements are examples of genocide denial. Their teacher then guided the class to reflect on how genocide ideology was created and spread before 1994, and how similar ideas can still circulate today through media, conversations, and online platforms. The class also discussed efforts made by the government of Rwanda and the international community to fight against genocide ideology and denial through education, laws, and remembrance activities.

Questions:

1. Based on the story, what is meant by the ideology of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi?
2. Identify the form of genocide denial presented in Eric's statement

3. What channels are shown in the scenario through which genocide ideology and denial can spread?
4. Why is Aline's response important in fighting genocide denial?
5. Suggest other possible channels through which genocide ideology and denial may spread in Rwanda and abroad.
6. What strategies are highlighted in the scenario to combat genocide ideology and denial?
7. Propose additional measures that can be taken to fight against genocide ideology and denial.

After regaining independence on 1/7/1962 until July 1994, the PARMEHUTU political party leadership (led by Kayibanda and MNRD led by Juvenal Habyarimana) encouraged Hutu hatred and divisionism towards the Tutsi. They denied their basic human rights including right to their country, education, job opportunities, etc.

The genocidal ideology identified the two antagonist groups like "Us" and "Them" or "You" and after proceeded by the nomination or qualification of those two groups. The genocidal ideology in Rwanda is based on ideas, attitude and practices of discrimination and hatred against the Tutsi. It has been implemented and disseminated by the political leaders since 1959. The Tutsi most important manifestation was persecution, killing, public hatred messages, loss of property, exclusion from political and administrative systems, discrimination in many sectors like education, forced exile, physical and psychological violence, etc.

Since independence, the Tutsi have been identified as "enemies" of the Hutu. In 1960's, the first president of the Republic, Grégoire Kayibanda, used the hatred speeches to qualify the danger of the Tutsi to the Hutu due to the attacks of Inyenzi (groups of refugees) from outside of Rwanda. From 1990 with the attack of Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF-Inkotanyi), the ideological speeches pointed out again the "double treat presented by the Tutsi (of internal and of external)".

Between 1990 and 1994, the Tutsi were qualified as the "enemy", "outsiders" and "suspected" complots. From those qualifications and propaganda, many Newspapers and Radios, called upon all Hutu, "to kill all Tutsi before they were killed".

Besides the presentation of the threats against the Tutsi, another factor was the dehumanization or qualification of enemy not as humankind but as an animal like rats, snakes or cockroaches. The aim incites public reactions against the Tutsi who were considered as a "common enemy". This shows that genocide crime before being an act of physical destruction of the enemy, the genocidal ideology begins by developing ideas of exterminating the 'group enemy'.

b) Discriminatory leadership

Under the two Republics (1962-1994), social inequality was maintained and encouraged by exclusion, favouritism and regionalism.

It was under the Second Republic that the policy of “division, exclusion” and regionalism balance” was reinforced. The social promotion was not based on meritocracy; a choice that has generated negative effects on the development of the country and the relationship among Rwandans.

The prefectures of Gisenyi and Ruhengeri monopolized more positions of responsibility in the public administration. The “quotas system” was adopted in 1970's as a solution to social injustice. However, this policy led to the exclusion and discrimination of the Tutsi from schools and services. It deprived the Tutsi the right to education and employment.

Finally, the governments of the first and second republics had systematically ignored the problem of refugees who were roaming around in the neighbouring countries since 1959. The reaction of the government was that the country was too overpopulated to receive more. It was this repeated refusal that made the Rwandese refugees in the neighbouring countries to organize themselves into a politico-military structure, named Rwandese Patriotic Front (RPF – Inkotanyi) and opted return by force.

7.2. Forms of denial of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

7.2.1. Genocide denial can take many forms:

- State or indicate that the genocide never happened;
- Distort the facts about genocide for the purpose of misleading the public;
- Affirm that there was a double genocide; committed by both sides against each other.
- State or indicate that the genocide was not planned, by minimizing its gravity or consequences, downplay the means by which it was committed or providing wrong statistics about the victims of the Genocide.

With regard to the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, denial took various forms:

- Literal denial (1994-1998) that claimed that no genocide happened in Rwanda. It involved systematically negating the facts of genocide, shutting up the truth and keeping silent about genocidal plans and killings;
- Interpretative denial (1998-2003) for which the ‘drama’ of violence was acknowledged, that it was an inter-ethnic conflict, and it was recast as something other than genocide. Facts are twisted to deny that the killings constituted genocide.
- Implicatory genocide denial (2003 to date) that acknowledges that genocide took place, but involves explicit counter-accusations to blame the ‘other side’, claiming a double genocide (Judi River, Untold story of BBC...)
- The increase of Social Media Platforms which became a new platform for the commission and propagation of genocide denial.
- Minimization

Acknowledging violence occurred but downplaying the scale, organization, or intent. e.g., suggesting far fewer victims or portraying it as less systematic.

Double Genocide Theory

Arguing that there were “two equal genocides” (against both Tutsi and Hutu), which falsely equates the targeted extermination of Tutsi with other wartime killings and obscures the specific intent of the genocide.

Reframing as Civil War

Presenting the events as simply part of a civil war between the government and the Rwandan Patriotic Front, rather than a planned genocide targeting civilians. This has been and is still a great weapon of the abroad-based denial where some organisations of deniers of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi are using this case as a tool to spread the ideology of Genocide.

Victim-Blaming

Suggesting that Tutsi were responsible for provoking the violence, or that they “brought it upon themselves,” which shifts responsibility away from perpetrators. The attribution of the crash of the former president’s get to Tutsi civilians was used by killers to exterminate innocents Tutsi.

Conspiracy Narratives

Promoting claims that the genocide narrative was invented or manipulated for political gain often accusing the current government or international actors of fabricating or controlling the story.

Selective Silence or Omission

Ignoring or excluding the genocide in discussions of history, education, or media, thereby erasing or marginalizing the event.

Misuse of Terminology

Avoiding the term “genocide” and using vague alternatives like “tribal conflict” or “chaos,” which obscures the organized and intentional nature of the killings.

Criminalisation of genocide denial

Although the prohibition of genocide denial is not recognised in international law, nor in the Genocide Convention of 1948, some countries have already enacted national laws punishing genocide denial, by extending their laws prohibiting holocaust denial. We can cite France and Belgium.

Additionally, the EU has adopted Acts under title VI of the EU Treaty Council Framework Decision on combating certain forms and expressions of racism and xenophobia by means of criminal law, which request each Member State to take measures necessary to ensure punishment of publicly condemnation, denying or grossly trivializing crimes of genocide as defined by the Statute of the International Criminal Court.

In Rwanda, Article 10 of the Constitution provides a positive obligation on the state to prevent, punish and fight against denial and revisionism of genocide as well as eradication of genocide ideology and all its manifestations.

Law No. 59/2018 of 22nd August 2018 on the crime of genocide ideology and related crimes, is more explicit and defines the crime of genocide ideology which includes

denial, with sentences for these crimes ranging between 5 and 7 years of imprisonment. Furthermore, a non-government entity, company, cooperative or political organisation can also be liable for the offence of genocide denial under Rwandan law and once found guilty, the court may, in addition to the penalty of a fine, order for their dissolution or prohibition of their operations in Rwanda.

How to fight genocide denial

Experience shows that its long struggle for older generations who were part and parcel of the country's journey since 1950's.

But we can dismantle these denial narratives by leveraging on the youth who make up 70% of the population.

Youth should learn, understand and not be cowed or defensive about the organisation, execution and aftermath of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

They should also learn and understand ways to identify genocide denial, how to spot it on social media and how to respond to it.

They should also get involved in commemoration activities and connect with fellow youth who survived.

This fight is for our future, it is existential it involves us all, including Rwanda Finance Ltd. They should also amplify the voices of the survivors, relate to the facts, and explain that there was indeed Genocide against the Tutsi.

We should come together in responding and fighting back against revisionists like Judi Rever and other likeminded promoters of the 'double genocide' myth. For e.g, Judi Rever was scheduled to speak at the University of Cambridge Centre for Geopolitics on 21 April 2021, but 100 academics and journalists signed an open letter against the decision to give her such a platform. Such initiatives are important in fighting the likes of Judi Rever.

Rwandans should publish more on the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and promote reliable/truthful literature.

Countries should condemn, in the strongest terms, any efforts to deny or minimize the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi the same way they do with the Holocaust.

It is necessary to accelerate the processes of extradition and prosecution of genocidaires still at large. This is a prerequisite for everything as the fight against negationists can't happen in a context of impunity.

To fight against genocide denial and accept our history as Rwandans will lead us to the sustainable unity and reconciliation with our history, thus we build the Rwanda we want.

We are witnessing a spike in genocide denial driven by the young generation, mostly offspring of genocide perpetrators, fugitives and ideologues. This is worrying but not surprising. Most are in Europe and US, they take advantage of their systems under the pretext of freedom of speech, spread propaganda denying genocide against the Tutsi.

Application activity 7.1



1. Critically analyse how the political discourse from 1962 to 1994 systematically dehumanised the Tutsi and prepared Rwandan society for the 1994 Genocide.
2. Evaluate the role of media, including newspapers, radio, and social media, in both spreading genocide ideology and facilitating denial narratives.
3. Compare and contrast literal, interpretative, and Implicatory forms of genocide denial, illustrating how each affects collective memory and reconciliation.
4. Assess the effectiveness of Rwanda's legal framework, including Law N° 59/2018 and constitutional provisions, in preventing and punishing genocide ideology and denial.
5. Propose a comprehensive strategy that combines education, commemoration, legal measures, and international cooperation to combat genocide denial and promote sustainable unity in Rwanda..

7.3. Channels of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial

Learning activity 7.3



During a community workshop in Kigali, participants were shown examples of how harmful ideas about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi are spread. One facilitator explained that these ideas are spread through newspapers, radio programs, social media platforms, and even informal conversations in communities. Some attendees shared that they had seen posts on social media claiming that the genocide was exaggerated, while others mentioned that rumors in neighborhoods sometimes portrayed Tutsi as "outsiders" or "enemies." The facilitator emphasized that these channels not only spread genocide ideology but also facilitate denial and distortion of facts. The workshop then focused on ways to identify these channels and respond appropriately.

Questions

1. Identify at least four channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread according to the scenario.
2. Explain how social media can be used to spread genocide denial.
3. How do informal conversations in communities contribute to the propagation of genocide ideology?
4. Why is it important to recognize the different channels of genocide ideology and denial?
5. Suggest practical steps that individuals and communities can take to counter the spread of genocide ideology and denial through these channels.

The genocide against the Tutsi in 1994 did not occur spontaneously. It was the result of a long process of ideological construction, dissemination, and reinforcement through various channels. These same or adapted channels have also been used to spread denial and distortion of the genocide after 1994. Understanding these channels is essential for preventing future atrocities and combating genocide denial.

a) Political Leadership and State Institutions

Before and during the genocide, political elites played a central role in spreading genocidal ideology. Leaders within the government used speeches, policies, and administrative structures to promote hatred against Tutsi.

Institutions at national and local levels such as communal authorities helped organise and mobilise citizens to participate in killings. The state thus became a key channel for normalizing violence and embedding the ideology into governance.

After the genocide, some political actors both inside and outside Rwanda have contributed to denial by promoting narratives that distort responsibility or minimize the crimes.

b) Media and Propaganda

Media was one of the most powerful tools used to spread genocide ideology. The radio station Radio Télévision Libre des Mille Collines (RTLM) broadcast hate speech, dehumanized Tutsi, and directly incited violence. Similarly, the newspaper Kangura published propaganda such as the "Hutu Ten Commandments," which reinforced division and hatred. In the post-genocide era, media especially online platforms has also become a channel for denial, where misinformation, revisionism, and conspiracy theories circulate widely.

c) Education System

Before 1994, the education system contributed to ethnic division by teaching biased histories and reinforcing stereotypes about Hutu, Tutsi, and Twa. Discriminatory policies, such as ethnic quotas, institutionalised inequality and legitimised exclusion.

Today, denial can also spread through informal or manipulated educational content, especially outside Rwanda, where inaccurate teachings or omissions distort historical truth. For instance, a European-based association of former Genocidaires and their decedents formed **Jambo Asbl whose mission is to preach** falsely about Genocide throw truth distortion.

d) Social Networks and Community Structures

Genocide ideology was spread through everyday social interactions families, neighbours, and local leaders. Community meetings and social pressure encouraged participation in violence, making the ideology appear socially acceptable.

Similarly, denial often spreads through diaspora communities, peer groups, and informal discussions, where narratives are repeated and reinforced without critical examination.

e) Religious Institutions

Religious institutions, including churches, held significant influence in Rwandan society.

While some clergy protected victims, others participated in or enabled the spread of genocidal ideology, sometimes allowing churches to become sites of massacres.

In the context of denial, some individuals have used religious or moral arguments to deflect responsibility or reinterpret events in misleading ways.

f) International Actors and Silence

The role of the international community including organizations like the United Nations was marked by inaction and failure to intervene effectively during the genocide. This silence indirectly allowed the ideology to flourish unchecked. After 1994, some international narratives have contributed to denial or distortion by framing the genocide inaccurately, for example as a “tribal conflict” rather than a targeted extermination.

g) Digital Platforms and Modern Communication

In recent years, social media and online platforms have become significant channels for spreading genocide denial. False information, manipulated content, and revisionist narratives can reach global audiences and influence public perception. These platforms make it easier for denial to persist, especially among younger generations who did not witness the events first-hand.

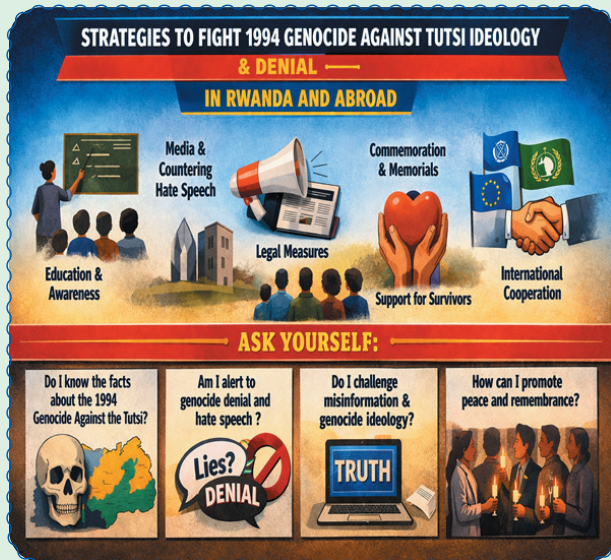
Application activity 7.3



1. In your view, which channels are most commonly used to spread genocide ideology and denial, and why do you think they are effective?
2. How does social media influence the spread of genocide denial, and what can be done to address this challenge?
3. Why is it important for society to recognize and critically examine the different channels through which genocide ideology is communicated?

7.4. Strategies to fight 1994 genocide against the ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad

Learning activity 7.4



1. What role does education and awareness play in preventing genocide ideology and denial?
2. How can media and communication be used to counter hate speech and misinformation related to the genocide?
3. Why are legal measures important in fighting genocide denial both in Rwanda and internationally?

4. In what ways can individuals and countries promote remembrance, support survivors, and strengthen international cooperation to prevent genocide ideology?

To prevent the spread of genocide ideology and denial of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda, several key strategies are used:

1. Education and Awareness.

Promoting accurate teaching of history through schools, universities, and public programs helps people understand the causes, facts, and consequences of the genocide and reject denial.

2. Legal Measures

Rwanda has laws that criminalize genocide ideology and denial. Internationally, institutions like the United Nations support accountability and condemn denial through conventions and resolutions.

3. Commemoration and Memory Preservation

Annual remembrance events such as Kwibuka, memorial sites, and survivor testimonies help preserve truth and honor victims, countering attempts to distort history.

4. Media Regulation and Responsible Communication

Monitoring and addressing hate speech in traditional and digital media helps prevent the spread of harmful propaganda and denial narratives.

5. Community Engagement and Dialogue

Encouraging unity, reconciliation, and open discussions within communities helps dismantle prejudice and misinformation.

6. International Cooperation

Countries and organizations collaborate to track, expose, and challenge genocide denial globally, especially within diaspora communities.

7. Research and Documentation

Supporting scholars, archives, and institutions to document evidence ensures that facts remain accessible and verifiable, making denial harder to sustain.

Brief, Combating genocide ideology and denial requires education, strong laws, remembrance, responsible media, and both national and international efforts to protect historical truth.

Application activity 7.4



1. Why is it important for political leaders to promote unity and truth rather than division, and how should citizens respond when leaders spread harmful ideologies?
2. How can individuals show responsibility and critical thinking when consuming media information to avoid being influenced by propaganda or misinformation?
3. In what ways can education help build values of tolerance and respect among learners to prevent genocide ideology and denial?
4. Why is it important for communities to challenge harmful beliefs and support open dialogue, even when such beliefs are widely accepted in their social groups?
5. How can young people contribute to preserving truth and memory about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in order to promote peace and prevent denial?

End of unit assessment 6



A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Explain what is meant by the ideology of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and describe how it was developed over time.
2. Identify and describe three forms of genocide denial, giving one example for each.
3. Outline the main channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread in Rwanda and abroad.

B. Skills

1. A student claims on social media that the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was exaggerated.
2. Analyse this statement and explain which form of denial it represents.

3. Suggest how you would respond using facts and critical thinking.
4. Examine the role of media (radio, newspapers, and social media) in spreading both genocide ideology and denial.
 - **Compare** their impact before 1994 and today.
1. You are given a scenario where harmful rumours are spreading in a community.
 - Demonstrate how you would identify the channel used and propose appropriate actions to stop the spread.

C. Attitudes and Values

1. Explain why it is important for individuals to promote truth, unity, and respect in preventing genocide ideology and denial.
2. Discuss how you, as a young person, can contribute to preserving the memory of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and fighting denial.
3. Evaluate the importance of standing against harmful beliefs and misinformation, even when they are widely accepted in your community.

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